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Los Angeles

The Dissemination of North African Christian and Intellectual Culture in Late Antiquity

A dissertation submitted in partial satisfaction of the requirements for the degree Doctor of Philosophy in History

by

Stacey Rebecca Graham

2005

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LIST OF ABBREVIATIONS

AB	*Analecta Bollandiana*
AASS	*Acta sanctorum*
BHL	*Bibliotheca hagiographica latina*
BS	*Bibliotheca sanctorum*
CCSL	*Corpus christianorum series latina*
ChLA	*Chartae latini antiquiores*
CLA	*Codices latini antiquiores*
CPG	*Clavis patrum graecorum*
CPL	*Clavis patrum latinorum*
CSEL	*Corpus scriptorum ecclesiasticorum latinorum*
MGH	*Monumenta Germaniae Historica*
Auct. ant.	*Auctores antiquissimi*
Chron. min.	*Chronica minora*
Script. rer. Merov.	*Scriptores rerum Merovingicarum*
MS	manuscript (MSS, manuscripts)
PL	*Patrologia latina*
PLRE	*Prosopography of the Later Roman Empire*
RA	*Recherches Augustiniennes*
RB	*Revue Bénédictine*
RHT	*Recherches d'histoire des textes*

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ABSTRACT OF THE DISSERTATION

The Dissemination of North African
Christian and Intellectual Culture
in Late Antiquity

by

Stacey Rebecca Graham
Doctor of Philosophy in History
University of California, Los Angeles, 2005
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This dissertation examines the means by which the classical and Christian culture of North Africa was transmitted to Europe in the period between the death of Augustine in 430 and the Muslim conquest of Carthage in 697. After the fall of Carthage, North Africa was essentially cut off from Christian Europe, but its cultural legacy was preserved through texts that traveled to Europe before this rupture. This rich and transitional period in Africa has, until recently, been largely neglected by

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modern historians. Specifically, the movement of late antique literary and religious culture from North Africa to Europe during this period has not yet been examined in detail. My research seeks to shed more light on this important movement, by which almost all textual evidence about late antique North Africa was preserved on the opposite side of the Mediterranean through late antique and medieval manuscripts.

To examine the movement of people, books, and cults systematically, the dissertation is organized into five chapters, the first of which is an overview of the historical connections already binding Africa to the Roman world by the year 430, as well as how those contacts change during the Vandal regnum and Byzantine reconquest. The following four chapters look at the places at which African learning arrived in Europe during Late Antiquity, and are organized according to different types of evidence: letter collections, saints' cults, the genre of the *De viris illustribus*, and textual transmission. Each of these groups of material illustrates a different context in which people and texts traveled, and reveals points of contact across the Mediterranean in Late Antiquity. These contacts followed trade routes, pilgrimage routes, written communications among scholarly and religious communities, and the correspondence of imperial, papal, and ecclesiastical administration.

The evidence of letter collections, saints' cults, and African authors in *De viris illustribus* lists serves as a fitting prelude to the evidence of manuscripts: not only does the evidence of Chapters Two, Three, and Four support the broad patterns outlined in Chapter Five, but, fundamentally, these preliminary chapters all deal with the transmission of texts through manuscripts, if only indirectly.

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INTRODUCTION

A group of texts on biblical study called the Donatist Compendium, which was compiled in Africa during the fourth or fifth centuries, can be found in its entire form in only two medieval manuscripts: one from St. Gall, and one from Nonantola.[1] The question of how this otherwise unknown compendium came to be copied into these two manuscripts became the departure point for this dissertation. When did this group of texts leave Africa, and where did it arrive in Europe? Who brought it from Africa, or requested it from Europe? The Donatist Compendium is not the only work that raises such questions. Every Latin manuscript containing a text of North African origin implies that the text reached Europe before the end of the seventh century. This hints at groups of people, carrying books, moving north across the Mediterranean during the period of Late Antiquity. This dissertation will attempt to answer these questions by examining the channels of communication between letter writers, the movement of communities of exiles from Africa, the knowledge of African texts and writers, and the transmission of African texts to Europe during Late Antiquity.

In other words, this dissertation examines the means by which the classical and Christian culture of North Africa was transmitted to Europe in the period between the death of Augustine in 430 and the Muslim conquest of Carthage in 697. After the

[1] For more specific information concerning this text and these manuscripts, refer to Chapter Five, sections II. K. and III. B. See also R. Rouse and C. McNelis, "North African Literary Activity: A Cyprian Fragment, the Stichometric Lists and a Donatist Compendium" in *RHT* 30 (2000): 189-238.

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fall of Carthage, North Africa was essentially cut off from Christian Europe, but its cultural legacy was preserved through texts that traveled to Europe before this rupture. This rich and transitional period in Africa, spanning the Vandal take-over of the fifth century and the Byzantine reconquest of the sixth, has been largely neglected by modern historians. Specifically, the movement of late antique literary and religious culture from North Africa to Europe during this period has not yet been examined in detail. My research seeks to shed more light on this important movement, by which almost all textual evidence about late antique North Africa was preserved on the opposite side of the Mediterranean through late antique and medieval manuscripts.

A. Historiography

Christian, literary, administrative, and even palaeographical considerations of late antique North Africa have certainly not been neglected during the twentieth and early twenty-first centuries. They are fundamental for any in-depth study of North Africa, though none of them focus significant attention to the movement of people and books from Africa to Europe. The seven-volume *Histoire littéraire de l'Afrique chrétienne* by Paul Monceaux[2] provides a meticulous narrative of literary activity in North Africa up to the Arab conquest. Its material is dated, however, having been written before the publication of E.A. Lowe's *Codices Latini Antiquiores* (henceforth,

[2] P. Monceaux, *Histoire littéraire de l'Afrique chrétienne depuis les origines jusqu'à l'invasion arabe*, 7 vols. (Paris 1901-1923).

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CLA),[3] the critical editions in the *Corpus christianorum*, and two important prosopographical works, *The Prosopography of the Later Roman Empire. A.D. 395-527*,[4] and the *Prosopographie chrétienne du bas-empire*, volume I: *Afrique (303-533)*.[5] Christian Courtois' indispensible *Les Vandales et l'Afrique* is masterly in its detail and knowledge of source material for fifth-century Africa.[6] Its main focus, however, is a social and political survey of the Vandal kingdom; it does not deal with intellectual culture or contacts with Mediterranean Europe. The articles of François Dolbeau are especially pertinent, for they identify rare or previously unknown African texts found in medieval manuscripts and then postulate exemplar manuscripts possibly from late antique North Africa. I hope that by bringing together the findings of some of Dolbeau's articles, as well as the research of all these secondary sources, a more comprehensive picture of African textual and cultural transmission will emerge.

B. Chapter Organization

To examine the movement of people, books, and cults systematically, the dissertation is organized into five chapters, the first of which is an overview of the historical connections already binding Africa to the Roman world by the year 430, as

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[3] E.A. Lowe, *Codices latini antiquiores: a palaeographical guide to Latin manuscripts prior to the ninth century*, 11 vols. (Oxford 1934-1966) and Suppl. (Oxford 1971).

[4] A.H.M. Jones, J.R. Martindale, and J. Morris, *The Prosopography of the Later Roman Empire*, 3 vols. (Cambridge 1971-c.1992).

[5] A. Mandouze, *Prosopographie chrétienne du Bas-Empire*, vol. 1: *Prosopographie de l'Afrique chrétienne (303-533)* (Paris 1982). Also helpful is C. Pietri and L. Pietri, *Prosopographie chrétienne du Bas-Empire*, vol. 2: *Italie (313-604)* (Paris 1982-2000).

[6] C. Courtois, *Les Vandales et l'Afrique* (Paris 1955).

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well as how those contacts change during the Vandal regnum and Byzantine reconquest. The following four chapters look at the places at which African learning arrived in Europe during Late Antiquity, and are organized according to different types of evidence. Each of these groups of material illustrates a different context in which people and texts traveled, and reveals points of contact across the Mediterranean in Late Antiquity. These contacts followed trade routes, pilgrimage routes, written communications among scholarly and religious communities, and the correspondence of imperial, papal, and ecclesiastical administration.

Chapter Two looks at letter collections, which provide ample information about the networks of the Christian intellectual elite, who formed epistolary communities. The letter collections of Fulgentius and Ferrandus are the richest epistolographical sources for North Africa after 430, and reveal the contacts that were both maintained and forged with the Christian elite of Rome and Naples. Chapter Three searches through late antique saints' calendars, martyrologies, saints' *Vitae*, and other literary sources for African saints venerated in Mediterranean Europe. Locating how and where these cults reached Europe helps to locate the communities of people that must have brought these cults (along with books) with them from Africa. An appendix at the end of this chapter provides a list and basic bibliography of African saints from these sources. Chapter Four looks for the knowledge of African writers and writings through a close examination of the late antique *De viris illustribus* lists. These lists reveal what works by African authors were known in the places and times that the lists were compiled. The transmission of African texts is examined more deeply in the last chapter, Chapter Five, which looks at texts from

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Africa that appear in late antique manuscripts written in Europe, and traces where those texts arrived in Europe and the possible reasons why. The appendix to Chapter Five lists all known (Latin) manuscripts of possible African provenance, with brief descriptions of their contents. A third appendix, following the Conclusion, lists all known authors and their extant works from North Africa from 430 to 697, including anonymous works and collections. The purpose of this last appendix is primarily to serve as a bibliographic guide, but perhaps to also offer perspective on just how many African texts survive from this period. The chapters and appendices all focus on different aspects of North African culture that arrived in Europe during Late Antiquity by means of people traveling with books, revealing a broader picture of the frequency of travel out of North Africa at this time.

C. Theoretical Underpinnings

Focusing on the travel of texts from Africa to Europe demonstrates that the Mediterranean was a conduit, rather than a barrier, of communication in Late Antiquity, at least up to the end of the seventh century, when the Latin-speaking world experienced a north-south split three centuries after the east-west split of the Roman Empire. Much of the theoretical framework for this topic concerns the idea of a break in communications across the Mediterranean, first suggested by the Belgian scholar Henri Pirenne in the 1930s.[7] On the basis of economic patterns, especially trade, he postulated that Late Antiquity ended and the Middle Ages began only after

[7] H. Pirenne, *Mahomet et Charlemagne* (Paris 1937). Eng. transl.: *Mohammed and Charlemagne*, transl. B. Miall (London 1958).

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the Arab invasions, and not with the political dissolution of the Roman Empire (476). The Pirenne thesis, although based on economic observations, has continued to dominate the study of cultural continuities in this transitional period. Richard Hodges and David Whitehouse, in their revision of the Pirenne thesis by the inclusion of archaeological data, examine the evidence of a certain type of amphora known as North African red slip ware (ARS).[8] The distribution patters of these amphorae reveal that trade was already in decline before the seventh century. The extensive study by Michael McCormick, *The Origins of the European Economy: Communications and Commerce, A.D. 300-900*,[9] takes the issue a step further by looking beyond commerce, at travel and communication in the period up to the year 900. McCormick therefore concentrates on people who travel and what they brought with them.

My work will build on these strands of scholarship, by looking at how the established routes of economic and personal contact through commerce and travel also facilitated cultural contact through texts, manuscripts, and saints' cults. My examination of the transmission of texts and the travel of communities of people, however, shows that the dissemination of North African Christian and intellectual culture ended for the most part well before the Arab invasions. This dissemination parallels economic patterns up to around the late sixth century, but is not nearly as

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[8] R. Hodges and D. Whitehouse, *Mohammed, Charlemagne and the Origins of Europe: Archaeology and the Pirenne Thesis* (Ithaca, NY 1983, repr. 1986).

[9] M. McCormick, *The Origins of the European Economy: Communications and Commerce, A.D. 300-900* (Cambridge 2001).

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present throughout the course of the seventh century. This fits with the thesis of Hodges and David, who see "the final degradation of Rome in the sixth century and...the Arab advance after 630 as the consequence rather than the cause of the catastrophe."[10]

D. Periodization

The Arab takeover of the capital city of Carthage, however, remains a convenient ending point for the period under examination in my dissertation. It not only marks an end to Christian North Africa as far as modern scholarship is concerned, but it also marked such an end in the eyes of the contemporary Christian world. The choice of the year 430 as the beginning point of the examined time period, perhaps, needs greater explanation. It is not a date that often opens a study of the late antique world. The period of Late Antiquity is given various starting dates in modern scholarship: A.H.M. Jones starts with 284, the beginning of Diocletian's program of administrative reform[11]; Peter Brown starts even earlier, with the year 150 and the accession of the Antonine emperors[12]; and Averil Cameron uses 395 as her starting point, the death of Theodosius I, which officially split the empire into administrative halves.[13] For the purposes of my research, which follows people and

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[10] Hodges and Whitehouse, *Mohammed, Charlemagne*, p. 52.

[11] A.H.M. Jones, *The Later Roman Empire, 284-602: A Social, Economic and Administrative Survey* (Norman, OK 1964).

[12] P. Brown, *The World of Late Antiquity A.D. 150-750* (London 1971).

[13] A. Cameron, *The Mediterranean World in Late Antiquity A.D. 395-600* (London 1993).

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books as they left North Africa, 430 is an appropriate starting point. Augustine's see of Hippo fell to the Vandals that year, only one or two years after the Vandals entered North Africa, causing entire communities of people (especially Orthodox Christians and clergymen) to take their belongings (i.e., books) and flee. Because the arrival of the Vandals gave a new focus to African Catholics, wealthier Romanized African landowners, and the eastern emperors with an eye on their territory, and moreover because their control of Africa lasted over a century, this invasion marks a clear turning point in North African history. The coincidence of Augustine's death, while the Vandals were laying siege to his city, further signifies the end of the late Roman world for Africa.[14] These are the reasons why this dissertation examines the period from 430 to 697.

E. Africitas

Another issue underlying my subject concerns the extent to which a conscious cultural identity on the part of North Africans contributed to the dissemination of Christian and intellectual culture. Historians have pointed out the peculiar nature of North African Christianity as one of the stimuli behind the ecclesiastical disputes that provoked the writing of a significant corpus of doctrinal texts, which provides important textual evidence for the subsequent chapters. The purpose of my dissertation is not to argue for or against this theory of *Africitas*, or the "African

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[14] This is also implied in the title of H. Marrou, *Saint Augustin et la fin de la culture antique* (Paris 1958).

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temperament," since I hope to show that North African texts were read and saints were venerated in much the same way as any other texts or saints during this period. This issue will therefore only be summarized briefly here, as it is worthwhile to consider if and how Africans were different in a dissertation that singles out African culture for examination.

Peter Brown remarks that "it is easy to be glib about this 'African temperament.' But it would be superficial to ignore the strength of the harsh and exacting patterns of behaviour current in a provincial society."[15] In tracing the roots of Augustine's religious formation, Brown points to the "drastic" form which Christianity took in Africa.[16] Susan Raven describes *Africitas* as "superstitious, philistine, harsh, conservative, and by turns obsequious and obstinate, and yet, *in extremis*, capable both as a people and as individuals of great courage and nobility."[17] Antique observers have arrived at the same conclusions: in the second century A.D., the Greek historian Plutarch noted that the Carthaginians "keep obstinately to their decisions [and] are austere."[18] The Catholic bishops did display a notable obstinance during the Donatist controversy of the fourth century, the Arian persecutions of the fifth century, the Three Chapters controversy of the sixth century, and the Monothelite controversy of the seventh century. This obstinancy was tempered,

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[15] P. Brown, *Augustine of Hippo: A Biography* (Berkeley 1967), p. 33.

[16] *Ibid.*

[17] S. Raven, *Rome in Africa*, 3rd ed. (London 1993), p. 23. It should be noted that Raven is a journalist. Furthermore, she does not use the word *Africitas*.

[18] Quoted in Raven, *op. cit.*, p. 30.

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however, by constant contacts with the Roman Church, refuting the idea of the separatism or isolationism of the African Church. The African Catholics did not see themselves as a rival Church to Rome, but as a Church truly preserving the orthodox traditions of the West, and opposed those not abiding by this strict orthodoxy.

In his seminal work on the fourth-century Donatist Church, W.H.C. Frend considers Christianity in Africa as an anomaly in the religious experience of Africa that lasted four hundred years.[19] Those four hundred years, however, saw the African Church through the split of the Roman Empire, the "fall" of the West, the Vandal invasion, and the Byzantine reconquest. Seen in that light, African Catholicism was at least more resilient than the African political situation. The Romanized African Catholics, however outspoken they might have been, were in the broad view a minority among the general North African population, an impression that is surely not gained from the general focus of this dissertation. The reason why the minority of Romanized African Catholics take up the majority of the history of late antique North Africa is because of the textual witnesses of their Christian culture that they were able to leave behind due to the contacts that they forged with Europe during this period.

The word *Africitas* is actually linguistic in origin, referring to peculiarities supposedly found in African Latin using literary and epigraphical evidence.[20] Like

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[19] W.H.C. Frend, *The Donatist Church: A Movement of Protest in Roman North Africa* (Oxford 1952, repr. 1971), p. 333. See also *id.*, "North Africa and Europe in the Early Middle Ages" in *Transactions of the Royal Historical Society*, 5th ser., 5 (1955): 61-80.

[20] K. Sittl, *Die lokalen Verschiedenheiten der lateinischen Sprache mit besonderer Berücksichtigung des afrikanischen Lateins* (Erlangen 1882, repr. Hildesheim 1972), was the first to put forth this theory. For epigraphy, see J. Kajanto, "Peculiarities of Latin Nomenclature in North Africa" in *Philologus* 108 (1964): 310-312.

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the theory of the "African temperament," however, this idea of an identifiable African dialect has been refuted by modern scholarship.[21] As far as spoken Latin can be discerned, African Latin shared some characteristics with Latin spoken in Spain, Sardinia, and southern Italy,[22] which is natural given the geographic proximity and administrative ties to these regions. As for written Latin, the language used by the African Apuleius in the second century reveals not "an African sub-culture," but rather "the mainstream of Latin culture and literature."[23] Tertullian (d. c. 225), furthermore, is often considered the founder of "Christian" Latin.[24] Even in the second half of the sixth century, the African Fulgentius the Mythographer wrote in a style that is reminiscent not only of Apuleius, but also of Ennodius in late fifth-/early sixth-century Italy and Sidonius in fifth-century Gaul.[25] In conclusion, neither the religious nor the linguistic theory of African peculiarity stands the test of time and scholarship. More evidence keeps surfacing, showing that certain "African" characteristics are actually "Mediterranean" characterisitics. Africa (that is, the more

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[21] E. Löfstedt, *Philologischer Kommentar zur Peregrinatio Aetheriae* (Uppsala 1911), p. 18; E. Löfstedt, *Late Latin* (Oslo 1959), p. 42; and S. Lancel, "Y a-t-il une Africitas?" in *Revue des études latines* 63 (1985): 161-182.

[22] H. Petersmann, "Gab es ein afrikanisches Latein? Neue Sichten eines alten Problems der lateinischen Sprachwissenschaft" in B. García-Hernández, ed., *Estudios de Lingüística Latina* (Madrid 1988), pp. 126-136, at p. 131.

[23] S. Harrison, J. Hilton, and V. Hunink, *Apuleius: Rhetorical Works* (Oxford 2001), p. 1.

[24] Raven, *Rome in Africa*, p. 124.

[25] G. Hays, "'*Romuleis Libicisque Litteris*': Fulgentius and the 'Vandal Renaissance'" in A.H. Merrills, *Vandals, Romans and Berbers: New Perspectives on Late Antique North Africa* (Aldershot, Hants, England 2004), pp. 101-132, at p. 102.

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urbanized, Romanized parts) was part of the larger Latin Mediterranean world precisely because of the contacts which this dissertation seeks to trace.

F. Restatement of Purpose

Trade routes and routes of an administrative or ecclesiastical nature connected the Latin provinces of North Africa to the rest of the Latin-speaking world (and even in some cases to the Greek world) of the Mediterranean during Late Antiquity. Although many people and texts traveled these routes *to* North Africa, I will concentrate only on the influential people and texts that went out *from* North Africa to other points in the western Mediterranean. North African texts from the fifth, sixth, and seventh centuries differ from those of Spain, Gaul, and Italy in that they are preserved through dissemination that took place, for the most part, outside of Africa itself. This immediately raises the question of how people and texts left Africa, and also points to the importance of these sources that were actively preserved across the sea.

The Late Antique passage of North African Christian and intellectual culture to Europe was a gradual process, which has not been sufficiently explored in modern scholarship. My dissertation will examine where this culture, carried in the form of books by communities of people, arrived in the western provinces of the former Roman Empire, particularly Spain, Gaul, and Italy. Such an examination will shed light on how the former Roman provinces of western North Africa remained very much a part of the Mediterranean world during the transition between the Roman Empire and the barbarian kingdoms of the West. Tracing cultural contacts between

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Africa and the rest of the Mediterranean, during a time when the sea was becoming a barrier to communication, emphasizes the role of Roman classical and ecclesiastical heritage as a means of cultural and intellectual bridge in an age of transition.

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Chapter One: The Contexts for Contacts: North Africa in the Mediterranean World of Late Antiquity

A. Introduction

People, their books, and their saints left North Africa for various reasons in the years from the death of Augustine in 430 to the Muslim conquest of Carthage in 697. These reasons are more fully understood within the larger context of political, military, social, religious, and cultural changes of the later western empire. These developments caused, effected, and changed the routes of contact, trade, and travel between North Africa and the rest of the former provinces. Because individuals mainly traveled along established routes of commercial and administrative communications, a survey of these existing routes across the Mediterranean provides a proper background for the routes taken by people and their books or cults. This chapter will introduce the topic of dissemination of intellectual and Christian culture out of North Africa by looking at the physical routes, from Africa to overseas destinations, available to travelers.

Contacts of an economic nature followed the trade routes that crossed the Mediterranean, as well as the routes of the ships that brought the grain supply to the imperial capital (or capitals). Contacts of an administrative nature connected not only the smaller North African cities to the provincial capital at Carthage, but also Carthage to the imperial capitals at Rome, Ravenna, and Constantinople. These paths were populated by entourages of government officials, legates, notaries, and scribes, carrying official correspondence, decrees, and other documents. Ecclesiastical

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contacts, which largely include participation in councils, as well as appeals from bishops to the primary western see of Rome, were another means by which a great volume of texts were passed from Africa to Europe. Contacts of an intellectual nature, while not part of a regulated, bureaucratical system such as the contacts already mentioned, nevertheless tended to follow the same routes, with students, scholars, and poets flocking to Rome or Constantinople to exchange ideas or look for patronage in the intellectual milieux of the capital cities.

This chapter is organized around the central theme of contacts between specific places in North Africa and specific destinations in Europe, beginning with the provincial organization of the North African provinces which predates the chronological parameters of the years 430 to 697. This starting point is essential because the provincial structure set in place during the late Republic and early Empire, later modified by Diocletian at the end of the third century, is basically the same structure of the North African provinces throughout Late Antiquity. Even the Vandal invasion of the early fifth century could not undo the existing communications network of North Africa, and the Vandal kings readily adopted the Roman structures which suited them. The Byzantine reconquest of the sixth century, moreover, only reinstated what Roman forms were abandoned or appropriated by the Vandals. This provincial structure, including legal and juridical branches, furthermore underlies the ecclesiastical administrative structure later set in place with the bureaucratization of Christianity, as well as many of the economic routes connecting the major cities of the empire. This interrelation of the political,

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economic, and ecclesiastical infrastructures is apparent through their shared routes of communication.

B. Roman North Africa

For the western provinces of North Africa, the provincial structure that began in the second century B.C. was the first structure connecting Africa to the Roman world. When Carthage was conquered by Rome during the third Punic War in 146 B.C., the Republic, which was already becoming an empire, acquired land for the first time in what later became the western North African provinces. Rome had already wrenched Corsica and Sardinia away from Africa, as well as the African foothold in Sicily, by the mid-third century B.C. These three islands, once part of the Punic empire and eventually (seven centuries later) part of the Vandal empire, remained close to North Africa as means of dissemination between Africa and mainland Europe in Late Antiquity. Much of this closeness resulted from simple geographical proximity: Carthage was only about one hundred and sixty miles across the sea from Sicily, and about the same distance from Sardinia as well. The first Roman province of Africa, not surprisingly, was also the closest. Subsequent acquisitions from the Julio-Claudians to the Severans expanded the provincial borders from present-day Morocco in the west to bilingual Libya in the east.

Roman North Africa was divided into the main provinces of Mauretania, Numidia, and Africa, from west to east, at an early stage. By the end of the third and beginning of the fourth century A.D., however, new provinces emerged from the

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older ones and boundaries were more specific.[26] The main province of Africa, in which Carthage was the main city, became Africa Proconsularis. Parts of southern Africa Proconsularis became the province of Byzacena, which stretched along the coast to Tripolitania (modern Libya), the bilingual crossroads of Latin- and Greek-speaking Africa. To the east of Africa Proconsularis was Numidia, which would itself divide into two by the seventh century. Augustine's cities of Hippo Regius and Thagaste, once Numidian, became part of Africa Proconsularis in the late third century. Beyond Numidia to the east was Mauretania, which stretched all the way to the Atlantic Ocean and even at times contained a portion of the Iberian peninsula directly across the Straits of Gibraltar. By the fourth century, Mauretania was split into the three provinces of Mauretania Tingitana, Mauretania Caesariensis, and Mauretania Sitifensis, from west to east respectively. Each province had a provincial capital, though Carthage was always the largest and most important city, the capital of the proconsular province, and was considered a second Rome.

In the year 430 North Africa was comprised of seven provinces, the most important of which was always Africa Proconsularis. This province was so named because it was headed by a proconsul, a position that was largely nominative and for the purpose of advancing the careers of transplanted Roman aristocrats. The provinces of consular rank, including Numidia and Byzacena, were administered by governors, whose primary duties were judicial in nature, though they were also

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[26] B.H. Warmington, *The North African Provinces from Diocletian to the Vandal Conquest* (Westport, CT 1954, repr. 1971), pp. 1 ff. Also see Jones, *The Later Roman Empire*, vol. II, Appendix II: "The *Notitia Dignitatum*," pp. 1417ff.

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responsible for the collection of taxes.[27] Lesser-ranking provinces such as Mauretania, furthermore, were governed by officials of a praesidial rank. According to the late fourth century *Notitia dignitatum*, the provinces of Africa (Proconsularis) and (Mauretania) Tingitana were militarily presided over by a *comes*, who was a sort of military governor; there were also lesser military leaders, called *duces*, one in Mauretania Caesariensis and one in Tripolitania. As for the *limitanei*, or legions on the frontiers, North Africa is separated into three areas by the *Notitia dignitatum*: Africa, Mauretania (or just Mauretania Tingitana), and Tripolitania; in other words, the main area of settlement around Proconsular Africa, the westernmost area, and the easternmost area, respectively.[28]

The diocese of Africa, established during the Diocletianic reforms, was originally a civil (not ecclesiastical) bureaucracy, and was headed by a vicar who was answerable to the emperor only, though he was unable to exert much power over the provincial governors.[29] The only African province not included in the African diocese was the westernmost province of Mauretania Tingitana, which was part of the diocese of Spain, thereby sending its official military and administrative correspondence to Spain instead of Carthage.[30] In Diocletian's hierarchy of administration, provinces were parts of dioceses, and dioceses were parts of

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[27] At least during the third and fourth centuries; see Warmington, *The North African Provinces*, p. 2.

[28] See especially Jones, *The Later Roman Empire*, Appendix II, Tables xiv-xv.

[29] Warmington, *op. cit.*, p. 3.

[30] The islands of Sicily, Corsica, and Sardinia were part of the diocese of Italy.

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prefectures. The diocese of Africa was part of the same prefecture as Italy and Illyria,[31] thus strengthening Africa's bonds with Rome even more.

Roman interest in maintaining order in North Africa can be largely explained by the fact that, second only to Egypt, Africa was the Empire's most essential producer of grain and olive oil, the production and distribution of which were supervised by the vicar of Africa. This agricultural production and exportation set up early trade routes to the capital that endured throughout the late antique period; for example, the main route by which African *annona* reached the imperial capital of Rome was through the busy port of Ostia. The coastal areas of Africa had been heavily urbanized—and thus, Romanized—since the early centuries of Roman occupation, and had become a vital part of the Roman economy, which was so heavily dependent upon Mediterranean trade. Romanized Africans (indistinguishable from Africanized Romans) duplicated the Roman aristocratic socioeconomic structure based on large estates in the countryside and urban villas. In fact, the fourth-century African aristocratic class, from whom the provincial administrators were selected, were often related to or the same as members of the Italian aristocratic class.[32]

These Romanized Africans also sent their children to major Italian cities such as Rome and Milan for a proper classical education, though this practice declined

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[31] Warmington, *The North African Provinces*, p. 3. This prefecture, officially known as *Praefectura praetorio Illyrici, Italiae et Africae* specifically included Dalmatia, Pannonia, Noricum, and Rhaetia (in Illyria), as well as Italy and Africa (minus Mauretania); see also G. Ostrogorsky, *History of the Byzantine State*, transl. J. Hussey (New Brunswick, NJ 1969, repr. 1999; orig. *Geschichte des byzantinischen Staates*, Munich 1952), p. 35.

[32] M. Overbeck, *Untersuchungen zum afrikanischen Senatsadel in der Spätantike*, Frankfurter Althistorische Studien 7 (Regensburg 1973), pp. 21-38.

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during the fourth century. Education at Rome was seen as the pinnacle of a classical formation, but North Africa maintained schools at Madaura (where Augustine studied), and at Carthage. Moreover, the existence of grammarians such as Pompeius Maurus and Martianus Capella implies that a secular education was still available in the fifth century. Salvian of Marseilles recorded his impression of Carthage in the mid-fifth century:

> I speak of Carthage, both as the most formidable enemy of Rome, and now a second Rome, as it were, on African soil.... In that city were found all the paraphernalia of public offices, in that city existed all the schools of liberal arts, in that city were the workshops of the philosophers, and finally, in that city were all the academies for instruction in languages and morals.[33]

The booktrade in Africa, furthermore, was also still operating in the fifth century, as seen in the introduction to the stichometric lists of Cyprian's works and the Old and New Testaments, called the *Indiculum*, found in the fifth-century Donatist Compendium of African works on biblical study, and representing "the oldest document of the Christian book trade."[34]

The ecclesiastical and theological development of the North African Church in alliance to the Church of Rome, from the time of Tertullian to the Monothelite Controversy of the mid-to-late seventh century, was another main reason for communication between Carthage and Rome. The Donatist Schism of the fourth and

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[33] Salvian of Marseilles, *De gubernatione Dei*, ed. M. Petschenig, CSEL viii (Vienna 1883), 7.16.67-68. English from M. Rosenblum, *Luxorius: A Latin Poet among the Vandals* (New York 1961), pp. 4-5.

[34] B. Bischoff, *Latin Palaeography: Antiquity and the Middle Ages*, transl. D. Ó Cróinín and D. Ganz (Cambridge 1990, repr. 1997; orig. *Paläographie des römischen Altertums und des abendländischen Mittelalters*, Berlin 1979), p. 184; and Rouse and McNelis, "North African Literary Activity," pp. 201-206, especially p. 205.

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early fifth centuries was a seminal event in confirming this alliance, as the Catholic bishops appealed to both pope and emperor against their Donatist counterparts, sending a slew of correspondence and delegations back and forth between the African and Italian capital cities. When the imperial western capital moved to Ravenna, moreover, Catholics and Donatists traveled there to appeal to the emperor, as well as traveling to Rome to appeal to the pope. While the Catholics took this opportunity to strengthen their ties to the Church at Rome, the Donatists also undertook many journeys to Rome trying to raise support.[35] Donatist appeals to Emperor Constantine I resulted in the Council of Arles 314, implying both Donatist and Catholic contacts not only in Rome, but in Arles as well. In fact, the Pope who originally ruled against the Donatists, Miltiades, was himself an African. The Catholics enjoyed the support of the pope, emperor, and most western bishops; the Donatists, however, had the support of most of the population of Africa. This meant that the Catholic Church in Africa tended to look outward, instead of inward, for its contacts, support, and shared doctrine and practices. The movement of African bishops to and from the Italian peninsula did not stop with the Council of Arles, nor with the Council of Carthage in 411. After the Donatist Schism, this movement was incessant, implying a steady flow of letters, scribes, official documents, and ecclesiastical texts.

[35] Cf. Donatist leader Macrobius sending letters from Rome back to his party in Africa; Frend, *The Donatist Church*, p. 187.

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C. The Vandal Period

The Catholic Church in Africa soon had another reason to appeal to pope and emperor, when the Vandals, a Germanic group espousing the Arian form of Christianity, invaded Africa in 428. Although the Vandals did not become integrated into the Roman system of administration as quickly and thoroughly as did, for example, the Visigoths, they nevertheless attempted to absorb the Roman structures which suited their purposes. The first of a series of treaties between the Vandals and the Roman Empire came in 435, when Valentinian III entered into a settlement with the Vandal King Geiseric, settling his followers in three African provinces and alloting them a share of provincial tax revenues.[36] A second treaty followed in 442, three years after Geiseric seized Carthage,[37] probably giving the Vandals even more tax revenues, and certainly more territory. These treaties also helped forge ties between Carthage and Ravenna, the main administrative center of the western empire since 401/402. For example, Geiseric's son Huniric was sent as a hostage for the treaty of 442 to Ravenna, where he was betrothed to Eudocia, the daughter of Valentinian III, thus forging connections with the imperial family. Geiseric ultimately abused these connections by sacking Rome in 455, which he was able to do after gaining whole or partial control of the Mediterranean islands of Sicily (440) and Corsica and Sardinia (455).[38] Rome had previously fallen to the Visigoths in

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[36] For a brief but good summary, see J. Moorhead, ed., *Victor of Vita: History of the Vandal Persecution*, Translated Texts for Historians 10 (Liverpool 1992), Introduction, pp. ix-x.

[37] Courtois, *Les Vandales et l'Afrique*, pp. 156-164.

[38] Courtois, *op. cit.*, pp. 185-196.

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410, producing a stream of Italian refugees into Carthage. Though Rome remained the seat of the Western Church, all administrative correspondence was instead channeled to Ravenna in northern Italy. The Vandal sacking of the eternal city in 455 also brought Italian refugees to Africa: Geiseric seized Italian senators, artisans, and the widowed empress and her daughters all as captives.[39]

The stream of refugees, however, went both ways. The Vandal takeover of North Africa saw African refugees and exiles traveling to Italian cities, such as Naples, Rome, and Ravenna, where cultural and administrative ties had created communities of Africans abroad, such as the sizeable one in Trastevere in Rome. One example of an African already established at Rome before the Vandal takeover of Africa is Potentius, a bishop from Mauretania, whom Pope Leo sent on a reconnaissance mission to Africa around the time of the treaty of 442.[40] The mass exile of Catholic bishops by their Arian rulers furthermore helps explain the presence of so many African individuals and groups across the Mediterranean in the second half of the fifth century, such as Eugenius at Albi in southern Gaul and Fulgentius of Ruspe at Cagliari in Sardinia.[41] Exile was just as effective a means of disseminating people and texts out of Africa as contemporary delegations to councils abroad. It also inspired much of the theological and doctrinal writing from North Africa during this period, such as Fulgentius' *Ad Trasamundum*, in response to the Vandal King

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[39] H. Wolfram, *The Roman Empire and Its Germanic Peoples*, transl. T. Dunlap (Berkeley 1997; orig. *Das Reich und die Germanen*, Berlin 1990), p. 172.

[40] Courtois, *Les Vandales et l'Afrique*, p. 175.

[41] Both of these became local holy men, and will be discussed in further detail in the following chapters (Eugenius in Chapter 3 and Fulgentius in Chapters 3 and 5).

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Thrasamund. At the same time as new texts were composed espousing proper Catholic doctrine, bishops, monks, and other scribes also engaged in copying previous anti-Arian works, such as Hilary of Poitier's *De Trinitate*, copied by Fulgentius himself at some point after the year 509. Fulgentius' community at Sardinia was located in an area that, while under Vandal control, was administratively and culturally attached from an early date to the communities around the Bay of Naples, such as that of Eugippius at Lucullanum. These movements of people, whether as conciliar delegations or religious exiles, all imply the movement of books and ideas, since those were the cultural media upon which communities of bishops, monks, or clerics depended.

The Vandals themselves seemingly exchanged no cultural media with the Roman world, concentrating instead on the practical matters of food, land, and money. They accomplished their overseas exploits because they had taken over the Roman fleet at Carthage, and thus controlled the trade routes out of the African capital to the ports of Italy.[42] In this instance, therefore, the naval routes of commerce and administration which had brought grain from Carthage to Rome for centuries, this time brought conquest and pillaging. For the most part, however, the Vandals were pleased to assume the preexisting Roman system of government, and not wishing to interfere with the duties of the civil bureaucracy. The quotidian procedures of the legal system continued to function, as witnessed by the *Tablettes Albertini* (Albertini Tablets), a record of modest family ownership from the 490s betraying no sign of the

[42] R. Collins, *Early Medieval Europe 300-1000*, 2nd ed. (New York 1991, repr. 1999), p. 125.

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rupture of daily Romanized routine.[43] Commerce also continued; the major difference was that African taxes and grain, upon which Rome had depended for centuries, remained in Africa.

D. The Byzantine Period

In truth, African trade experienced an upsurge after the Byzantine reconquest, though it had by no means disappeared entirely during the previous century of Vandal power.[44] Africa certainly still retained much of the wealth that had first rendered it attractive to the Romans, implied by the fact that Justinian was not the first Byzantine Emperor to attempt to reclaim the North African provinces.[45] Emperor Leo I, for instance, made a grand, expensive, but ultimately unsuccessful attempt at reconquest in 468. The pleas for help from the heretical Arians embodied in Victor of Vita's *Historia persecutionum Vandalorum*, possibly addressed to Leo's successor Zeno in 484, were therefore not unusual or unfounded—nor entirely without hope. The appeal inherent in this work reflects a sense of unity on the part of the African Catholic bishops to the Empire, even one based at Constantinople, in the face of a foreign threat.[46]

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[43] Courtois, *Les Vandales et l'Afrique*, 179. Raven, *Rome in Africa*, pp. 200-203.

[44] McCormick, *The Origins of the European Economy*, pp. 103-104.

[45] Ostrogorsky, *History of the Byzantine State*, pp. 61-62; A. Cameron, *The Mediterranean World in Late Antiquity, AD 395-600* (London 1993), p. 28.

[46] W.H.C. Frend, "The Christian Period in Mediterranean Africa, c. A.D. 200 to 700" in J.D. Fage, ed., *The Cambridge History of Africa*, vol. 2: *from c. 500 B.C. to A.D. 1050* (Cambridge 1978), p. 483 n. 1.

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The outrage of the African Catholic Church against the Arian Vandals certainly provided Justinian I with one of his most solid official justifications for reconquering the provinces. The African bishops were, therefore, obviously able to maintain lines of communication to Constantinople during their time of supposed persecution, and this appeal simply follows the precedent set during the Donatist Schism of consulting the emperor for religious decisions. Whatever his reasons for the African campaign, Justinian dispatched his general Belisarius in 533, who easily reconquered the provinces by 534 with only 18,000 men.[47] Gelimer, who feebly attempted a brief resistance, was allowed to retire to Asia Minor, the last Vandal King of Africa, and Carthage now turned to Constantinople for its major governmental and economic transactions.

The secure, but not completely stable military situation in Byzantine Africa led to a reorganization of the military hierarchy.[48] The position of Exarch was created by Emperor Maurice over and above the civil Praetorian Prefect, who had been placed in charge of Africa by Justinian; this position included not only the North African provinces, but Sardinia, Corsica, and the Balearics as well.[49] The first two

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[47] Collins, *Early Medieval Europe*, p. 124. Procopius describes the overland distance between Constantinople and Carthage as 140 days; Procopius, *Bella Vandalicum*, transl. H.B. Dewing (Cambridge, MA 1916, repr. 1990), III. x. 14. By contrast, the Vandals had crossed to Africa from Spain with 80,000 people, though that number certainly included non-fighters such as women. However, this number, proposed by both Procopius and Victor of Vita, is questionable. See W. Goffart, *Barbarians and Romans, A.D. 418-584: The Techniques of Accommodation* (Princeton 1980), Appendix A: "How Many Vandals Invaded Africa?" pp. 231-234.

[48] For more on the reorginization of Byzantine Africa and military defense, see C. Diehl, *L'Afrique byzantine: Histoire de la Domination byzantine en Afrique (533-709)* (Paris 1896), pp. 97-225.

[49] J. Haldon, *Byzantium in the Seventh Century* (Cambridge 1990). Also see *id.*, *Warfare, State and Society in the Byzantine World, 565-1204* (London 1999).

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military exarchs of Africa, Gennadius and Heraclius, were successful in controlling the Moorish threat, while the large part Byzantine troops were transferred to Italy after the Lombard invasion in 568. From his post in Carthage, Heraclius rebelled against the Byzantine emperor Phocas and sent his son (also Heraclius) with a fleet to Constantinople, where the Heraclii enjoyed enough support to overthrow Phocas.[50] This shows that the Byzantine officials at Carthage were able to maintain strong political ties with the capital at Constantinople. Italy and Spain, on the other hand, were lost to the eastern empire during the course of the sixth and seventh centuries. Africa was the only western province, apart from the area around Ravenna, that remained under the control of Constantinople before it fell to the Arabs at the end of the seventh century.

For urban African society, the Byzantine presence brought some peace from the threat of Moorish and Berber tribes, as well as the much-awaited relief for Catholic Christians. The economic situation, furthermore, while not disrupted during the Vandal interregnum, continued to thrive and keep Africa one of the most important provinces in the (now Eastern) Roman Empire. Most significantly was the opening up of sea and land routes of administrative communications and commerce between Carthage and Constantinople, as a flood of Byzantine officials were staffed in African provinces and a supply of African grain made its way to the eastern capital. The Roman tax system was reinstated as well, resulting in even stronger administrative ties and more heavily trafficked trade routes between the two capitals.

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[50] Ostrogorsky, *History of the Byzantine State*, p. 85.

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The Byzantine fleet was also able to maintain traffic between Carthage and the western capital at Ravenna during the sixth and seventh centuries, despite the Lombard presence in northern Italy, as well as to the cities of Byzantine coastal Spain.[51] Constantinople furthermore attracted a generation of scholars and theologians, such as Primasius, Junilius, and Facundus of Hermiane, who, in previous centuries, would have sought out the schools of Carthage or Rome. Furthermore, Carthage apparently served as the stop-over point for trade between Constantinople and western cities such as Rome and Marseilles.[52] Eastern travelers and exiles certainly reached Carthage either as a final destination or a midway point on their Mediterrean journeys.[53]

One example of a refugee from the east seeking support in North Africa is that of Maximus the Confessor, a principal debator on behalf of the Orthodox position during the Monothelete controversy of the mid-seventh century, who lived in Carthage from 640 to 646.[54] This controversy, like the Three Chapters controversy a hundred years before, was instigated by the emperor (Heraclius and Justinian, respectively) in a misguided effort to unite the eastern and western Churches in the face of a political threat. In each case, the African opposition to the imperial decision almost amounted to rebellion, and resulted in the conveyance of numbers of angry

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[51] McCormick, *The Origins of the European Economy*, p. 81.

[52] McCormick, *op. cit.*, p. 102.

[53] McCormick, *op. cit.*, p. 104, for the example of a Jewish merchant who traveled from Africa to the Levant via Constantinople. See also p. 74, for the journey of a Frankish delegation to the capital via Carthage in the sixth century.

[54] Frend, "The Christian Period in Mediterranean Africa," p. 488.

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letters and angry bishops to the councils that were organized to address these issues. In each case the disappointment caused by imperial opposition—even though in the case of the Monothelite controversy, the African Church enjoyed the papal support which had been missing during the Three Chapters—drove the African Church to look inward, instead of to the outside contacts which had sustained it through the fourth and fifth centuries. That the African Church could still remain such a vocal party even until the beginning of the Arab advance across Africa, is a testament to its awareness of being a part of a Mediterranean-wide Church and its carefully maintained contacts to the spiritual and temporal powers at Rome and Constantinople.

E. Conclusion

Despite the reforged ties with the eastern empire and the already existing ties with Spain, southern Gaul, and Italy, the Arabs were easily able to conquer and assimilate North Africa in the late seventh and early eighth centuries. The native tribes still managed to resist the invaders in a series of wins and losses in the 680s, but the Arabs were already in Numidia and Mauretania. By 695, Carthage was taken; three years later, it was taken permanently, and the end of Roman Africa was complete.

Outside of archaeological evidence, almost all of the sources of the history of North Africa in Late Antiquity survived in places like Constantinople and western Europe. These sources, whether they be texts or saints' cults or relics, were carried by people across established routes of trade and communication. Ancient sea routes

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brought grain and amphorae full of olive oil from the major ports of Africa such as Carthage or Cirta to the ports of Cordoba, Marseilles, or Constantinople. Inland roads connected provincial capitals such as Lepcis Magna to the proconsular capital at Carthage, and then the sea again connected the African capital to the western capitals of Rome and Ravenna. The exchange of documents, goods, money, and people that sustained the structure of provincial administration meant that people were always traveling. Whether or not an African bishop traveling to a council in Arles or Chalcedon brought his latest doctrinal writing with him cannot be determined specifically, but the later dissemination of that work out of southern Gaul or Constantinople assumes this to a degree of relative certainty. By outlining the places of contact between Africa and Europe (including Constantinople), this chapter has attempted to provide the contexts for why people, their cults, and their manuscripts arrived in certain places outside Africa in the period before the Arab conquest.

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Chapter Two: North Africans and the Community of Letter Writers in the Late Antique Mediterranean

A. Introduction

Many of the routes of economic and administrative communication from North Africa to Europe also served to carry letters from African letter writers to their European correspondents in Late Antiquity. The extant letters written by Africans between 430 and 697 may not be as plentiful as the letters of, for example, Gallic bishops, but African letters are nevertheless forms of evidence which name specific correspondents that can be traced to specific locations in Europe. The purpose of this chapter is to survey and analyze North African letter writers in the period from 430 to 697, in order to locate points of contact in Europe to which they sent letters and books. Not only were letters themselves circulated as texts, or as prefaces to texts during Late Antiquity, but they also accompanied books that were sent between correspondents. Tracing where African letters went therefore also traces implicit (and sometimes explicit) references to the flow of books out of Africa to specific European correspondents.

The writing of letters in Late Antiquity was one of the most common means of maintaining contacts of a personal, literary, professional, and/or administative nature.[55] In North Africa, the communities formed by such correspondence were composed of bishops and other churchmen, who wrote letters primarily to

[55] For a brief discussion of the genre, with bibliography, see G. Constable, *Letters and Letter Collections*, Typologie des Sources du Moyen-Âge Occidental 17 (Turnholt 1976).

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communicate ecclesiastical instruction, religious and ascetic ideas, and dogmatic positions during times of ecclesiastical controversy. Reviewing the letter collections also shows how African letter writers fit into the larger epistolographic community of the western Mediterranean, as well as what where the the primary interests and motivations that caused them to pick up their pens and single out specific overseas correspondents, to whom they also sent manuscripts of their works. To put these contacts into context, it is useful to first present a brief overview of the epistolographic tradition in the Roman West.

B. Late Antique Epistolography—An Overview

The practice of letter writing in the late antique Mediterranean represents the continued tradition of epistolography which characterized men of the educated, politically active classes in ancient Rome. Classical correspondents include Cicero, Pliny the Younger, and Seneca, all of whom served as models for the aristocrats of the later Roman Empire and its aftermath. The dissolution of the empire, the advent of the barbarian kingdoms, and the thinning out of the educated upper class all heightened the importance of maintaining the epistolographic tradition among those who witnessed these events. Letter writing for these fourth- and fifth-century educated men—many of them now bishops in the growing Christian bureaucracy of western Europe—was therefore a conscious adoption of past tradition in direct response to a threat to their identities as Romans. For example, the Symmachi and the Anicii, two of the most aristocratic families of the later Roman Empire, relied on

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the exchange of letters in maintaining ties of family and friendship, or *amicitia.* Letters would accompany an exchange of books, introduce family members, friends, and clients, and advise on various moral and religious topics.

Epistolography also had a vital role in the administration of the western half of the empire. Letter collections are often our primary source for administrative practices in the less bureaucratic and politically stable West (as opposed to the more organized East). The type of letters produced at the imperial court in the early sixth century is exemplified in Cassiodorus' collection of *Variae* (CPL 896), a body of letters to serve as models for format and content. Cassiodorus drafted these formulaic letters in his capacity as Praetorian Prefect during the reign of Theoderic, King of the Ostrogoths and de facto regent of Italy; though they are not actual letters themselves, they reveal the importance of letter-writing as the necessary protocol of imperial communication.[56] Whereas Cassiodorus provides an obvious example for formulaic administrative letters, his near contemporary Ennodius, Bishop of Pavia provides an example of a collection of personal letters. The papal chancery at Rome, furthermore, unified the western Church by maintaining communication with ecclesiastic and governmental officials, both East and West; for example, Pope Gregory I wrote hundreds of letters during his tenure in the pontificate from 590 to 604. Ecumenical councils are another epistolographic source, including numerous episcopal letters in their proceedings. Conciliar *acta* themselves were often circulated as encyclical letters to members of the ecclesiastic and imperial administrations, in order to

[56] For an examination of this collection, see S.J.B. Barnish, ed., *Cassiodorus:* Variae, Translated Texts for Historians 12 (Liverpool 1992), pp. xiv-xxxv.

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articulate and spread the most up-to-date pronouncements of orthodoxy in Christendom.

Late antique letter writing therefore falls, for the purposes of this study, into two major categories: administration, and personal communication. These categories, however, are not entirely distinct from each other, and were often combined, as when a bishop in exile wrote to his congregation. Before discussing the natures of administrative and personal letters, another type must be mentioned, which fits more into the genres of theological narrative or commentary. This type is technically a letter, as it is addressed to a person or group of people, and may include a complete letter as a preface, but is recognized now more for its theological or hagiographical content than for its original epistolary function. In fact, a large part of late antique religious writings are in letter format, since sending such texts to specific correspondents was one way of publishing a work. The *Vitae* of Anthony by Athanasius of Alexandria (CPG 2101) and of Martin of Tours by Sulpicius Severus (CPL 475) are two famous examples of this type of letter. The *florilegium* of Augustinian works compiled by Eugippius of Lucullanum (CPL 676) is prefaced by a letter addressing the work to Proba, a Roman nun.[57] North African examples include Facundus of Hermiane's *Epistula fidei catholicae in defensione trium capitulorum* (CPL 868) and Fulgentius of Ruspe's *Ad Trasamundum* (CPL 816). The fact that many works were circulated either in letter form or prefaced by letters not only attests an active exchange of books beyond the Roman book trade, but also the public

[57] Eugippius, *Epistula ad Probam virginem*, in P. Knöll, ed., *Eugippii excerpta ex operibus S. Augustini*, CSEL ix, 1 (Vienna 1885), pp. 1-4.

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circulation of personal letters. In the fourth century, Jerome and Ambrose circulated their letters publically by drawing them together into *corpora epistulae*, which reveals the editorial control and rhetorical attention that made the "personal" letters of Late Antiquity not necessarily "private." In fact, most letters from Late Antiquity survive because they were either attached to longer works or were gathered into epistolary collections.[58] The North African letters from this period are no exceptions to this form.

The actual amount of epistolographic evidence remaining from North Africa of the fifth through seventh centuries is rather scant. Some of the letters are found in conciliar acta, such as the four letters of Capreolus of Carthage (CPL 397-400) from the early fifth century, or the letters written in response to the Monotheletism controversy of the mid-seventh century (CPL 874-877). Extant letters written by North Africans that can primarily be considered personal correspondence, insofar as correspondence was "personal," are few. Italy had Ennodius (d. 531). Gaul had Sidonius Apollinaris (d. 480), bishop of Clermont and scion of one of the most aristocratic families in the West. North Africa had Fulgentius and Ferrandus, who, though not as prolific as Ennodius, Sidonius, or Augustine, nevertheless provide North Africa's only remaining examples of personal correspondence from the period in question. Letters written by Africans in connection to administrative or conciliar matters include Capreolus of Carthage, Sigisteus *comes*, Pontianus of Thenitanus, and the bishops named in the 649 Lateran Council *acta* (Victor of Carthage, Columbus,

[58] G. Constable, *Letters and Letter Collections*, p. 28.

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Stephanus, *et al.*) Other African letter writers can be deduced from the epistolographic collections of continental letter writers such as Ennodius and Pope Gregory I. Administrative and conciliar letters certainly speak of connections, and are therefore important to include in this study, but they do not necessarily indicate communities of letter writers. To explain this notion of letter writing communities further, a comparison between the continental letter writers and the Africans may be useful. This category of letter writing—the more personal type—will thus be examined first, before focusing on letter writing for administrative purposes.

C. Epistolography as a Literary Genre

When the letters produced by Africans in the fifth and sixth centuries are compared to the collections produced by men of letters in Gaul and Italy, the differences are obvious. Namely, African letter writers were connected by concerns of a more pastoral and/or doctrinal nature, rather than by personal ties of kinship and *amicitia*. Ralph Mathisen has analyzed the literary circles in Gaul from 420 to 520, and found that these correspondents used letter writing as a means of maintaining their family and aristocratic ties.[59] Men like Sidonius Apollinaris, Ruricius of Limoges, Avitus of Vienne, and Ennodius of Pavia (originally from Arles) produced large and well-organized collections of letters not only for the sake of communication and friendship, but to preserve "unity and elitism" among a highly educated class that

[59] R.W. Mathisen, "Epistolography, Literary Circles and Family Ties in Late Roman Gaul" in *Transactions of the American Philological Association* 111 (1981): 95-109, and *id.*, *Roman Aristocrats in Barbarian Gaul: Strategies for Survival in an Age of Transition* (Austin, TX 1993).

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was finding itself increasingly isolated in late antique Gaul.[60] Friendship, or *amicitia*, was in fact part of the Roman literary tradition, and thus a formal element of letter writing. Literary pursuits were a way to preserve aristocratic status, and since many aristocrats moved into the ranks of the clergy, letter writing became "a literary genre which was particularly appropriate for clerics."[61] This trend, which did not long outlive these correspondents, was dependent not only on the continued availability of a Roman education, but also the continued existence and power of aristocratic families. Those Africans who left behind considerable letter collections, such as Cyprian, Augustine, and Fulgentius, were writing not from family networks, and not always from backgrounds in classical education. African contemporaries of Sidonius and Ennodius were not necessarily maintaining their aristocratic status, because not all of them were aristocrats. After Augustine's generation, in fact, few Africans were engaged in purely literary pursuits; those who were, such as, arguably, Fulgentius Mythographicus and other secular writers, did not turn to epistolography as a means of literary expression. Even though the African letter writers did resemble their Gallic counterparts in the fact that both circles involved a blending of personal and professional ties, the Gallic epistolographers were simply more isolated and local in their topics of correspondence, while the Africans used their letters to fight doctrinal battles.[62]

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[60] Mathisen, *Roman Aristocrats in Barbarian Gaul*, p. 105.

[61] Mathisen, *op. cit.*, p. 115.

[62] S. Stevens, "The Circle of Bishop Fulgentius" in *Traditio* 38 (1982): 327-341, cf. p. 340. Stevens stresses the similarities of the Gallic and African letter writers more than this chapter does; however,

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Even though letter writing in late antique North Africa was not looked upon as a literary genre in the same way as in Gaul or Italy, there are similarities between the aristocratic circles on the continent and the letter writing communities in Africa. Fulgentius, for instance, was a member of the aristocratic Gordiani family of Carthage, and he pursued a secular career before converting to the monastic life.[63] He cultivated ties with aristocrats in Italy, moreover, which will be discussed in greater detail below. Augustine and Ferrandus may not have been aristocrats themselves, but they became the greatest ecclesiastical authorities of their day in North Africa, which represents the pinnacle of the new social structure of monk-bishops as the preferred authority figures. These authorities, whether from aristocratic backgrounds in Gaul or Africa or not, all had recourse to letter writing as a means of spiritual instruction and moral exhortation, as part of their roles as religious leaders. Just as letter writing communities in Gaul were mainly contained within Gaul, African letter writers (Augustine included) wrote mainly to other Africans—they wrote to other bishops, and to their congregations. Such local practices are more illustrative of the concerns expressed within the epistolographic medium than with the contacts forged thereby. Nevertheless, the fact that Augustine corresponded with Paulinus of Nola, or that Ferrandus wrote to Eugippius, speaks of the continued sense that literary men,

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her argument is weakened slightly by her reliance on the identification of Fulgentius the bishop with Fulgentius the Mythographer, an identification which, since the publication of Stevens' article, has been convincingly refuted by G. Hayes, "The Date and Identity of the Mythographer Fulgentius" in *The Journal of Medieval Latin* 13 (2003): 163-252.

[63] Ferrandus, *Vita Fulgentii Ruspensis*, ed. G.-G. Lapeyre (Paris 1929). CPL 847.

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whether they be Italian aristocrats or African provincial bishops, felt that they had more in common with each other than with most of their own neighbors.

D. Major African Letter Collections: Cyprian, Augustine, Fulgentius, and Ferrandus

The difference between personal and administrative letters, however, is sometimes difficult to distinguish; a bishop sending a letter of instruction to a deacon of his can possibly fall into either category. For example, Cyprian, bishop of Carthage (d. 258), wrote a number of letters to the members of his congregation from an undisclosed location after fleeing from his persecutors. These letters are therefore not useful in establishing points of contact with the European continent, but rather illustrate how letters were used to pass instructions from a bishop to his flock, written on the manner of Christians living in a time of persecution. Fulgentius' situation, two hundred years later, reflects that of Cyprian, in that he also used letters to communicate from a position of exile in a time of persecution. Ferrandus most likely joined his mentor, Fulgentius, in his banishment, though his most productive period of letter writing came after his return to Carthage, where he was much sought after for his doctrinal instruction. In this, he is more reminiscent of Augustine, whose many letters were mostly directed to other African ecclesiasts who deferred to his doctrinal authority in the midst of the Donatist schism. Augustine's extensive epistolographic output cannot serve as an example for the period after 430, but it can serve as a model for comparison. As a young man studying in Rome and Milan, Augustine gathered about him a tightly-knit circle of friends and fellow scholars. These same men

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remained his friends for the rest of his life—only, instead of living together in a philosophic or monastic community, they each became bishops of their own sees, thereby separated from one another physically, even if still united spiritually.[64] Letters, plus traveling and conferences, helped maintain that unity (much as with the highly educated class today).

Most of the letters written by Cyprian, Augustine, Fulgentius, and Ferrandus were addressed to other Africans, and as such do not shed light on trans-Mediterranean contacts. As Augustine replied to one correspondent, he was "an African, writing for Africans, both of us living in Africa."[65] This quote shows that the African Church was Augustine's primary focus, but he also maintained focus on the Church abroad; his correspondents, mostly in southern Italy at Rome or in the area around the Bay of Naples, included Paulinus of Nola and Jerome. These contacts reveal a natural connection still in existence from Roman times based on obvious geographical proximity, trade routes, and routes of administrative communication. Although the prolific letter writers of Gaul, such as Caesarius of Arles, or the circle of Sidonius and Ruricius, were contemporaries of Fulgentius and Ferrandus, none of them seem to have written letters to these two important Africans. The more personal connections were made through Italy, as they had been since the early days of the Roman Empire.

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[64] Brown, *Augustine of Hippo*, pp. 126, 132-133, and 202.

[65] Augustine, *Ep.* 17, 2, quoted (and translated) in Brown, *op. cit.*, p. 134.

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E. Fulgentius and Italian Contacts

Fulgentius was banished by the Vandal King Thrasamund to Sardinia from 502/507 to 510/515, and then again from 512/517 to 523. Sardinia was then on the outer edge of Vandal control, which also included Sicily, thereby extending the limits of the African-based kingdom to within mere miles of southern Italy. Fulgentius established a community of monks, which were probably composed of his fellow refugee clergymen, at Cagliari, the episcopal seat of Sardinia that had strong ties with both northern and southern Italy. For instance, Lucifer, Bishop of Cagliari (d. 370/371), was a correspondent of both Eusebius of Vercelli and Ambrose of Milan. Evidence of such a connection with Fulgentius himself, however, can, at most, be implied. He was certainly acquainted with Eugippius, a scholar living a semi-monastic life at Lucullanum just outside of Naples, and the Roman matrons Galla and Proba, as well as others. His letters to these correspondents are distinguished by J. Fraipont, the editor of Fulgentius' *opera*, as the first seven out of nineteen total *epistulae*.[66] To these seven, Susan Stevens adds seven more to comprise all of Fulgentius' remaining letters of a "personal" nature, which means, basically, "written by the bishop to specific individuals on specified occasions."[67] These letters are not of a doctrinal nature, such as his letters to Thrasamund in defense of the Orthodox position, and can therefore be categorized as a more personal form of correspondence.

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[66] Fulgentius, *Sancti Fulgentii episcopi Ruspensis opera*, ed. J. Fraipont, CCSL xci (Turnhout 1968). The CPL entry 817 distinguishes only eighteen *epistulae*, with Fraipont's nineteenth letter, to Faustinus, as CPL 818.

[67] S. Stevens, "The Circle of Bishop Fulgentius," p. 329. She also distinguishes the categories of "open" and "synodal" letters, which roughly correspond to my categories of books published in letter form and conciliar/administrative letters.

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Fulgentius traveled to Rome on a pilgrimage, which could have provided him with the opportunity of meeting potential correspondents. The *Life* of Fulgentius tells how he traveled to Sicily to visit relatives, as well as to Rome.[68] He could have furthermore stopped at Eugippius' Lucullanum on his way from Sardinia to Rome. Though the tone of the letters of Fulgentius and Eugippius is one of warm friendship, it is uncertain whether or not the two men actually met in person. They could have been introduced, as correspondents, through their mutual acquaintance Proba, a wealthy Roman matron who adopted the monastic lifestyle.[69] Fulgentius' exile to Sardinia gave him ample opportunities of pursuing these contacts in nearby Italy, especially since most of his circle of African bishops were probably in exile with him, such as Ferrandus.

During his second exile at Cagliari, Fulgentius wrote a short series of letters that J. Fraipont has designated as the *Epistulae asceticae et morales septem* (CPL 817).[70] This series includes one letter to Eugippius, two to Proba, and one each to Optatus, Galla, Theodorus, and Venantia, all Italian aristocrats. Proba, who has already been mentioned as a mutual friend of both Fulgentius and Eugippius, was a nun from an aristocratic Roman family, either the Aurelii or the Anicii,[71] and was

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[68] *Vita Fulgentii* 24.

[69] P. Régérat, "Eugippe et l'église d'Afrique" in *Romanité et cité chrétienne: permanences et mutations, intégration et exclusion du Ier au VIe siècle* (Paris, 2000): pp. 263-272, at p. 267.

[70] Fraipont, *Sancti Fulgentii episcopi Ruspensis opera*, p. vi.

[71] PLRE, v. 2, "Proba 1," considers her the daughter of Quintus Aurelius Memmius Symmachus, thereby making her Galla's sister. Stevens, however, considers the two women "no more than distantly related," based on Fulgentius' *Ep.* 2.31 (Stevens, "The Circle of Bishop Fulgentius," p. 334 n.

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praised by Fulgentius her for her ascetic lifestyle. Galla, the daughter of Quintus Aurelius Memmius Symmachus, great-great granddaughter of Quintus Aurelius Symmachus, sister-in-law to Boethius, and even relative of Cassiodorus, hailed from the most aristocratic stock in Italy. Fulgentius wrote two letters to this young widow, consoling her on the death of her husband, and encouraging her to take up the monastic life. She must have taken his advice, for she did indeed enter the monastery of St. Peter in Rome, where, according to her *Vita*, she led a life of prayer and charity until her death.[72] In *Ep.* VI, Fulgentius congratulates Theodorus for retiring from the senatorial profession and seeking the religious life. Theodorus, from the aristocratic Decian family, had been consul, praetorian prefect, and advisor to Pope Gelasius before retiring, and later served as papal ambassador to Constantinople.[73] Fulgentius' comments on such a successful public career are to remind Theodorus that the greatest goodness comes from God, and not from public recognition[74]; even if the bishop's aristocratic background may have provided him with these contacts, his tone in all the letters is that of spiritual leader, and not fellow patrician. This is also apparent when he instructs Venantia on penitence in *Ep.* VII. Although her identity is uncertain, Venantia was a correspondent or even relative of Junillus Africanus, author of the *Instituta regularia divinae legis* (CPL 872), who was from North Africa but

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24. Apparently, when he writes to Galla referring to Proba as *sororem tuam sanctam Christi virginem Probam*, he is referring to them as spiritual, not biological sisters.

[72] PLRE, v. 2, "Galla 5."

[73] PLRE, v. 2, "Flavius Theodorus 62." The pope for whom he served in an advisory capacity, Gelasius, was originally from Africa; the pope with whom he traveled to Constantinople was John I.

[74] Cf. *Ep.* VI.8

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based at Constantinople. Junillus, who was also a correspondent of Ferrandus, had recommended Venantia's piety to Fulgentius, further implying that Fulgentius' role of spiritual advisor was much sought after in Italian and African ascetic circles.[75] The identity of Optatus, the addressee of the first of these seven letters, is even more uncertain than that of Venantia; it is likely that he, like most of the others, was Italian.

Though Eugippius, recipient of *Ep.* V and a refugee from Noricum,[76] was not originally Italian, his establishment of the monastery of Severinus at Lucullanum in the Bay of Naples renders him an Italian contact. To him, Fulgentius expresses the utmost friendship (which, although a convention in the letter writing genre, is nevertheless usually heartfelt), and he responds to Eugippius' request for a copy of Fulgentius' letter to Monimus (*Ad Monimum*), which discusses such theological topics as predestination and the trinity. The two men, therefore, shared an interest in Augustinian theology—only natural for an orthodox African and the compiler of the best-known Augustinian *florilegium*—as well as an interest in each other's books. Later in the same letter, Fulgentius indicates a request that he made for copies of Eugippius' books.[77] One can imagine, therefore, a lively exchange of books between Lucullanum and the community at Cagliari.[78]

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[75] It is unknown whether Venantia was in Italy, Africa, or Constantinople.

[76] Province since the Roman Republic, roughly present-day Austria.

[77] Régérat assumes this from the statement, *Obsecro ut libros quos opus habemus, servi tui describant de codicibus vestris*, *Ep.* V. 12, the concluding line of the letter (Fraipont, *Sancti Fulgentii episcopi Ruspensis opera*, p. 240); Régérat, "Eugippe et l'église d'Afrique," p. 267.

[78] See Stevens, pp. 334-336 for a more detailed description of these correspondents.

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This group of seven letters, the *Epistulae asceticae et morales septem*, had solidified into a unit as early as the late sixth century, as seen in the earliest manuscript witness to Fulgentius' works, Vatican, Reg. lat. 267, which will be discussed in much further detail in Chapter Five on manuscript transmission. The letters are found in four other manuscripts besides, only two of them extant.[79] These five manuscripts all contain, in addition to the *Epistulae asceticae*, the *Ad Monimum*, and Fulgentius' works directed at King Thrasamund.[80] Since the *Ad Monimum* was one of the texts specifically requested by Eugippius, perhaps this is the reason that the work came to be circulated with Fulgentius' letter to Eugippius, and by extension with the series of seven letters as a whole. If this is the case, then perhaps it is not too unlikely that Eugippius also requested the two texts against Thrasamund, thereby including them in a corpus of texts whose original exemplar may have been compiled in Sardinia or the Bay of Naples. Both centers had *scriptoria*: Fulgentius' request for books implies one at Lucullanum, and a *scriptorium* at Cagliari produced part, if not all, of the famous codex of Hilary of Poitier's *De trinitate* (CPL 433), Vatican, Archivio di S. Pietro (Basilicanus), D. 182, written in the early sixth century and partly in Fulgentius' own hand.[81]

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[79] Paris, B.N. lat 12234, s.IX; Grenoble, Bibl. munic. 226 (134), s.XII; plus a codex from St. Victor's near Paris, and from the collection of Jacques de Thou.

[80] Namely, *Dicta regis Trasamundi et contra ea responsionum liber unus* (CPL 815) and *Sancti Fulgentii Episcopi ad Trasamundum libri iii* (CPL 816).

[81] This manuscript will also be discussed further in Chapter Five, section II. D.

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Fulgentius' other letters, besides the *Epistulae moraliae et asceticae*, speak of other Italian connections, from the mention of the Roman letter-carrier John,[82] to the conciliar letters to the Scythian monks in Rome.[83] Both his personal and more public letters show how he assumed the roles not only of mentor and spiritual adviser for aristocrats and other churchmen, but, more importantly, of spokesperson for the official African stance on orthodoxy and Church politics. His contacts in Rome made him particularly qualified to represent the African Church during the Laurentian Schism, in which both the Africans and the African community that had settled in the Trastevere area of Rome supported Symmachus' claim to the papacy. This claim was strengthened by support from the same aristocratic Roman circles with which Fulgentius had connections, namely the Anicii and the Aurelii, and through them Eugippius and Ennodius.[84] Without these aristocratic connections, therefore, Fulgentius' ecclesiastical authority would have been significantly weakened; by extension, the views of the African Church may have carried less authority in Rome in the midst of theological controversy at the turn of the sixth century.

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[82] *Ep.* 17.1.

[83] *Epp.* 15, to John and Venerius, and 17, to Peter the deacon.

[84] Stevens, "The Circle of Bishop Fulgentius," p. 338. Ennodius wrote his *Libellus adversus eos qui contra symodum scribere praesumpserunt* in Symmachus' defense. Ennodius was related to Anicius Probus Faustus Niger and corresponded with Faustus' sister Stephania, who also corresponded with Fulgentius.

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F. Ferrandus and Italian Correspondents

Fulgentius' connections with the Bay of Naples, even though they may stretch only to Sardinia and not to the African mainland, imply a continuation of the connections which had existed since before the political dissolution of the western empire. Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus of Carthage, for instance, established a community of African bishops in Campania in the early fifth century.[85] These connections also lasted after Fulgentius' return to Ruspe, for Ferrandus, deacon of Carthage and Fulgentius' supposed biographer, also corresponded with Eugippius. Two out of Ferrandus' twelve recorded letters (CPL 848) are addressed to Eugippius, the first of which (*Ep.* IV) includes a warm greeting before delving into the trinity and the two natures of Christ. The second letter to Eugippius also discusses the nature of the trinity, this time in response to the queries of an anonymous Goth, thus revealing that the topic of orthodoxy was one of Ferrandus' most pressing issues, one on which he was considered an expert both at home and abroad. This is also evidence that he had replaced Fulgentius as orthodox adviser after the latter's death. Furthermore, this second letter, which may date as late as 535, according to Régérat, supposes that letters, and the boats and commerce that carried the letters, still operated during the eventful years of the Byzantine conquest of the Vandal kingdom.[86]

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[85] This will be discussed in further detail in Chapter Three on communities formed around African saints' cults, section III. C.

[86] Régérat, "Eugippe et l'église d'Afrique," pp. 270-271: "[La] requête formulée par Eugippe aussi bien que la réponse favorable de Ferrand supposent que les liaisons maritimes entre l'Afrique et l'Italie n'étaient point perturbées par les opérations militaires, comme ce fut le cas à l'automne 533 (reconquête byzantine en Afrique) et à partir de l'été 535 (débarquement des Byzantins en Sicile et, l'année suivante, rébellion de la garnison de Carthage et siège de Naples)."

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Ferrandus' facility for expounding the orthodox doctrine on the trinity is also apparent from other letters written to correspondents abroad. He wrote two letters to a deacon in Rome named Anatolius, one to another Roman deacon named Pelagius, and one to a scholar named Severus (*Scholasticus*) in Constantinople, all dealing with the same trinitarian issues.[87] Whether or not these letters, or for that matter, the rest of Ferrandus' letters, can be considered "personal," is somewhat unclear. While not reflecting shared aristocratic or family ties, as with the literary circles of fifth-century Gaul, Ferrandus' letters do reflect the nature of ecclesiastic circles in the sixth century. His culture *is* ecclesiastic culture, and the most pressing ecclesiastic concerns of his day were of orthodoxy versus heresy, as the numerous church councils in which he took part attest. Even his two letters to Fulgentius, the man whose *Vita* he supposedly wrote, are overwhelmingly concerned with theological matters. Ferrandus did not only correspond with clergymen, however, as is shown with his letter *Ad Reginum* (*Ep.* VII), written to a military count about how he, as a soldier, could lead a religious life. In this letter, which was widely copied, usually separately, in the Middle Ages, Ferrandus formulates seven tenets for Reginus to follow, with full explication, somewhat reminiscent of Fulgentius' letters of moral and ascetic advice. This is unsurprising, considering that this letter was actually begun by Fulgentius, and then left for Ferrandus to complete after the bishop's

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[87] Stevens, "The Circle of Bishop Fulgentius," p. 337: "These last three letters show the forging of new ties with Constantinople and with Rome."

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death.[88] It provides a good example of how, even though he was only a deacon, not a bishop, Ferrandus was personally and professionally applied to for spiritual and theological advice. Such was the function of letter writing in the sixth century.

G. African Epistulae *and Contacts of an Instructive, Administrative, or Conciliar Nature*

The letters of Fulgentius and Ferrandus therefore illustrate the strong contacts between Africa and southern Italy (including Rome and Naples). These two collections, not nearly as extensive as those of their Gallic contemporaries or of their African predecessor Augustine, are nevertheless the closest examples of epistolographic communities in North Africa during the periods of Vandal and Byzantine rule. Other letters from this period point to other overseas connections, though these connections are more of an instructive or administrative nature. For example, not all Italian contacts were from Rome or Naples—Ennodius of Pavia wrote a letter to a community of African exiles who appealed to him about receiving relics of two saints.[89] This does not, however, connect Milan with North Africa, as the Africans in question fled to the Milan area seeking refuge from Vandal persecution. This letter is nonetheless evidence for a community of Africans transplanting themselves to northern Italy; their presence there speaks of at least some connection. The case of Eugenius of Carthage, who was exiled to Albi in southern Gaul, is a similar example. The letter of Eugenius that was recorded in the *Historia*

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[88] *Ibid.*

[89] S.A.H. Kennell, *Magnus Felix Ennodius: A Gentleman of the Church* (Ann Arbor, MI 2000), p. 176. Ennodius, *Epistulae* = CPL 1487.

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Francorum of Gregory of Tours at the end of the sixth century (CPL 799) points clearly to Gallic connections.[90] This letter, however, was not written by a bishop in Africa to a correspondent in Gaul, but by an African bishop in exile to his congregation at Carthage. It is therefore local in its concerns, like the letter of Ennodius, even though it reveals contacts between this African bishop and certain people in southern Gaul who were able to preserve this letter until its inclusion in the *Historia Francorum*, which is our only source for it.

An example which indicates something of administrative practices in Africa is from Sigisteus, a Vandal military *comes*, who wrote a letter to a priest named Parthemius at an unknown date during the Vandal regnum (CPL 803-805).[91] A fuller impression of the African administration can be made from the register of Gregory I's papal correspondence, the *Registrum epistularum* (CPL 1714), from the end of the sixth century and the beginning of the seventh, when Africa was in Byzantine hands.[92] This register not only displays the pope's inexhaustible efforts to oversee ecclesiastical operations in the West, but also to spread Christianity and root out heresy. His involvement in the African Church is exceptional: he commends Dominicus of Carthage's zeal in combating heresy, urges Pantaleon the Praetorian

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[90] This will be discussed further in Chapter Three, section III. E. Crit. ed.: Gregory of Tours, *Gregorii episcopi Turonensis libri historiarum X*, eds., B. Krusch and W. Levison, MGH *Script. rer. Merov.*, vol. I, pt. 1 (Hanover 1951), II.3; Gregory of Tours, *The History of the Franks*, transl. L. Thorpe (London 1974), pp. 109-110.

[91] CPL 804 is a letter from Parthemius in response to Sigisteus. A. Reifferscheid, *Anecdota casinensia* (Breslau 1871), pp. 3-4; F. Bücheler and A. Reise, *Anthologia latina*, I, 2 (Leipzig 1906), pp. 250-251, n. 763a.

[92] Gregory I, *S. Gregorii Magni, Registrum epistularum,* ed. D. Norberg, CCSL cxl (*libri i-vii*) and cxl A (*libri viii-xiv, appendix*) (Turnholt 1982).

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Prefect to do something about the continuing Donatist problem, requests help about this problem from the emperor Maurice.[93] These papal letters speak of an obvious connection between Rome and Africa, but they also hint that the connection between Rome and most of Africa has weakened significantly, or else Gregory would not be exhorting so many bishops and government officials to turn their attention to certain matters, the Donatist revival not the least of them. R.A. Markus finds that, even though Carthage remained in step with Rome, the rest of Africa frustrated Gregory by "the almost monolithic resistance to Roman influence, aided and abetted by the local civil administration."[94] The papal correspondence is, naturally, one-sided; letters and persons presumably passed from Africa to Rome on a continuous basis. As for a voluntary, intellectual, or cultural connection, however, none is extant from the African perspective after the late sixth/early seventh centuries.

No evidence exists of correspondence between Africa and Spain, even though many refugees from the Vandal regime were known to have found refuge there. Spanish literary circles were not aristocratic in nature as in Gaul, though they sometimes maintained family ties, as did Isidore of Seville and his brother Leander, who was a friend and correspondent of Pope Gregory. Braulio of Saragossa and his episcopal successor, Taius, supply the two major letter collections from seventh-century Visigothic Spain, but none of these men, though they read African texts, corresponded with African bishops. This may be because noteworthy African texts,

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[93] *Epp.* V, 3 (Norberg, *S. Gregorii Magni*, pp. 268-269); IV, 32 (pp. 251-252); VI, 64 (pp. 439-440); respectively.

[94] R.A. Markus, *Gregory the Great and His World* (Cambridge 1997, repr. 1999), p. 194.

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such as in the fifth and sixth centuries, were simply not being produced in the seventh, when the Visigothic bishops were cultivating their libraries on the Iberian peninsula. An African bishop, Pontianus of Thenitanus, was thought to have compiled a list of African *viri illustres* in the mid-sixth century, which supposedly traveled to Spain where it was appended to Isidore's *De viris illustribus* in the early seventh century;[95] but the only extant letter of Pontianus was not directed towards Spain, but towards Constantinople. Pontianus' letter (CPL 864) was an appeal to the emperor Justinian concerning the Three Chapters Controversy, and is therefore an example, like Facundus' *Pro defensione*, of the staunch African position (i.e., against the emperor) on this theological issue.

Many of the extant letters written by North Africans appear as parts of conciliar acta. Even though Pontianus' letter is not explicitly included in the *acta* for the Council of Constantinople in 553, it was written in response to Justinian's edict of 543/44 which condemned the Three Chapters and led to the convocation of this ecumenical council, and can therefore be considered conciliar in its purpose and content. Facundus' *Epistula fidei catholicae in defensione trium capitulorum* can also be placed in this category. An earlier example of this epistolary function is the collection of four letters written by Capreolus of Carthage on the Nestorian heresy, which are included in the *acta* of the Council of Ephesus in 431.[96] The council was called to universally condemn Nestorius, Bishop of Constantinople, who believed that

[95] This hypothesis will be deconstructed in Chapter Four, section III. Pontianus, as will be seen, did not compile such a list.

[96] E. Schwartz, Acta *conciliorum oecumenicorum*, I, ii (Berlin 1925-26), pp. 64-65, and II, iii, 3 (Berlin 1937), pp. vi-x.

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the divine Christ and the human Christ were two separate persons, instead of one united person in the trinity. Capreolus was not present himself, since he was writing from the midst of the Vandal invasion, but he spoke on behalf of his fellow African bishops, and in doing so, spoke on behalf of more bishops than any of his eastern counterparts.

In addition to the Council of Ephesus 431 and the Council of Constantinople 553, African conciliar letters exist from the *acta* of the General Lateran Council of 649, which dealt with the heresy of Monotheletism (CPL 874-877).[97] A politically motivated move to unify the empire in the face of Arab encroachment, Monotheletism was a modification of Monophysitism gone awry, satisfying in the end neither the Monophysites nor the Dyophysites (i.e., the orthodox Church in the West). These letters from North Africa, itself under threat from Muslim invasion, are among the last texts remaining from Christian North Africa. That forty-two bishops undersigned one of the letters, and sixty-eight another, is remarkable for showing the continued strength of the ecclesiastical structure in Africa, as well as for showing the continuation of its convictions in the ongoing fight against any heresy in the Church.

Victor, Columbus, Stephanus, Reparatus, Gulosus, Probus, and their fellow bishops, in their letters condemning Monotheletism, provide some of the final voices from late antique North Africa. Significantly, they speak of the same issues as most African letters from the previous centuries: namely, the expounding of the orthodox faith in the face of a heretical movement. This was what drew together circles of

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[97] R. Reidinger, Acta *conciliorum oecumenicorum*, ser. II, vol. I: *Concilium Lateranense a. 649 celebratum* (Berlin 1984), pp. 67-71, 75-79, 81-95, and 99-103.

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African churchmen in the generations after Augustine and his philosophical community at Milan. Any literary circles that were connected by a love of literature and secular education, as may have existed during the so-called "Vandal renaissance," left no letter collections behind. There simply are no communities of letter writers in Africa to compare with the aristocratic circle of Sidonius Apollinaris and Ruricius of Limoges in Gaul. The communities in Africa are joined by their mutual stance on theological issues, and often their mutual exile because of those issues. Letter writing becomes simply a way to communicate from exile, further explain the issues, or to participate in ecumenical debate on those issues. The contacts that can be gleaned from a survey of the North African letters of the Vandal and Byzantine periods are, for the most part, expected: i.e., with the capitals Rome and Constantinople, as well as local contacts in Africa. There also existed, however, exchange with southern Gaul and selected Italian centers, which are known to have contributed to the transmission of texts. Interests usually remained local, but as long as Africans were producing texts of merit, as in the second half of the fifth and first half of the sixth centuries, contacts abroad would write to Africans requesting letters, treatises, and commentaries, as their predecessors had once requested from Augustine.

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Chapter Three: North African Saints' Cults Found in Mediterranean Europe in Late Antiquity

I. PROLOGUE

> Donatus, a monk both in his profession and his deeds, is said to have been a disciple of a hermit in Africa. On seeing the threat of violence from barbarian peoples and fearing that his sheep would be scattered and the dangers to his flock of monks, he crossed the sea to Spain with around seventy monks and a great collection of books. He was given food and aid by a noble and devout woman, Minicea, and appears to have built the monastery at Servitanum. He is said to have been the first man to have brought a rule for monastic observance to Spain. He was as distinguished in life by his virtuous example as he was exulted in death through the glory of his memory. Both while living in this world and now at rest in the grave, his glory is said to have shone forth through certain miraculous acts of healing and because of this the inhabitants of the region are said to give honour to his tomb.[98]

This chapter from Ildefonsus of Toledo's *De viris illustribus* (CPL 1252) describes the case of a community of exiles from Africa who, with a boatload of books, arrived in Spain in the second half of the sixth century. Donatus established the monastery of Servitanum in Valencia[99] by the year 572, and after his death twelve

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[98] *Lives of the Visigothic Fathers*, transl. and ed. A.T. Fear, Translated Texts for Historians 26 (Liverpool 1997), pp. 111-112 Ildefonsus of Toledo, *El "De viris illustribus" de Ildefonso de Toledo*, ed. C. Codoñer Merino (Salamanca 1972), Chapter 3, pp. 120-122: *Donatus et professione et opere monachus cuiusdam eremitae fertur in Africa extitisse discipulus. Hic uiolentias barbararum gentium imminere conspiciens atque ouilis dissipationem et gregis monachorum pericula pertimescens, ferme cum septuaginta monachis copiosisque librorum codicibus nauali uehiculo in Hispaniam commeauit. Cui ab inlustri religiosaque femina Minicea subsidiis ac rerum opibus ministratis, Servitanum monasterium uisus est construxisse. Iste prior in Hispaniam monasticae obseruantiae usum regulamque dicitur auexisse. Tam uiuens uirtutem exemplis nobilis quam defunctus memoriae claritate sublimis. Hic et in praesenti luce subsistens et in cripta sepulchri quiescens, signis quibusdam proditur effulgere salutis, unde et monumentum eius honorabiliter colere perhibentur incolae regionis.*

[99] The location of the monastery is thought to be in Valencia because Donatus' pupil and successor Eutropius is named as the bishop of the Church of Valencia in Isidore of Seville's *De viris illustribus*

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years later[100] he was venerated as a saint not only in Valencia but also in Toledo, where Ildefonsus (d. 667) knew about him. Dating Donatus' flight from Africa at or soon before 572 places him in what Jacques Fontaine refers to as the second wave of mass movement from Africa to Spain,[101] when the Byzantine armies of North Africa were no longer able to hold back the incursions of the native Berber and Moorish tribes, or "barbarians." The fleeing monks saved their most precious possessions—namely, books, and as many of them as possible. The only items more valuable were relics, and the omission of any mention of these indicates that, most likely, the community had none. The story of Donatus is a clear example of how communities of African exiles gathered around a holy figure were responsible for bringing not only saints' cults to late antique Europe, but also books. Examining where cults of African saints formed outside Africa can therefore imply routes of transmission of African texts.

II. INTRODUCTION

Books and letters often traveled together, as demonstrated in the previous chapter. Books also traveled with saints' relics, brought across the Mediterranean by

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(no. 45 in the long recension). See Fear, *Lives of the Visigothic Fathers*, p. 112, fn. 19. A location in this coastal diocese makes sense, since a boat sailing west from North Africa would reasonably land in or near this area, with perhaps a stop in the Balearic Islands.

[100] Both these dates are recorded in the only other source for Donatus, John of Biclarum's *Chronica* (CPL 2261) from the early seventh century, a continuation of the *Chronica* of Victor of Tonnenna, which will be discussed in greater detail in Chapter Four, section IV. B.

[101] J. Fontaine, *Isidore de Seville et la culture classique dans l'espagne wisigothique*, 3 vols., 2nd ed. (Paris 1983), pp. 854ff.

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North African bishops, priests, and monks who fled or were exiled from Africa as a result of religious persecutions and controversies. These exiles formed liturgical communities around the cults of African saints and martyrs whose relics they brought with them to Europe, particularly Spain, Gaul, and Italy. Many exiles themselves became the foci of saints' cults after their deaths, thus introducing more African saints into the liturgy of late antique and medieval Europe. As these African saints and exiles were absorbed into European communities, their African codices became part of European library collections. This chapter seeks to identify some of the routes that brought African learning to Europe by focusing on where cults of African saints were venerated on the northern shores of the Mediterranean.

The time period spanning from the death of Augustine in 430 to the Arab conquest of North Africa at the very end of the seventh century, is significant not only for the persecutions and religious controversies in Africa and the Mediterranean as a whole. This is also the time period in which most of classical and Christian culture—represented by texts, letters, manuscripts, relics, and cults—left North Africa, to be preserved as part of the culture of the western Church in Europe. This era, therefore, witnessed the exodus of the patristic culture of late antique North Africa. Many saints of this period, their cults, and their relics are known today *because* they emigrated from Africa to Europe during this period.

A wealth of scholarship has examined saints' cults in North Africa in both Roman times and Late Antiquity. Studies such as Yvette Duval's *Loca sanctorum*

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Africae[102] and Victor Saxer's *Morts, martyrs et reliques en Afrique chrétienne aux premiers siècles*[103] provide necessary context on the nature of these cults and the sources for these saints. However, neither they nor broader histories of the Late Antique Mediterranean pay sufficient attention to the connections between North Africa and its Latin-speaking neighbors. African saints venerated in Europe represent such connections. Francesco Lanzoni added a short section at the end of his *La diocesi d'Italia dalle origini al principio del secolo VII (an. 604)* in recognition of the African saints venerated in Italy[104]; this chapter hopes to add a few more Africans to his list. The locations where African saints were venerated, in Italy or in other parts of southern Europe, imply the presence of African communities, which also implies collections of books, letters, and other written material. To present African saints' cults more clearly in the context of the early Christian Church in the West, this chapter discusses the sources and methodology used in identifying these cults. The second part of the chapter takes a closer look at individual saints cults and draw conclusions about how they came to be venerated in specific places in Europe. The Appendix supplies a list of twenty-two African saints' cults with bibliographic information.

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[102] Y. Duval, *Loca sanctorum Africae: le culte des martyrs en Afrique du IVe au VIIe siècle*, 2 vols. (Rome 1982).

[103] V. Saxer, *Morts, martyrs et reliques en Afrique chrétienne aux premiers siècles* (Paris 1980).

[104] F. Lanzoni, *Le diocesi d'Italia dalle origini al principio del secolo VII (an. 604)*, 2 vols., Studi e Testi 35 (Faenza 1927), "Excursus sui santi africani venerati in Italia," pp. 1093-1103.

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III. SOURCES AND METHODOLOGY

A. Liturgical Sources

Liturgical sources, most particularly calendars and martyrologies, locate the veneration of specific saints who were influential enough to enter into the liturgy of a particular place. The purpose of calendars was to mark saints' feasts for each day of the year, while the purpose of martyrologies was to provide a didactic story of martyrdom to accompany the saints' day. The result for the historian is a ready-made list of cults that can then be pinpointed to a certain area and period of time, provided the provenance of the sources is known.[105]

The Calendar of Carthage, considered the oldest western calendar by René Aigrain,[106] dates from the sixth century, though it no doubt reflects much earlier traditions. It contains a mixture of eastern, western, and Biblical saints in addition to the number of local African saints, reflecting, therefore, the "universal" (*catholicus*) Church in Late Antiquity. The liturgical observation of the Church of North Africa up to the sixth century was very much in the same tradition as the larger Church of the western Mediterranean, a tradition that outlasted the political dissolution of the western empire by over a century. The Church at Carthage claimed such "universal"

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[105] The sermons of Augustine, for example, were delivered on many of the feast days featured in the Calendar of Carthage, and these sermons were the didactic element of the day's service. Augustine remains one of the richest sources for the observation of saints' cults in North Africa; see Saxer, *op. cit.*, pp. 315-321 for saints mentioned in works of Augustine.

[106] For a thorough and convenient survey of ancient and medieval calendars and martyrologies, see R. Aigrain, *L'Hagiographie: ses sources, ses méthodes, son histoire*, Subsidia hagiographica 80 (Brussels 1953, repr. 2000), pp. 11-106. For crit. ed. of the Cal. Carthage: *Kalendarium antiquissimum ecclesiae Carthaginensis*, in J. Mabillon, ed., *Vetera analecta* (Paris 1723), pp. 163-167.

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saints as the apostles and Stephen the Proto-Martyr, in the same way that non-African calendars would in turn claim such African saints as Augustine and Perpetua and Felicity. The many Africans named in the Calendar of Carthage also give a local flavor to this universal calendar, as does the relatively small number of names overall, especially when compared to the lengthy martyrology of Jerome. The search for cults of African saints venerated outside Africa begins with the Calendar of Carthage, because of its antiquity and influence on other calendars, and because it is the only extant calendar from late antique North Africa.

The Calendar of Naples, which dates from the ninth century and was inscribed on marble slabs found in the church of S. Giovanni Maggiore in Naples, is another example of a calendar that venerates saints from all over the Mediterranean, as well as saints only of local renown.[107] The cults of Restituta and Quodvultdeus are two significant examples of African saints who were venerated only in the Naples area in late antiquity. Neither are mentioned in the Calendar of Carthage, implying that they only became saints after traveling to Naples from Carthage. The Calendar of Naples is the only local calendar (besides that of Carthage) that witnesses African saints' cults in Europe in Late Antiquity. It represents a liturgical aspect to the link between Carthage and Naples that can also be seen through the exchange of personal letters and theological treatises examined in the previous chapters of this dissertation.

The martyrology attributed to Jerome (d. 420), often referred to as the Hieronymian Martyrology, is sometimes considered to pre-date the Calendar of

[107] H. Delehaye, "Hagiographie Napolitaine" in *Analecta Bollandiana* 57 (1939): 5-64.

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Carthage.[108] The date of original composition is unknown: it probably dates from the fourth century, though the first redactions date to around the turn of the seventh. Its many recensions were certainly the basis for most subsequent European calendars and martyrologies. The Martyrology of Jerome will not be explored in detail for this paper for several reasons: the saints listed did not necessarily have cults from the fifth to eighth centuries or outside of North Africa (Jerome may have been copying names from the Calendar of Carthage), and the hundreds of martyrs are identified only by their names and are usually not found in any other source.

The Martyrology of Jerome did, however, provide a model for subsequent medieval martyrologies. Bede (d. 735) composed a martyrology in Anglo-Saxon England that contains a surprisingly large number of African saints. The ninth century brought many continuations of his martyrology as an integral part of the Carolingian ecclesiastic educational program. These include the martyrologies of an anonymous monk in Lyons (c. 800), Florus (c. 837), Ado (c. 850-860), and Usuard (875), who borrowed many of the African saints from Bede.[109] Though the ninth-century martyrologies extend beyond the end of Late Antiquity as defined in this paper, they are still important for preserving earlier stories and traditions copied from

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[108] The fact that the Hieronymian Martyrology has so many more names—particularly names of African saints—than the Calendar of Carthage is actually considered a reason for the antiquity of the latter: in this light, it seems more likely that the Hier. Mart. drew from the Cal. Carthage than vice-versa. The problem remains unresolved. See Aigrain, *L'hagiographie*, pp. 20-23. For crit. ed. of the Hier. Mart.: C. De Smedt, J. De Becker, et al., AASS, Nov. II, pt. 1 (Brussels 1894, repr. 1965), pp. I-lxxxii, 1-195.

[109] These ninth-century martyrologies are combined in the following critical sources: for Bede and Florus, *Edition Pratique des martyrologes de Bède de l'anonyme lyonnais et de Florus*, eds. J. Dubois and G. Renaud (Paris 1976); for Usuard, *Le martyrologe d'Usuard*, ed. J. Dubois (Brussels 1965).

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antique sources, sometimes straight from Bede or the Hieronymian Martyrology. This presents a problem, however, in that these martyrologies do not necessarily represent veneration of a saint in the ninth century; what they can prove is the persistence of the authority of the antique sources that were copied. Martyrologies from after the ninth century are derivative and provide no new information about African saints' cults, and will therefore be ignored.[110]

B. Literary and Other Sources

Literary sources for late antique African saints' cults include hagiographies and historical sources from the fifth through eighth centuries, such as the *Vitae*, or *Lives* of the saints. One of the richest historical sources for North African saints and martyrs is Victor of Vita's *Historia persecutionum Vandalorum* (CPL 798), written at the end of the fifth century.[111] Because Victor's purpose is to describe the Vandal atrocities in Africa, he names numerous Catholic bishops and confessors who were prominent in both religious and political opposition to the new regime, many of whom were exiled by the Vandal regime. Spanish sources include Ildefonsus' *De viris illustribus*, the source for the Donatus example in the Prologue. For sixth-century Gaul, evidence of African saints' cults is provided in the *Historia Francorum*

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[110] These late antique and medieval sources were standardized into the official Roman Martyrology in the sixteenth century, thus assembling the African saints cults from the early sources into standard liturgy for the Catholic Church in the West in the modern era.

[111] Crit. ed.: Victor of Vita, *Victoris Vitensis historia persecutionis africanae provinciae sub Geiserico et Hunirico regibus Wandalorum*, ed. C. Halm, MGH *Auct. ant.* III. i (Berlin 1879, repr. Munich 1993); and *id.*, *Histoire de la persécution vandale en Afrique*, ed. S. Lancel (Paris 2002).

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(CPL 1023) by Gregory of Tours, as well as his *Gloria martyrum* (CPL 1024).[112] Works from the medieval period, such as *Legenda* of the saints or later saints' *Vitae*, are often so removed from their subject that their content is mostly romantic in nature. While this is interesting for medieval devotion, these later sources shed no light on saints' cults in Late Antiquity.

Besides the liturgical and literary sources, evidence of an archaeological nature can point to African saints' cults. The fifth-century (i.e., contemporary) fresco of Quodvultdeus, Bishop of Carthage and exile to Naples, in the catacombs of San Gennaro in Naples, for instance, clearly implies his status as a local patron, if not saint.[113] Another group of sources is composed of the *authentica* of relics, small parchment tags that were attached to relics for identfication. These documents, and the relics that they accompanied, are tangible—and sometimes datable—witnesses to lines of communication that followed late antique Mediterranean trade routes. The *authentica* collection from the monastery at Sens in north central France is a tempting source for this study for the African relics it contained, pointing possibly to five African saints and definitely to one.[114] The five possibile identifications of African saints in the *authenticis* are Pantaleon, Lucius, Victorianus, Pancratius, and Julia (*ChLA* 682.33, 45, 52, 63, 63, respectively), all of whom are homonymous to African

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[112] Crit. eds.: Gregory of Tours, *Gregorii episcopi Turonensis libri historiarum X*, ed. B. Krusch and W. Levison; *id.*, *Liber in gloria martyrum*, ed. B. Krusch, MGH *Script. rer. Merov.*, vol. i, pt. 2 (Hanover 1885, repr. 1961), pp. 34-111. English eds.: *id.*, *The History of the Franks*, transl. L. Thorpe; *id.*, *Glory of the Martyrs*, transl. R. Van Dam, Translated Texts for Historians 3 (Liverpool 1988).

[113] U.M. Fasola, *Le catecombi di San Gennaro a Capodimonte* (Rome 1974).

[114] McCormick, *The Origins of the European Economy*, pp. 290-303. A. Bruckner, R. Marichal, eds., *Chartae latinae antiquiores*, vol. 19 (Lausanne, Zurich, 1954-1998).

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saints. The only certainly African *authenticum* is that of Augustine (*ChLA* 682.45). The documented presence of a relic is just as much, if not more, a testimony to a saint's cult as mention in a calendar or martyrology. It can also, however, be ambiguous, when saints with common names are not specified by their feast day; therefore, the *authentica* are not a major source for this study, nor are the saints they name included in the list in the Appendix.

The list of African saints in the Appendix refers to the source or sources in which the saint is found. The information that is the most interesting and most important for the overall dissertation is the location in Europe where each saint was/is venerated (where that information is available). The next section will therefore attempt to address *how* and *why* a particular saint left Africa and was venerated in a new location. As the answers to these questions remain elusive in the case of many of the saints listed, three of the examples for which there is more evidence—Restituta, Augustine, and Eugenius—will be discussed in greater detail as a case study. The overarching purpose in examining the evidence is to hint both at the means of travel and communication from Africa to Europe in Late Antiquity, and the more elusive notions of the role of liturgical communities among African exiles and their European contacts in the spread of cults across the Mediterranean.

IV. AFRICAN SAINTS VENERATED IN EUROPE

A. The Context for African Exiles

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The reason that so many exiles are known to have left North Africa in the fifth, sixth, and seventh centuries is because of the religious persecutions under the Vandals and the encroachment on Romanized Africa of Berber tribes and Arab armies. These conflicts certainly explain the large number of exiles, such as Donatus' group of monks and the exiles described in Victor of Vita's *Historia persecutionum*, though exiles fit more into the category of confessors of the faith, rather than martyrs. The main portion of African martyrs appearing in the liturgical sources were victims of the third- and fourth-century persecutions of the Roman Emperors Decius, Valerian, Julian, and especially Diocletian. Considering the large number of African saints, North Africa is sometimes singled out as having a rather fanatical approach to Christianity[115]: the African Orthodox Christian Church is a Church in which martyrs and confessors were easily and readily made. This chapter, however, does not subscribe to this interpretation, since African saints, though numerous, do not comprise a significantly higher proportion in the late antique Mediterranean calendars and martyrologies as a whole than, for instance, Italian saints. As Italy and North Africa had both been urbanized and Romanized earlier than the rest of the Latin West, Christianity took earlier root in these two provinces, implying that there were more Christians to participate in martyrdom than in places such as Spain or Gaul.

In any case, African saints from the beginning of the fourth century (as with the many victims of the Diocletianic persecutions) do not in themselves reveal much

[115] Frend, in *The Donatist Church*, considers this fanaticism peculiar to African Christianity, stemming from its indigenous pagan beliefs, mixing with the local Berber culture, and eventually assimilating to Muslim nomadism.

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about the transmission of texts during the fifth, sixth, and seventh centuries. However, locating where these earlier saints were venerated in late antique Europe can shed light on possible communities of African living in those locations to which later exiles came from North Africa. The reason that Rome and Naples were so often the destination of African saints, letters, and books is because both cities already harbored significant African communities since before the fourth century. Hadrian of Canterbury, for instance, fled with his family from the Arab incursions into Libya in the mid-seventh century and went to Naples, where so many other Africans had traveled before him. Knowledge of an African saint in a certain location in Spain, Gaul, or Italy may not always imply a community of Africans there, since names of African saints reached the places where the Hieronymian martyrology and the Calendars of Carthage and Naples were read and/or incorporated into liturgical use. However, when a specific African saint is known to have been venerated in a certain location, however, then a possible community of Africans may be implied. If a saint or the veneration of a saint traveled from Africa to Europe, it was brought there by a group of people who were sufficiently settled to establish some sort of religious practice there that left a trace on local culture. Therefore, showing where an African saint from the second, third, or fourth centuries was venerated in Italy, Spain, or Gaul can imply a location where Africans were accustomed to going, possibly even during the fifth, sixth, and seventh centuries.

B. African Saints Venerated in Europe

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A brief glance at the list of African saints in the Appendix shows that most North African saints were venerated in Italy, with only a few known to have been venerated in Spain and France. The evidence for saints' cults therefore echoes the established routes of travel and administrative communication outlined in Chapter One. Of the three case studies examined below, two represent the veneration of African saints in Italy: the relics of Augustine went from Africa to Pavia via Sardinia; and Restituta became the patron saint of the Isle of Ischia in the Bay of Naples.[116] Both Augustine and Restituta are examples of saints that traveled after death, meaning that their relics were brought to Italy by a person or group of persons. In the mid-fifth century, for instance, Quodvultdeus of Carthage and Gaudiosus of Abitene may have been responsible for establishing the cult of Restituta at Naples when they themselves were exiled there by the Vandal King Geiseric around 439.

Other African saints venerated in Italy include the third-century Numidian martyrs Marianus and James, who became titulars at the cathedral of Gubbio in Umbria. The sixth-century companions Regulus and Cerbonius left Africa during the Vandal persecutions only to become victims in the Lombard persecutions in Tuscany. After Regulus was martyred by King Totila (r. 541-52), he supposedly carried his own head to the city of Piombino, whence his relics were translated to Lucca in the ninth century. Cerbonius fled to Piombino with Regulus (and his head), but during the Lombard persecutions he fled again to the nearby island of Elba. His relics remain at Piombino, and some relics are apparently also at Orden in southern

[116] For Augustine, see section IV. D below; for Restituta, IV. C.

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France.[117] Another African saint venerated both in Italy and France (Belgium, actually) is Felix of Thibiuca (near Carthage), martyred in the late third/early fourth century, who is venerated at Venosa in Apulia and Bruges in Flanders.[118] Though martyred in Africa, later legends tell that he was brought to Venosa and martyred there, an event depicted by the Baroque painter Carlo Maratta in the Cattedrale di San Andrea in Venosa; how he reached Bruges, however, is unclear.

Felix may have been venerated in Italy because he was confused with a homonymous saint Felix, one of the "Twelve Holy Brothers" martyred around the same time in the region of Venosa.[119] Nabor and Felix, martyred with their companions in the third century, have been venerated at Milan since the fourth century because they were conflated with the Milanese saints of the same names mentioned by Ambrose.[120] The same confusion of names might explain why two African saints named Gallonius and Peregrinus were venerated in Aquileia.[121] In the case of Gallonius, the names that are confused are Utine, the African hometown of Gallonius, and Utinum (modern Udine), a town near Aquileia in Italy. Gallonius and Peregrinus did not enter into the saints' calendar local to Aquileia because their relics

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[117] Lanzoni, *Le diocesi d'Italia*, pp. 355-358, 554-558; Lanzoni considers the two saints Italian and not African.

[118] Lanzoni, *op. cit.*, p. 1100.

[119] Lanzoni, *op. cit.*, pp. 286-87; BHL 2297-2302.

[120] BHL 6028-6029; see Ambrose, *Ep.* 22 (CPL 160). Augustine preaches on the African Nabor in *Versus de S. Nabore* (CPL 357); cf. Duval, *Loca sanctorum africae*, p. 182.

[121] P. Chiesa, "Un testo agiografico africano ad Aquileia: gli *acta* di Gallonio e dei martiri di *Timida regia*" in *AB* 114 (1996): 241-268; *id.*, "Pellegrino, martire *in urbe Bolitana* e Pellegrino di Ancona" in *AB* 116 (1998): 25-56.

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were carried there (unlike Restituta at Naples), but because a text containing the accounts of their martyrdom was circulated to Aquileia (via Friuli) from Africa sometime soon after the fifth century, and was later preserved in a thirteenth-century Aquileian manuscript. This example shows how the dissemination of African saints' cults very often depends on the transmission of North African texts; both traveled along the same routes to Europe and were received by the same ecclesiastical communities.

Gallonius and Peregrinus may be more obscure than Felix, but none are as well-known as Augustine, Cyprian, and the Scillitan martyrs, who are venerated in all of Europe. While the relics of Augustine were taken to Italy by a Lombard king in the eighth century, the relics for Cyprian and the Scillitan martyrs were taken to Lyons in sourthern Gaul at the order of Charlemagne in 806.[122] Except for Felix at Bruges, who was probably unknown there until the Middle Ages, most African saints found in Gaul were usually venerated in the south. This makes sense considering the contact between Carthage and Arles (as seen with the dissemination of conciliar acta) and Marseilles (as seen with trade routes) during Late Antiquity. For example, Albi in Provence is the site of the cult of Eugenius, Bishop of Carthage (d. 505), who was exiled during the Vandal persecutions of the late fifth century. According to Gregory of Tours' *Historia Francorum*, Eugenius ended his days in a monastery at Albi, where a cult formed around his relics. Eugenius is also an example of an African saint venerated in both France and Italy: according to different (though later) sources,

[122] Florus, *Edition Pratique des martyrologes*, eds. Dubois and Renaud, 17 July, p. 129.

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he and his companions Vindemialis, Florentinus, and Longinus were all exiled to Corsica whence, after their deaths, their relics were transported to Treviso at the request of the eighth-century Bishop of Treviso, Tatian. Very few African saints that I have found—Octavianus, mentioned by Gregory as a companion of Eugenius,[123] and Clarus, the obscure first bishop of Albi[124]—are venerated solely in France.

Spain also claims saints from Africa. The cult of the third-century African saint Salsa, the best-known saint from Tipasa in Mauretania, is found in Spain, and her *Vita* is preserved only through Spanish manuscripts.[125] The centurion Marcellus was originally of Spanish origin, but was stationed in Africa when he was martyred. His relics returned to Spain probably along the same routes that his legion reached Africa in the first place. Marcellus' relics were taken to Léon cathedral in 1493, and his cult, which originally traveled to Spain from Africa, traveled from Spain to Aix and Narbonne. Marcellus was most likely not venerated in Africa, however, and neither was Donatus in Valencia in the sixth century. Why Donatus went to Spain instead of Italy is unclear; he may have been a monk in one of the western African provinces (Mauretania, western Numidia), which traditionally shared closer administrative and cultural ties with Spain. Moreover, Donatus fled to Spain in the mid-sixth century, which is around the time that several works of African poetry (discussed in Chapter Five) were transmitted to Spain from the area of Carthage.

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[123] *Historia Francorum*, II. 3. Gregory reports that Octavianus died in Africa; see below, section IV. E. for Octavianus in Gaul.

[124] P.B. Gams, *Series episcoporum ecclesiae catholicae* (Regensberg 1873, repr. Graz 1957), p. 483: "S. Clarus, Afer, memoratur 1. VI., de quo nihil certi invenitur."

[125] Monceaux, *Histoire littéraire de l'Afrique chrétienne*, vol. III, pp. 163-168.

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This suggests contact between Spain and the eastern North African provinces as well. Africa was after all a stop-over point for ships traveling from the eastern Mediterranean to destinations in Italy or Spain. For example, Pelagius (Pelayo), Bishop of Oviedo in the twelfth century, wrote a chronicle in which he records the century-long series of translations that took the Sudarium, a shroud wrapped around Jesus' head after crucifixion, from Jerusalem to Spain via North Africa during the late seventh century.[126] The relic was one step ahead of the Muslims as they continued their westward course across Africa, and it accompanied refugee African bishops as they sought shelter for themselves, their relics and their books, first at Cartagena, then northwards towards Oviedo.

The patterns of African saints' cults found in Europe strongly support the evidence of textual transmission because where people brought their saints to Italy, Spain, or Gaul, was also where people brought their texts. The majority are found in Italy because Africans were accustomed to going to Italy since the time of the Roman Empire, whether for administrative, educational, ecclesiastical, or economic reasons. African ties with southern Gaul were primarily of an ecclesiastical nature, so that fewer practical reasons for travel result in fewer travelers. Moreover, the African saints in Spain were mostly from the western parts of North Africa that were administratively attached to Spain since the diocesan reorganization of the late third century. Finding African saints' cults in Europe in Late Antiquity and later periods is not particularly significant, given the ties binding the former Roman provinces of

[126] B. Sánchez Alonso, ed., *Crónica del obispo Don Pelayo*, Textos latinos de la edad media española, sec. 1, chron. 3 (Madrid 1924), p. 82.

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North Africa to other former Roman provinces still hold firm even after the demise of the western Roman Empire. Furthermore, saints from Spain or southern Gaul were also venerated in Italy, since the Roman liturgy absorbed saints' and martyrs' names from all over the former western empire. Saints in the late antique Latin-speaking world may have been described as being African, Spanish, Gallic, or Italian, but it would be more accurate to think of them as Mediterranean.

C. The Cult of Restituta in the Bay of Naples

The Carthaginian virgin martyr Restituta traveled across the Mediterranean *after* her death in the early fourth century. She reached Europe through the Bay of Naples, where her cult has flourished since the fifth century; her cult is another example of the extensive cultural contact between Carthage and Naples. The sources for the *Vita* of Restituta, though many, were written centruies later than the establishment of her cult. Peter the Subdeacon, a tenth-century hagiographer in Naples, wrote a *Vita*, though it is apparently of little interest.[127] The early modern compiler of the *De monumentis sacris ecclesiae neapolitanae*, Antonius Carraciolus, left an extensive *Vita*, which narrates Restituta's trial before the African prefect Proclinus in detail, with only a few lines at the end of the work devoted to her mysterious translation to Naples.[128] According to Carraciolus, Restituta suffered

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[127] Peter the Subdeacon, *La passione di Santa Restituta*, in E. D'Angelo, ed., *Pietro Suddiacono napoletano. L'opera agiografica* (Florence 2002), pp. 183-199 (BHL 7190). The BS calls it "assai poco attendibile," and the AASS omits mention of it entirely.

[128] [n.i.] There exist two later editions of the *De monumentis*, one by Chioccarelli in the mid seventeenth century, the other by Mazzocchi in the mid eighteenth. B. Chioccarelli, *Antistitum*

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severe torture by the hand of the prefect and his officers, and was placed, still alive, in a boat and put to sea. In this little boat, her steadfastness was rewarded by an angelic visitation, after which she decided it was time to give up her spirit. Thus it was her corpse that was found in the boat by a pious woman, Lucina, on the island of Ischia in the Bay of Naples. There she was interred with all due honor in a place called Eraclius (*in loco qui dicitur Eraclius*),[129] which was probably a church. Though later venerated on the mainland, she was first venerated on the Isle of Ischia, of which she remains the patron saint to this day.

The sources for her cult are not that much earlier than for her *Vita*, the earliest source being the ninth-century Marble Calendar of Naples.[130] She is also found in medieval and modern saints calendars from Naples, other Campanian cities, such as Benevento, and other Italian cities, such as Pisa. Not only is she found in numerous Italian written sources, but her image exists in a fourteenth-century mosaic in the Naples cathedral, depicted with the Virgin Mary and St. Januarius (in Italian, Gennaro), patron saint of Naples. Her image is also found in the Abbey of St. Claire

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praeclarissimae neapolitanae ecclesiae catalogus ab apostolorum temporibus (Naples 1643), records the legend of her arrival in the Bay of Naples and the naming of the Constantinian basilica after her. A. Mazzocchi, *In vetus marmoreum sanctae neapolitanae ecclesiae kalendarium commentarius*, 3 vols. (Naples 1744-55) [n.i.] wrote his commentary two years after the discovery of the Calendar of Naples.

[129] AASS, May IV, p. 24.

[130] Achelis, however, identifies Restituta as an Italian martyr, and Delehaye, though he considers her African, deems the sources too late to be trustworthy. Achelis identifies her as an Italian from *Karalis*, or Cagliari in Sardinia, which is noteworthy for the other Africans located there at various times (such as Fulgentius, cf. section IV. D. below) H. Achelis, *Der Marmorkalendar in Neapel* (Leipzig 1929).

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(Chiara) in Palermo, where it is said to have performed miracles, thus attesting her veneration in Palermo.[131]

To have become such a prominent Campanian saint by the Middle Ages, Restituta would have to have been promoted rather enthusiastically during the late antique period. Two possible promoters of her cult are Gaudiosus, Bishop of Abitene (d. second half of 5th cent.), and Quodvultdeus, Bishop of Carthage (d. before 454), both of whom fled North Africa during the Vandal persecutions of the fifth century.[132] Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus may have been responsible for bringing her relics to Campania in the first place, thereby rendering the legend of her mysterious translation to Ischia a later fabrication. Omitting the role of Ischia as the stop-over point between Africa and Naples certainly downplays the importance of the cult on the island, a fact that may have stimulated the creation of the later legend. Patrick Geary attests to the importance of relics and saints' cults as foci for community identity-building, and perhaps this is the case with the Isle of Ischia.[133] With the cult of Restituta becoming popular all over Campania in the early Middle Ages, the cult at Ischia required a greater claim to the saint than simply a statue and some relics in a sanctuary dedicated in her honor. This sanctuary was discovered in the mid-twentieth

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[131] AASS, May IV, p. 20.

[132] Mandouze, *Prosopographie chrétienne*, "Gaudiosus 4," p. 528, and "Quodvultdeus 5," pp. 947-949.

[133] P. Geary, *Furta Sacra: Thefts of Relics in the Central Middle Ages*, rev. ed. (Princeton 1990), pp. 7-8. Geary is discussing Carolingian cults, for the most part, but I think his conclusions apply to earlier cults as well.

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century on top of a paleochristian basilica, possibly attesting to the antiquity of the cult on the island.[134]

Though later venerated in Africa, Restituta is significant for being initially venerated in the region of Naples, thus representing the travel of saints' cults both to Europe from Africa and back. Her relics were transferred to the basilica at Naples, supposedly also in the fourth century,[135] but more likely in the mid-fifth century, if we are to accept the role of Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus in the spread of her cult. These two bishops, who were active in the numerous Orthodox Church councils of the late fourth and early fifth centuries, were exiled for refusing to submit to the Arian establishment under the Vandals, and were therefore deemed confessors of the faith by the Catholic (Orthodox) Church. They and their companions-in-exile, adrift on the waves of the Mediterranean, were brought to the Campanian coast supposedly by the grace of God,[136] in much the same way that Restituta had arrived miraculously in the Bay of Naples a century earlier. Both of these accounts confirm that the routes of communication and travel between Carthage and Naples were long-established. The presence of a community of African bishops and African saints in the Bay of Naples is unsurprising, especially given that exiles usually traveled in communities, bringing their texts, relics, and liturgical customs with them. Gaudiosus, Quodvultdeus, and

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[134] P. Monti, *Ischia: Archeologia e storia* (Naples 1980), pp. 229-315.

[135] According to Caracciolus in the AASS, p. 19. Included is the text of the office commemorating the translation of her relics to Naples.

[136] Some sources say that God directed the bishops towards Italy, though others say that Geiseric exiled them there, meaning Italy was not their (or God's) choice for their destination. See F. Holweck, *A Biographical Dictionary of the Saints* (St. Louis 1924, repr. Detroit 1969).

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other victims of the persecution of Geiseric, however, were despoiled of their landed property before leaving Africa, but they almost certainly would have brought their books and the most valuable church treasures with them. The *Vitae* of Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus mention that the Bishop of Naples, Nostrianus, was sympathetic and welcoming towards the exiled African bishops. This Bishop of Naples was also a great opponent of the Pelagian heresy, as was Quodvultdeus at the early-fifth-century Councils of Carthage. This could possibly imply that the two bishops were already known to each other. Nostrianus suggests a further link between Carthage and Naples in Late Antiquity: the great sympathy felt by bishops in Europe for the victims of the Arian persecution, their comrades in orthodoxy in the community of the Western Church. Gregory of Tours echoes this sympathy in the example of Eugenius of Carthage in the next case study. This consideration may help to explain the significant African presence in Naples, as well as in certain other places in Italy, Spain, or (in the case of Gregory) Gaul.

The question, however, is less *why Naples* than *why Restituta.* If Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus simply wanted to install a familiar African saint in their new Campanian homeland, then why did they choose this particular martyr, when Africa, and Carthage more particularly, had numerous other martyrs from which to choose? The large number of African martyrs during the persecutions of the various Roman emperors can be seen in the Hieronymian Martyrology. Perhaps the cult of Restituta

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was already popular in Carthage,[137] meaning that the Bay of Naples was only the secondary site of her cult. Evidence for a preexisting cult of Restituta in Africa lies mainly with the mention of a "Basilica Restituta" at Carthage, site of many Councils of Carthage during the fourth and fifth centuries.[138] The hypothesis that this proves the early existence of her cult in Africa, however, is usually overruled by the interpretation of the Basilica Restituta as a basilica reinstated (*restituta*) to Catholic use after the Donatist schism in the fourth century. The donation of some of her relics in the nineteenth century to the Church at Carthage furthermore suggests that she was venerated in her native land only via her original cult in the Bay of Naples.[139] If our two bishops then wished to promote a new cult of an African saint in Campania, they may have constructed the cult of Restituta through a desire to maintain ties to North Africa while in exile, or to call attention to those representatives of the African Church in Italy, or because an African virgin martyr fit their ideal of a patron saint. They may have even borrowed the name Restituta from the basilica where they had attended councils, inventing a martyr that could have lent her name to the basilica. The name might also reflect the idea that she was "brought back" (*restituta*) by the sea to Ischia.[140]

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[137] According to her *Vita*, Restituta was from Ponizara, a town near Carthage, though her trial and punishment took place at Carthage.

[138] Baluzius, AASS, May IV, p. 19.

[139] Although I prefer this second explanation, this is still debatable: "*atque ita an aliquem cultum S. Restituta, Carthagine habuerit, incertum nobis relinquitur*," AASS, p. 19.

[140] *Thanks to François Dolbeau for this suggestion.*

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Gaudiosus was certainly active after establishing himself at Naples. He founded the extramural monastery of St. Agnellus, where he himself was interred upon his death in the mid-sixth century, as was Quodvultdeus. The monastery of Sant Agnolo was later renamed San Gaudioso after the bishop. Quodvultdeus was later taken from this monastery and interred in the catacombs of St. Januarius (Gennaro), patron saint of Naples, where the African bishop is depicted as a black man in a fifth-century fresco.[141] Both Peter the Subdeacon and Peter Damian, writing in the eleventh-century, recorded that this monastery was founded by Gaudiosus, in exile from the Vandal persecution[142]; it could have then provided a focal point for the community of exiles in Campania. In this case, the promotion of the cult of Restituta may have been an expression of the continued resistance of the exiled Africans. They themselves, Gaudiosus, Quodvultdeus, and the others, were exiles, not martyrs, and their identification with a martyr may have been a tribute to those suffering under hostile regimes. The evidence for the hypothesis that Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus were instrumental in the spread of the cult of Restituta in the area around Naples in Late Antiquity, remains circumstantial. The *Vitae* and other sources for Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus unfortunately say nothing about any connection to Restituta. There is evidence, however, that Gaudiosus brought a relic of the blood of Stephen

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[141] This is a point of confusion, as the AASS calls it the monastery of St. Agnellus, but Holweck calls it a monastery of which Agnellus, who supposedly lived during the late seventh century, would later become bishop (the monastery of S. Gaudioso). For the catacombs at Naples, see Fasola, *Le catecombi di San Gennaro.*

[142] Peter the Subdeacon, *Libellus miraculorum sancti Agnelli*, in D'Angelo, ed., *Pietro Suddiacono napoletano* (BHL 150-152); Peter Damian, *Die Briefe des Petrus Damiani*, ed. K. Reindel, 4 vols., MGH *Epistulae* sec. 30, vol. 4, pts. 1-4 (Munich 1983-1999), vol. II, p. 360, *Ep.* 72.

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the Protomartyr with him from Africa, which is a substantial relic indeed for the city of Naples. If he were able to salvage this precious relic from the heretical hands of the Vandals, then perhaps he was able to save other valuables, such as a collection of books, or other relics, such as those of Restituta.

Even if the sources for Restituta date from after the late antique period, this fact does not disprove that this fourth century Carthaginian martyr was not venerated in the Bay of Naples in the fifth century. The significant community of African exiles in Campania, of whom Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus are the foremost representatives, would have brought the customs most important to them when they relocated—namely, the customs of observing saints' days and reading texts. A more unlikely situation would be an origin for the cult of Restituta completely independent from her exiled compatriots in Campania, than for that group of exiles to have been instrumental in the introduction and spread of her cult. Her relics reached the Isle of Ischia in some fashion: chances are, they did not simply arrive miraculously in a boat—unless, of course, they were accompanied by a group of people, with their books, relics, and other possessions, who directed the boat to Naples on purpose.

D. The Translation of the Relics of Augustine from Africa to Italy

Why the city of Pavia in Northeastern Italy should choose the African Augustine as its patron saint is no mystery, given Augustine's status.[143] The Bishop

[143] Also unsurprising is the cult that formed around Augustine's mother Monica, another African saint whose relics are now in Rome (feast day: April 9). I was reminded of this example of an African saint venerated outside Africa when I began writing this chapter in the city of Santa Monica, California, which even today displays a statue of the saint at the intersection of Wilshire and Ocean Boulevards.

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of Hippo (in the province of Proconsular Africa) was famous throughout western Christendom even before his death in 430. Augustine appears in all the major calendars and martyrologies used as sources for this paper; of Africans, only Cyprian (d. 258) comes close in widespread veneration. Augustine's relics can be localized more specifically than his veneration: his relics have been at the Basilica di San Pietro in Ciel d'Oro in Pavia since the early eighth century. For about two and a half centuries before the translation to Pavia, Augustine's bones were on the island of Sardinia, probably at Cagliari, the episcopal seat of the island. The translation to Pavia at the order of the Lombard King Liutprand (r. 712-44) is described in Bede's martyrology, Paul the Deacon's *Historia Langobardorum*, and later sources; but the first, lesser known translation to Sardinia is of more interest for what it reveals about routes out of Africa. The second translation will therefore be briefly summarized before turning to an examination of the second translation.

Bede is the earliest source for the translation of Augustine's relics.[144] In his martyrology, he states that the body of the saint was taken from Hippo to Sardinia by the faithful soon after his death, and that the saint's relics were again removed to Ticinum (Pavia) in the early eighth century by Liutprand to keep them safe from barbarian raids (i.e., the Arab invasions):

> In Africa, [the feast day] of the holy bishop Augustine, who was first translated from his own city to Sardinia on account of the barbarians, recently

[144] J. Hallenbeck, *The Transferal of the Relics of St. Augustine of Hippo from Sardinia to Pavia in the Early Middle Ages*, Studies in the Bible and Early Christianity 41 (Lewiston 2000).

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> translated again by Luitbrand [*sic*] King of the Lombards to Ticinum, and was conducted there with great honor.[145]

Paul the Deacon's account from the later eighth century is basically the same, though independent from Bede's.[146] The ninth-century martyrologies of Florus, Ado, and Usuard were completely dependent on Bede in this matter. The thirteenth-century *Legenda aurea*, by Jacobus de Voragine, records that, as the relics were carried from the Ligurian shore inland to Pavia, Liutprand dedicated a church to the saint at every stop on their journey, beginning with Genoa.[147] This second translation reveals that the Arabs, who had already taken Carthage in 697, were overrunning Sardinia a little over a hundred years later, causing Christian communities to flee before them. This event mirrors the cause of the first translation, when so many Catholics fled or were exiled on account of the Arian Vandals, causing the movement of people and manuscripts from Africa to Europe. The second translation, however, speaks more of demonstrations of Lombard power in claiming the bones of Augustine, and not of the movement of communities.

The first translation, which does point to the movement of communities out of Africa, is mentioned in Bede and Paul the Deacon, but only as a prelude to the

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[145] August 28, no. 3: *In Africa, sancti Augustini episcopi: qui primo de sua civitate propter barbaros Sardiniam translatus, nuper a Liutbrando rege Langobardorum Ticinis relatus et honorifice conditus est.* Dubois and Renaud, eds., *Edition Pratique des martyrologes*, p. 159. Bede's *Chronica* contains a similar passage. See treatment by Hallenbeck, *op. cit.*, pp. 9-11.

[146] Paul the Deacon, *Historia Langobardorum*, eds. L. Bethmann and G. Waitz, MGH *Script. rer. Langobardicarum et Italicarum, saec. VI-IX* (Hanover 1878), VI. 48. Eng. ed.: *Paul the Deacon. History of the Langobards*, transl. F.W. Foulke (Philadelphia 1907, repr. 1974).

[147] Jacobus de Voragine, *The Golden Legend: readings on the saints*, trans. W. Granger Ryan (Princeton 1993).

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second, Lombard translation. The Augustinian Hermit Jordan of Saxony (d. after 1346), in his *Liber Vitasfratrum*, briefly describes Vandal tomb desecration and the exile of twenty bishops to Sardinia, who carry the bones of Augustine with them.[148] Somewhere around sixty or seventy years after Augustine's death, a community of the "faithful," meaning Catholics, fled with his bones from the "barbarians," meaning the Arian Vandals.

To whom does this community of the "faithful" refer? The specific people may not be identified, but the example of Fulgentius of Ruspe will show that Sardinia was a place where Africans brought their books, monastic customs, and possibly saints' cults as well. Fulgentius himself was probably not responsible for the first translation of Augustine's relics. The first of his two exiles to Sardinia is dated to 510/515, which is at least ten years after the arrival of the relics, according to the (albeit vague) estimate of sixty or seventy years after the death of Augustine in 430.[149] Furthermore, the *Vita Fulgentii*, written soon after his death (in 527/532) by Ferrandus, mentions nothing about the translation of Augustine's relics, which does not prove anything, but renders Fulgentius' participation in the translation unlikely. Fulgentius probably arrived in Sardinia soon after the arrival of the "faithful" carrying the relics. If Fulgentius was exiled there at the order of Thrasamund, then the "faithful" may have been exiled there as well. Sardinia was at that time within the

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[148] Jordan of Saxony, *Liber Vitasfratrum*, eds. R. Arbesmann and W. Hümpfner, Cassiciacum 1 (New York 1943), I. 18.

[149] The number of years between Augustine's death and his translation to Sardinia is rather disputed. Jordan of Saxony calculates sixty-two years, whereas Oldradus calculated fifty-six years; most of the estimates hover between fifty and seventy years. See Hallenbeck, *The Transferal of the Relics*, pp. 2, 113-129.

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limits of the Vandal kingdom, so it was not a complete escape on the part of this community. Yet, safety lies in numbers, and there were probably already communities of Africans in Sardinia to which subsequent persons and groups of people were drawn, such as Fulgentius, Ferrandus, and their comrades in the early sixth century.

Fulgentius may have been in contact with the community that fled from Hippo, and may have known about the translation of Augustine's relics to Sardinia. During the two and a half centuries between translations, more people surely knew the whereabouts of the holy body. Sardinia belonged to the Byzantine Exarchate of Africa in the sixth century, and to the Lombards in the mid-seventh. Bishops at Constantinople and the Lombard capital cities of Verona, Milan, and Pavia likely knew about the relics. Liutprand's clergyment at the Basilica di San Pietro in Ciel d'Oro certainly knew, as they advised the king in performing the translation. A further piece of evidence demonstrates that the cult of Augustine was well-known in Europe by the seventh or eighth century: the one identifiably African relic in the Sens collection of *authenticorum* is Augustine's.[150] Whether or not this was removed from the rest of his body in Hippo, Sardinia, or Pavia is uncertain, but once ensconced in Pavia, Augustine's body was probably kept as intact as possible. If these *authentica*

[150] *ChLA* 682.45. This *authenticum* also contains the names of a few other saints, including Lucius, whom McCormick considers possibly African in origin; McCormick, *The Origins of the European Economy*, pp. 296-297.

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reflect a collection that had already been in existence for a long time, as McCormick believes,[151] then this relic could have traveled to Gaul from Sardinia, or even Africa.

The resting place of the celebrated Bishop of Hippo was certainly known to all of western Europe after the translation to Pavia. What the second translation finally accomplished was both the geographic and spiritual removal of Augustine from Africa, by installing him in the world of Lombard Italy. The translations of relics from one place to another "did not and could not in themselves result in the introduction of cultural or religious values from these places in the communities which received the relics."[152] Augustine no longer belongs to Africa—a place which, after all, could not keep his relics safe from the infidel—but to the West, and Italy in particular. Augustine is therefore an excellent example of a truly Mediterranean saint. His relic translation is more limited in scope, but more useful to the theme of how African learning reached Europe: it highlights the importance of Sardinia as a place where Africans established communities in exile, and whence they and/or their written works later traveled to Italy.

E. The Cult of Eugenius at Albi

Unlike both Restituta and Augustine, who were removed from their home continent only after their deaths, Eugenius of Carthage is an example of a confessor of the faith who traveled to Europe himself, instead of being carried by a group of

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[151] McCormick, *op. cit.*, pp. 294-296.

[152] Geary, *Furta Sacra*, p. 7.

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people. Eugenius incurred the wrath of the Vandal kings Huniric and Thrasamund, and was exiled by both,[153] his second exile taking him to Albi in southern Gaul, where he died c. 505.[154] His arrival in Gaul and his subsequent veneration speak of contact from Africa to Gaul, for which there is less evidence than for Italy. Victor of Vita provides the most information about Eugenius and his struggle against the Arians in Carthage, though his *Historia persecutionum Vandalorum* does not extend beyond the years of Eugenius' first exile and therefore does not mention his second and final exile to Gaul. Gregory, as mentioned above, continues the life of Eugenius in his *Historia Francorum*,[155] recording his arrival at the monastery of Albi and his death there around the year 505. Both sources will be discussed, though Gregory's provides the more pertinent information about Eugenius in Gaul.

According to Victor of Vita, Eugenius was invited by Huniric to engage in a debate with the Arian bishops, where he and his fellow bishops presented a small *Libellus fidei catholicae*, refuting on all points the Arian view of the Trinity.[156] In response, the Vandal king launched a persecution against the Catholic bishops and their flock, and exiled at least five hundred bishops to the desert, presumably at the inland edge of Numidia or Byzacena, near Tripolitania. Even though Victor

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[153] Gunthamund, who reigned between the two, recalled Eugenius from his exile in Tripolitania (Libya).

[154] Baronius says 495; Victor of Tonnenna says 505. Victor of Tonnenna, *Victor Tonnennensis episcopi Chronica*, ed. T. Mommsen, MGH *Chron. min.* ii (also *Auct. ant.* xi) (Berlin 1894), pp. 178-206.

[155] Gregory of Tours, *Historia*, II. 3.

[156] This booklet is copied in full by Victor of Vita; see Moorhead, *Victor of Vita*, 2.56-2.101.

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elaborates on many individual examples of torture during the persecution, the sheer number of *exiles* hints that the Vandal kings thought it wise to avoid the creation of martyrs, and wished rather simply to expel the opposition forces from the realm. Moreover, Eugenius' recall to Carthage by Gunthamund, after enduring a harsh ascetic exile at Tamalleni in Tripolitania,[157] suggests that the Vandal policy towards the Catholic hierarchy was inconsistent and that Vandal kings may have sought support, or at least some sort of détente, from the Catholic bishops. Thrasamund is said to have welcomed Catholic debate, though apparently debate that was too zealous resulted in exiles for the Catholic bishops involved,[158] one of whom was Fulgentius of Ruspe, and another, Eugenius, who was exiled a second and final time to Gaul.

Victor wrote his history around 484, and therefore cannot have known about Eugenius' second exile. The earliest source for this second exile is Gregory of Tours' *Historia Francorum*, which reports his destination as Albi, where miracles were frequently wrought at the saint's tomb. In the *Historia* and in *Gloria martyrum*, Gregory ranks the saint among the martyrs, though technically Eugenius was a confessor—exiled, but not killed, by the Vandal king Huniric. The fact that Eugenius suffered for the Catholic faith was enough to elevate him to martyr status: he "had already triumphed as a victor over the torments of martyrdom."[159] Perhaps his status

[157] Moorhead, *op. cit.*, p. 78 n. 18.

[158] C. Courtois, *Les Vandales et l'Afrique*, pp. 302ff.

[159] Van Dam, *Gregory of Tours*, p. 81, no. 57.

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as martyr was strengthened by the fact that he sought out the tomb of the third-century martyr Amarandus[160] at Vieux near Albi, dying once he had accomplished this pilgrimage.[161] Gregory records that Eugenius was laid to rest in Amarandus' tomb, thus forever associating the African saint with this third-century Gallic martyr. Eugenius' entry in the *Gloria*, in fact, follows directly after that of Amarandus.[162] It remains unclear why Eugenius sought the tomb of Amarandus, and how he even knew of Amarandus, a seemingly local saint of southern Gaul, in the first place. Why he even chose Gaul as a destination is another question, though, as Bishop of Carthage, he may have been acquainted with or in contact with the bishop of Arles or other Gallic bishops. Networks of communication between Carthage and southern Gaul are also evident through Gregory's possession of such specific information about Eugenius, including one of his letters. The particular passage in the *Historia* that quotes this letter in its entirety reveals the concern the religious community of Gaul felt for their Catholic brethren in Africa:

> The Christians were persecuted even more cruelly in the time of the Vandals.... Africa is their witness, the land which bore them, and so is the right hand of Christ, which crowned them with the sempiternal gems of martyrdom. I have read the accounts of some of their sufferings and these I propose to tell once more in order to fulfil my promise to you.[163]

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[160] He was possibly a martyr during the Alemannic invasions. His name is also seen spelled Amaranthus. I will follow Van Dam in spelling it Amarandus.

[161] This question of how Eugenius can be considered a martyr is considered in the editorial apparatus of AASS for Eugenius, Jul. III, p. 488. The reasoning given is that exile implies great hardship on account of the faith, and usually leads to death anyway, meaning that the confessor deserves to be named martyr.

[162] Van Dam, *Gregory of Tours*, p. 80, no. 56.

[163] Thorpe, *The History of the Franks*, II. 3, p. 108.

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In other words, news of the Vandal persecutions was well-known in Gaul, indicating the circulation of accounts of martyrdom and persecution, and possibly of Victor's *History* among Gallic bishops.[164] Eugenius, then, may have traveled to Albi along a route by which correspondence traveled, or perhaps he brought his own correspondence with him to Gaul, where his letter could have traveled easily from Albi to the Auvergne, where Gregory found it amost a century later. Another possibility, though tenuous, is that Eugenius was attracted to Albi because another African saint, Clarus, was Albi's first bishop.[165] Clarus was sent from Rome by Pope Anacletus to spread Christianity in southern Gaul in the third century, and was beheaded in Lectoure in Gascony for refusing to participate in idol worship. The accounts in his twelfth-century *Vita* are somewhat inconsistent, and none are from Late Antiquity, leaving Clarus a rather obscure figure, who nonetheless was and is venerated throughout Aquitaine. If Eugenius had already heard of Amarandus before reaching Albi, it may be possible that he had heard of Clarus as well, and that this recognition influenced his choice to go to Albi.

Eugenius appears in Gennadius' *De viris illustribus*, though his arrival at Albi is not mentioned,[166] because Gennadius was writing before Eugenius' death—he

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[164] Gregory, of course, was writing about a century after the release of Victor's *Historia*. The possibility that he was familiar with the work, therefore, does not necessarily point to immediate circulation in Gaul.

[165] Gams, *Series episcoporum ecclesiae catholicae*, p. 483.

[166] The chapter on Eugenius is one of four chapters at the end of the work that appear in only a few of the numerous manuscripts of this work, and as such is often attributed to a Pseudo-Gennadius. This will be discussed in greater detail in Chapter Four, section II.

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records that *vivere adhuc...dicitur* ("he is still living").[167] The martyrologies of Florus, Ado, and Usuard also omit his final exile to Gaul. These ninth-century sources were therefore following Victor of Vita, and perhaps Gennadius as well, but not Gregory of Tours. According to one lesser-known branch of the tradition, Eugenius goes not to Albi, but Treviso, in Italy, along with Vindemialis, Bishop of Capsa, and the priests (or deacons) Longinus and Florentius. The Acta *sanctorum* mentions two versions of this exile: one in which Vindemialis and Florentius went to Corsica with Eugenius, and thence to Treviso while Eugenius went to Gaul; and an additional tradition in which Eugenius was also exiled to Corsica, and translated to Treviso, along with his two colleagues.[168] According to this second version, the clerics were all exiled by Thrasamund, and were martyred and taken—presumably by a community of exiles from the Vandal persecutions—to Corsica, whence their relics were translated to Treviso in the eighth century at the request of Tatian, Bishop of Treviso. Tatian probably arranged the translation in response to Arab invasions, in the same way that Liutprand removed Augustine from Sardinia. Like the first translation of Augustine's relics to Sardinia, the presence of Eugenius at Corsica

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[167] Gennadius, *Hieronymus liber de viris inlustribus, Gennadius liber de viris inlustribus*, ed. E.C. Richardson, Texte und Untersuchungen zur Geschichte der altchristlichen Literatur, vol. 14, no. 1 (Leipzig 1896), ch. xcviii, pp. 95-96.

[168] Henschenius, the Bollandist who edited the AASS entry for Tatian in May I, p. 271, seconds Eugenius' death and miracles in Corsica. The Bollandist Ughellus, however, lists only Florentius and Vindemialis in the translation to Treviso. Treviso certainly claims all three saints' bodies. Petrus de Natalibus, a fourteenth-century bishop of Equilia, records, in his *Catalogus sanctorum et gestorum eorum ex diversis et multis voluminibus collectis*, that Eugenius and an unspecified group of Christians were exiled to Corsica for refusing to swear an oath to Thrasamund.

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before traveling to Gaul or Italy reveals the role of the islands of Corsica and Sardinia as mid-way points of communication and travel between North Africa and Europe.

The sources not only disagree on where Eugenius went in his exile, but on the combination of companions that accompanied him. Gregory of Tours mentions that Vindemialis and Longinus, later Bishop of Pamaria, accompanied Eugenius to the Arian-Catholic debate, and states that Vindemialis was beheaded by the order of Huniric.[169] Even though Vindemialis and Eugenius certainly do not end up in the same place in this account, at least the two names are linked in their fate.[170] The Roman Martyrology also links the names of Eugenius, Vindemialis, and Longinus. This shows that Gregory did not learn about Vindemialis from Victor of Vita. More uncertain is how Florentius joined the group, as he seems to have replaced Longinus in the tradition that places the African bishops in Treviso.

The later tradition taking Eugenius to Treviso is, however, from medieval sources, and therefore not necessarily illuminating for the late antique period. Perhaps a fitting conclusion to the confusing traditions of the translation of Eugenius and his companions is found in a seventeenth-century source that conflates the two strands of the tradition. It records the translation of relics to the Church of Saint Cecilia in Albi from the church at Vieux on September 29, 1404, including the bodies

[169] If Vindemialis was beheaded the same time Eugenius was exiled to Albi, which seems to be what Gregory is implying, then this would be Thrasamund, not Huniric. Gregory's confusion of the two kings has already been mentioned above.

[170] Gregory did not hear about Vindemialis from Victor of Vita.

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of Eugenius, Vindemialis, Longinus, and Amarandus.[171] Thus Vindemialis and Longinus, by virtue of their connection to the name of Eugenius, end up in Gaul, and Eugenius is back with Amarandus in Albi, as recorded originally by Gregory of Tours. Gregory of Tours' *Historia* is a key source for establishing routes of travel from Africa to Europe, for records in full a letter from Eugenius to his congregation at Carthage. It directly connects an African *text* in Gaul with an African *saint* venerated in Gaul, suggesting that the veneration of the latter often depended on the transmission of the former.

V. CONCLUSION

Connecting where saints originated to where they were venerated reveals lines of contact between North Africa and Europe in Late Antiquity: for Donatus, between Africa and Valencia in Spain; for Restituta, between Carthage and Naples; for Augustine, between Hippo and Sardinia; and for Eugenius, between Carthage and southern Gaul (and possibly Corsica). These lines of contact were often along trade routes across the Mediterranean, such as the sea route from Carthage to Naples, or along routes of episcopal and administrative contact, such as from Mauretania to Spain or from Africa to southern Gaul. People left Africa and followed these routes, bringing their books and saints' relics to places they knew about, presumably from other Africans already there. Personal, religious, political, and economic factors

[171] AASS, Jul. III, p. 494. Baluzius says that the year 1404 cannot possibly be right, and is probably 1473.

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influenced the direction of the travel of communities of people from the fifth to the seventh centuries.

One political factor greatly influencing the impetus for travel, if not always the direction, was a Vandal administration that inflicted the punishment of exile on a significant number of African Catholics. The persecution of the Orthodox Church resulted in the creation of communities of African diaspora in Mediterranean Europe. These communities, such as that of Gaudiosus, Quodvultdeus, and their companions at Naples, brought liturgical practices, relics of saints, books, and other things that helped them reestablish their religious ways of life in a new place. Subsequent "barbarian" invasions, such as of Moorish tribes and Arab armies, also sent whole communities into flight—as with the examples of Donatus of Servitanum and Hadrian of Naples, who became director of the cathedral school at Canterbury in the seventh century.[172] Whether or not their reconstructed communities expressed a uniquely African identity—an assertion almost impossible to prove—they did demonstrate the role of the Catholic Church as an essential link between regions in a time of political disintegration. The circulation of liturgical sources of African origin, such as the Calendar of Carthage, the space given to the troubles of the African Church in a source such as the *History* of Gregory of Tours, and the welcome given to African exiles by ecclesiastics in places such as Naples, all show an overall sense of community on the part of the Orthodox Church in a period of rampant heterodoxy. African saints were Mediterranean saints, and African communities in places like

[172] Hadrian will be discussed in greater detail in Chapter Five, section II. C.

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Naples, Servitanum, and Sardinia became influential communities in their respective regions, establishing monasteries and introducing new saints to the area. Most importantly, exiles that brought saints' cults brought books, and with these books, the knowledge of African authors and their written works. The next chapter will examine this knowledge more closely.

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Appendix: List of African Saints Venerated in Europe

The following list contains only a small number of saints, but each entry is significant in that it marks a specific point in Europe (i.e., Spain, Gaul, Italy) where a specific African or group of Africans was not only known, but venerated. It is by no means complete or exhaustive; I have certainly not noticed every African saint mentioned in primary and secondary sources.[173] What the list contains is a short collection of basic information: the name of the saint, or the names, in the case of a group of saints; the feast day; approximate death dates; the saint's status (i.e., martyr, confessor, etc.); references in the *Bibliotheca hagiographica latina* (BHL), Acta *sanctorum* (AASS), and *Bibliotheca sanctorum* (BS) (where applicable); the calendars and martyrologies in which the saint appears (including variant feast days); information about the earliest *Vita* for the saint (where extant); the critical edition of the *Vita*; the location of the saint's cult in Europe; and, finally, any interesting or pertinent comments that might help to link different saints or direct further inquiry. The list is arranged by feast day, as is any saints' calendar, and begins with January 1st, rather than with the birth of Jesus (as in the Hieronymian Martyrology) or Easter (as in the Calendar of Carthage).

The purpose of this list is to take these individual significant African saints and place them together, for perhaps the first time, and to compare their contexts. It

[173] Donatus, whose story began this chapter, is not listed because his feast day is unknown, nor is he found in any of the hagiographical sources. Other African saints to add to future revised versions of this list include Monica, Nanctus, and the saints from Lanzoni's "Excursus sui santi africani venerati in Italia," pp. 1095-1098.

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can furthermore plot points, so to speak, on the liturgical map of Europe, in order to look for patterns in travel and communication. What would provide more perspective would be to launch a similar project for Spanish, Gallic, or Italian saints venerated outside their native lands, to compare that number with the number of Africans venerated outside Africa and to see if this is a trend significant only for Africa, or equally prevalent elsewhere. What the list does shed light on, in the end, is the large number of Africans who managed to travel beyond their native boundaries and become part of the western Catholic Church.

1. Jan. 1 **Fulgentius**, Bishop of Ruspe, d. c. 527/532, confessor
BHL 3208
AASS, Jan. I, pp. 32-45
BS, vol. V, coll. 1303-1316
Martyrologies: Lyons, Florus, Ado, Usuard
Vita: Ferrandus deacon of Carthage, written 527-536
Critical ed.: G.-G. Lapeyre, *Vita Fulgentii Ruspensis* (Paris 1929); M. Simonetti, in *AB* 110 (1982) pp. 277-289
Cult: Cagliari (Sardinia)
Comments: exiled twice by Thrasamund, established monastery at Cagliari

2. Feb. 19 **Quodvultdeus**, Bishop of Carthage, d. c. 454, confessor
AASS, Oct. XI, pp. 845-852 (for Oct. 26)[174]
Calendars: Carthage (Jan. 8: *depositio*), Naples
Cult: Naples, Campania
Comments: buried in catacombs of St. Januarius at Capodimonte, where he is depicted in a fifth-century fresco

3. Mar. 7 **Perpetua & Felicity**, Carthage, d. 203, martyrs
BHL 6633-6636
AASS, Mar. I, pp. 632-636

[174] In his entry for Quodvultdeus in the BS, D. Ambrasi suggests that Baronius gives Quodvultdeus a feast day of Oct. 26 in the AASS as a way of associating him with Gaudiosus, whose feast day is the 27th.

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BS, vol. X, coll. 493-501
Cal. Naples: though not including Perpetua and Felicity, lists their companion, Saturninus, for Feb. 7[175]
Vita: Pseudo-Tertullian, early 3rd cent.
Critical ed.: C. Van Beek, *Passio SS. Perpetuae et Felicitatis*; (Nijmegen 1956); W.H. Shewring, *The Passion of SS. Perpetua and Felicity MM.* (London 1931)
Martyrologies: Bede, Florus, Ado, Usuard
Cult: Africa, Europe (Rome, etc.)
Comments: also appear in eastern liturgy (alternative feast days: Feb. 2, Mar. 4 & 14) and the Syriac Martyrology

4. Mar. 22 **Octavianus**, Carthage, late 5th cent., confessor
BHL 6257-6258
AASS, Mar. III, p. 382
BS, vol. IX, col.1312
Martyrology: Usuard
Cult: possibly in southern France (as he is mentioned as companion of Eugenius by Gregory of Tours)

5. Apr. 12 **Zeno**, Bishop of Verona, d. c. 375, confessor
BHL 9001-9013
AASS, Apr. II, pp. 70-76
Vita: Gregory I, *Dialogorum libri iv*, III. 19
Crit. ed.: A. De Vogüé, *Sources chrétiennes* ccli, cclx, cclxv (Paris 1978-80) (CPL 1713)

6. May 6 **Marianus & James**, Lambesa/Cirta (Numidia), d. 259, martyrs
BHL 131-132 (entry for Agapius)
AASS, Apr. III, pp. 755-758 (also for Agapius)
Cal. Carthage (May 6)
Martyrologies: Hieronymian (May 6/Apr. 30), Roman (Apr. 30), Florus (Apr. 30)
Critical ed.: F. de' Cavalieri, *Passio SS. Mariani et Iacobi*, 1900, pp. 41-61; V. Saxer, *Saints anciens*, 1979, pp. 88-103
Cult: titulars at Gubbio

7. May 16 **Restituta**, Ponizara/Carthage, 3rd cent., virgin martyr
BHL 7190-7191
AASS, May IV, pp. 19-24
Cal. Naples

[175] According to Achelis, *Der Marmorkalendar in Neapel*, p. 36.

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Critical ed.: G. Castello, Acta *divae Restitutae Virginis et martyris cum philologicis enarrationibus*, Naples 1742; A.S. Mazzocchi, *De S. Restituta Virgine et Martyro Commentarius*, in *In vetus marmoreum S. Neapolitanae Ecclesiae Kalendarium Commentariusi,* II (Naples 1747), pp. 306-353.
Cult: Isle of Ischia, Bay of Naples, Naples, Campania, Palermo, etc.
Comments: possibly brought to Italy by Gaudiosus and Quodvultdeus

8. May 20 **Salsa**, Tipasa, 3rd cent., virgin martyr
BHL 7467
AASS, May V, Oct. V
BS, vol XI, coll. 596-597
Hier. Mart. (for both May 20 and Oct. 16)
Vita: from the late 6th cent.
Crit. ed.: [Bollandists], eds., *Catalogus Parisiensis*, vol. I (Brussels 1889), pp. 344-352.
Comments: The inscription on her grave, "MTR," which suggests *martyr*, also suggests *mater*; this latter possibility is strengthened by the fact that her body was determined to be that of a woman in her sixties instead of a young girl.[176]

9. May 23 **Peregrinus**, Bolitana, early 4th cent., martyr
BHL 6622
AASS, May III, pp. 565-567 (May 16)
Cal. Carthage (probably of the Volitani/Bolitani martyrs, Oct. 17)
Critical ed.: P. Chiesa, "Pellegrino, martire *in urbe Bolitana* e Pellegrino di Ancona" in *AB* 116 (1998): 25-56.
Cult: Ancona, via Friuli

10. May 31 **Gallonius** and the martyrs of Timida, Utina, early 4th cent., martyr
Cal. Carthage (Jun. 11); *acta* says Dec. 31, which is probably a misreading of May 31, on which date he is named with the martyrs of Timida (Cal. Carthage).
Cult: Aquileia, via Friuli (cf. Peregrinus above; the two Actae perhaps traveled together).
Critical ed.: P. Chiesa, "Un testo agiografico africano ad Aquileia: gli *acta* di Gallonio e dei martiri di *Timida Regia*" in *AB* 114 (1996): 241-268.
Comments: His anonymous Acta, known from a thirteenth-century manuscript from Aquileia, was probably circulated with the *acta* of the Councils of Carthage in the fifth century.

[176] S. Raven, *Rome in Africa*, p. 182 n. 2.

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11. Jun. 1 **Clarus**, Africa, Bishop of Lectoure, 3rd cent., confessor
BHL 1822-1823
AASS, Jun. I, pp. 7-15
Critical ed.: Baluzius, *Dissertatio de SS. Claro, Laudo, Vlfardo, Baumado* (Tulle 1656)
Cult: Albi, southern France

12. Jun. 1 **Vindemialis & Florentius**, Capsa/Biserta (respectively), late 5th/early 6th cent., confessors
BHL 3053
AASS, May I, pp. 276-277 (for Titian, Bishop of Treviso)
BS, vol. XII, coll.1194-1195
Vita: contemporary sources are Victor of Vita, *Historia persecutionum* and Gregory of Tours, *Historia Francorum*
Cult: Treviso (via Corsica)
Comments: companions of Eugenius

13. Jul. 10 **Januarius, Marinus, Nabor, & Felix**, Africa, 3rd cent., martyrs
BHL 6028-6029 (for Milanese Nabor and Felix)
AASS, Jul. III, pp. 31-32
BS, vol. VI, coll.152-153
Martyrologies: Hieronymian (Jul. 12), Florus, Lyons, Ado, Usuard
Cult: Nabor and Felix venerated at Milan

14. Jul. 12 **Gaudiosus**, Abitene, Bishop of Carthage, first half of 5th cent., confessor
BHL 150 (entry for Agnellus)
AASS, Oct. XI, pp. 582-586
BS, vol. VI, coll. 66-67
Cal. Naples (Oct. 27: *depositio*)
Cult: Naples
Comments: exiled with Quodvultdeus and other bishops during Vandal persecutions, established monastery at Naples (called both St. Gaudiosus and St. Agnellus)

15. Jul. 13 **Eugenius**, Bishop of Carthage, d. c. 505, confessor
BHL 2678-2681
CPL 103, 647, 799
AASS, Jul. III, pp. 487-509
Cal. Carthage (Jan. 5: *depositio*)
Martyrologies: Florus (2nd recension), Ado, Usuard
Vita: contemporary sources are Victor of Vita, *Historia* and Gregory of Tours, *Historia Francorum* and *Gloria martyrum*
Critical ed.: Tillemont XVI, pp. 492-621 (2nd ed. 541-606, 800-801);

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Passio Sancti Eugenii episcopi et martyris, in *Catalog. cod. hagiograph. Bibl. reg. Bruxellentis*, I-1 (Brussels 1886)
Cult: Albi, southern France

16. Jul. 17 **Scillitan martyrs** (Speratus, Martial, Cithius, Vesturius, Felix, Aquilinus, Lactantius, Januarius, Generosa, Vesta, Donata, Secunda, Saturninus), d. 180, martyrs
BHL 7527-7534b
AASS, Jul. IV, pp. 200-215
BS, vol. XI, coll. 733-741
Calendars: Carthage, Naples (Speratus only)
Martyrologies: Bede, Florus, Usuard
Critical ed.: J. Mabillon, *Vetera Analecta*, I (Paris 1683); Tillemont, III, pp. 131-135, 638-640; C. De Smedt, *Passio Martyrum Scilitanorum*, in *AB* VIII (1889) pp. 5-8
Cult: Africa, Europe, relics at Lyons (with Cyprian's)

17. Aug. 28 **Augustine**, Bishop of Hippo, d. 430, confessor
BHL 785-801
AASS, Aug. VI, pp. 213ff.
Calendars: Carthage (Aug. 29), Naples
Martyrologies: Hieronymian, Bede, Florus, Ado, Usuard
Vita: Possidius Bishop of Calama, early to mid. 5th cent.
Critical ed.: M. Pellegrino, *Vita S. Augustini* (Alba 1955)
Cult: Africa, Europe; relics at Pavia

18. Sep. 1 **Regulus**, Africa, early 6th cent., martyr
BHL 7102-7105
AASS, Sep. I, pp. 223-240
BS, vol. XI, coll. 84-87
Cult: Lucca (via Piombino) (cf. Cerbonius)
Comments: exiled during Vandal persecutions to Tuscany, martyred by Totila and carried his own head to Populonia (Piombino), thence translated to Lucca in the 9th cent.

19. Sep. 14 **Cyprian**, Bishop of Carthage, d. 258, martyr
BHL 2041
AASS, Sep. IV, pp. 191-348
Calendars: Carthage, Naples
Martyrologies: Hieronymian, Bede, Florus, Ado, Usuard
Vita: Pontius, deacon of Carthage
Critical ed.: M. Pellegrino, *Vita Caecilii Cypriani*, Verba Seniorum iii (Alba 1955); A. Bastiaensen, *Vita dei Santi, a cura di Chr. Mohrmann*, iii (Milano 1975), pp. 4-48

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Cult: Africa, Europe; relics at Lyons (with the Scillitani's)

20. Oct. 10 **Cerbonius**, Africa, d. 573/575, confessor
BHL 1728-1729
AASS, Oct. V, pp. 87-102
BS, vol. III, coll.1130-1131
Cult: relics at Piombino, also Orden, southern France
Comments: left during Vandal persecutions (with Regulus), went to Piombino, whence fled during Lombard invasion to Elba

21. Oct. 24 **Felix**, Thibiuca, late 3rd/early 4th cent., martyr
BHL 2894-2895
AASS, Oct. X, pp. 618-634
BS, vol. V, coll. 585-587
Critical ed.: H. Delehaye, *Passion de S. Félix de Thibiuca*, in *AB* 40 (1921): 241-276
Cult: Venosa, Bruges

22. Oct. 30 **Marcellus**, Seville/Tanjer, d. 298, martyr
BHL 5253-5255
AASS [no entry: cf. Delehaye in *AB* 41 (1923): 1-31]
BS, vol. VIII, coll. 665-668
Martyrologies: Florus, Lyons, Ado, Usuard
Cult: Spain (relics at Léon), Aix, Narbonne
Comments: Marcellus the centurion was not of African origin, but Spanish. He was martyred in Africa, and his cult traveled through Africa before reaching Spain, so it remains an example of a cult that traveled out of Africa.

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Chapter Four: The Knowledge of African Authors and the Late Antique *De viris illustribus*

I. INTRODUCTION

Many late antique texts, including those of African authors, were circulated as attachments to letters within an epistolographic community, or were transmitted along with relics and other property via communities of exile, as seen in the previous chapters. Late antique texts were also grouped into collections by copyists decades or centuries after their composition. The late antique period was actually the first in which works of a similar nature were gathered together into a single codex according to genre and not necessarily according to author.[177] It was also the first to develop works of a bibliographic nature, for the purpose of directing the collection and reading of selected works. The most common genres governing collections of texts were sermons, schoolbooks, and works of a patristic/theological nature. For example, the sermons of some lesser-known African writers, such as Quodvultdeus of Carthage and Vigilius of Thapse, often survived because they were incorrectly attributed to Augustine and circulated with his popular sermons. Patristic collections, furthermore, include conciliar *acta* and theological treatises, especially anti-heretical works, as in the case of the collection found in Vatican, lat. 293, from the ninth/tenth century, which contains a sermon of Fulgentius (CPL 839) at the end of a mostly Ambrosian

[177] F. Troncarelli, *Vivarium: i libri, il destino* (Turnholt 1998), p. 101.

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collection of works.[178] Another governing theme for the compilation of African texts concerns the genre of the *De viris illustribus* lists—i.e., lists "of famous men." By serving as a bibliographic guide to "famous" late antique writers and their works, these lists had some effect on the grouping and dissemination of those works, and on their inclusion into late antique and medieval libraries.

The present chapter examines the presence of African authors in the late antique *De viris illustribus* lists, and attempts to draw conclusions about the transmission of these authors' works in late antique Europe. A *De viris* is basically a catalog of writers, with a short chapter devoted to each, which includes a small amount of biographical information, but is mainly concerned with the texts written by each author. These lists are significant for the study of the transmission of African texts in that they imply the knowledge of specific works (or at least the knowledge of the titles of those works) in the specific places in which they were compiled and read, a knowledge that also extends to titles of works that were lost before the modern era. The dates of composition of the *De viris* furthermore provide *termini ante quem* the knowledge of these African works reached their compilers. The lists are also significant because they influenced the grouping of texts in medieval manuscripts and affected the composition and organization of library catalogs during the Carolingian era and the later Middle Ages.[179] Moreover, "what these late antique and early

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[178] According to the manuscript, fol. 123, *sermo beati fulgentii episcopi de e[o] quod ait micheas profeta indicabo tibi homo quid sit bonum.* MS examined by myself (henceforth, SRG), Mar. 11, 2004.

[179] R. McKitterick, *The Carolingians and the Written Word* (Cambridge 1989), p. 205: "It was above all, however, the *De viris illustribus* and the *De libris recipiendis* together which provided a clear,

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Carolingian guides did was to create a habit of mind and a customary framework of reference within which to organize knowledge."[180]

A. The Late Antique De viris illustribus

The four late antique *De viris* lists are those of Jerome, Gennadius, Isidore, and Ildefonsus. Jerome (d. 420), composer of the Latin Vulgate, compiled the first list in the late fourth/early fifth century (CPL 616). Gennadius, a priest at Marseilles, added on to Jerome's version less than a century later (c. 467-480) (CPL 957).[181] The next list was compiled in the early seventh century by the prolific Isidore (d. 636), Bishop of Seville (CPL 1206).[182] These three versions of the *De viris* were the most widely read and disseminated, though the genre also include the *De viris* of Ildefonsus of Toledo, whose list had a much more local focus and, subsequently, a more local dissemination. The only African mentioned by Ildefonsus is Donatus of Servitanum, who left no writings; consequently, this *De viris* list will not be examined in detail as will the others. Other late antique works of the same genre include Augustine's *Retractiones* (CPL 250), a bibliography of his own works composed by Augustine himself and meant to establish his official corpus, and the *De libris recipiendis et non recipiendis* (CPL 1646). Also called the *Decretum*

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authoritative and influential guide not only to the most desirable contents of a library but also to the organization of the library catalogues."

[180] *Ibid.*

[181] Richardson, *Hieronymus liber de viris inlustribus*; and A. Ceresa-Gastaldo, *Gerolamo. Gli Uomini illustri* (Florence 1988).

[182] C. Codoñer Merino, *El "De viris illustribus" de Isidoro de Sevilla. Estudio y edición critica*, Theses et studia philologica Salmanticensia 12 (Salamanca 1964).

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Gelasianum, this text distinguishes between works that ought to be read and works that ought to be avoided.[183] Because they do not deal with a variety of African authors and texts, however, these latter two will not be examined further.

The purposes behind the genre of the *De viris* range from the polemical and apologetic to the descriptive and panegyric. Jerome compiled his list of well-known writers when Christianity had succeeded on a political scale, but had not yet developed a literature comparable to the pagan classics. The authors he included were therefore chosen for their contribution to Christian thought and literature. After all, the phrase *vir illustris* was the specific title for a person of consular rank in the Roman Republic and Empire; using this title to designate the foremost Christian writers helped solidify a new kind of elite class. Gennadius chose authors who also contributed to the growing corpus of Christian writings, though, from his perspective at the end of the fifth century, Christian literature was a genre that no longer needed to prove its worth. By identifying a multitude of illustrious Christian authors, Gennadius was implying that one need no longer read pagan classics, because they had been superseded by Christian literature. The reasons behind the *De viris* of Isidore are less clear. Though his list contains a larger percentage of Spanish monks and bishops than the others, it can still be considered almost "cosmopolitan" in

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[183] Crit. ed.: *Decretum Gelasianum de libris recipiendis et non recipiendis*, ed. E. von Dobschütz, Texte und Untersuchungen zur Geschichte der altchristlichen Literatur 38, 4 (Leipzig 1912). For a good survey of these and the other bibliographic sources mentioned in this chapter, see R.H. Rouse and M.A. Rouse, "Bibliography before Print: The Medieval *De Viris Illustribus*" in *id.*, *Authentic Witnesses: Approaches to Medieval Texts and Manuscripts* (Notre Dame, IN 1991), pp. 469-494. Orig. in P. Ganz, ed., *Bibliologia* 3: *The Role of the Book in Medieval Culture*, (Turnholt 1986), pp. 133-154.

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focus.[184] The work of Ildefonsus, like that of his compatriot Isidore, reflects an overriding concern with the spiritual and ecclesiastical affairs of one realm—namely, the Visigothic kingdom. Ildefonsus, however, goes beyond Isidore in concentrating on Spain exclusively, including no authors who did not influence Spain directly, and the region around Toledo in particular. Ildefonsus thus represents the early medieval[185] preoccupation with events in one's kingdom or city, which reflects the decline of consistent communication in the Latin West at this time.

Despite the differing circumstances of their composition, the separate author-lists of Jerome, Gennadius, and Isidore can be considered as one unit, written over three centuries. This, in fact, is part of the late antique tradition of continuations of on-going works such as histories and chronicles. Gennadius and the two Spanish bishops certainly thought of their works as continuations of the work begun by Jerome, as is apparent from the prefaces to the three works. The history of the transmission of the *De viris*, however, separates them into two groups: the Jerome-Gennadius lists and the Spanish lists. The *De viris* of Jerome and Gennadius are transmitted together in most cases; out of the 152 manuscripts reported by Richardson in his critical edition of both works, forty-three contain Jerome's only, and just six only Gennadius'.[186] Whereas the Jerome-Gennadius *De viris* was disseminated

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[184] A. Braegelmann, *The Life and Writings of Saint Ildefonsus of Toledo*, The Catholic University of America Studies in Medieval History New Series IV (Washington, D.C. 1942), p. 50.

[185] What's the difference between Late Antique and early medieval? It is arbitrary; but for my intent here, "early medieval" refers to the world of the established barbarian kingdoms in Europe and a shifting away from the Mediterranean.

[186] Richardson, *Hieronymus liber de viris inlustribus*, pp. ix-xxii.

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widely around the Latin-speaking West from the fourth and fifth centuries into the later Middle Ages, the contribution of Isidore was considerably less widespread, and that of Ildefonsus was almost unknown outside Spain.

B. The Medieval De viris illustribus

The genre continued into the Middle Ages, though four centuries separated Ildefonsus' continuation and the next one, compiled by the monk Sigebert of Gembleux in the eleventh century.[187] Sigebert (d. 1112), however, most likely had not read the Spanish *De viris*, and neither did an anonymous later continuator from the abbey of Melk. Sigebert's *Libellus de viris illustribus*[188] only lists five Africans, one of whom, Evodius of Uzala, does not appear in any previous collection.[189] The five are Evodius, Possidius, Fulgentius, Ferrandus, and Pomerius. Evodius was a correspondent of Augustine, and he wrote about the miracles of Stephen the Protomartyr in Africa (CPL 391).[190] One of Sigebert's primary areas of interest, besides the fields of history and computistics that reveal themselves in the *Libellus de viris*, was hagiography, which may explain his knowledge of Evodius. Sigebert

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[187] Codoñer Merino, *El "De viris illustribus,"* pp. 41-42. Sigebert, crit. ed.: *Catalogus Sigeberti Gemblacensis monachi de viris illustribus*, ed. R. Witte, Lateinische Sprache und Litteratur des Mittelalters I (Berne 1974).

[188] See also M. Chazan, *L'Empire et l'histoire universelle: de Sigebert de Gembloux à Jean de Saint-Victor (XIIe-XIVe siècle)*, Études d'histoire médiévale 3 (Paris 1999), especially pp. 98-101. Sigebert not only continued Jerome's (and Gennadius') work(s) with his *Libellus de viris*, he also wrote a chronicle covering the years 381-1111 as a continuation of the chronicle of Eusebius-Jerome (pp. 33, 99).

[189] Chazan, *L'Empire et l'histoire universelle*, pp. 99-100.

[190] Mandouze, *Prosopographie chrétienne*, "Evodius 1," pp. 366-373.

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furthermore combined Fulgentius of Ruspe and Fulgentius Mythographus, a homonymous African writer of secular works who may very well be the same person as the Bishop of Ruspe, which will be discussed in greater detail below.

Like Sigebert, Wolfger of Prüfening, writing probably in the 1160s, compiled a list of famous writers that is probably independent of Isidore's *De viris*, though it does mention some of the same writers (e.g., Fulgentius and Victor of Tonnenna).[191] Honorius of Autun, on the other hand, certainly used the short recension of Isidore's work when compiling his *De luminaribus ecclesiae sive de scriptoribus ecclesiasticis* in the 1130s.[192] He did more than simply consult the previous *De viris*—he copied them almost entirely in separate parts of his work: *libellus I ex Hieronymo sublectus, libellus II ex Gennadio sublectus, libellus III ex Isidoro sublectus,* and *libellus IV de vario collectus*.[193] The continuators of Sigebert, the anonymous compiler of the *Auctarium*, Henry of Brussels (c. 1270), and Johannes Trithemius (c. 1494) also drew from Isidore's list, though probably only the shorter (original) recension.[194] The mention of African writers in these medieval continuations cannot, therefore, be taken necessarily as knowledge of those writers or their works, but rather as the knowledge of earlier *De viris*, thereby fulfilling one of the original purposes of the lists.

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[191] Wolfger of Prüfening ("Anonymous of Melk"), *Der sog. Anonymus Mellicensis De scriptoribus ecclesiasticis*, ed. E. Ettlinger (Karlsruhe 1896).

[192] Codoñer Merino, *El "De viris illustris,"* pp. 42-43. Honorius: PL 172. 197-234.

[193] Lib. IV has many entries in common with Sigebert.

[194] Codoñer-Merino, *op. cit.*, p. 43; R.H. and Rouse, "Bibliography before Print," pp. 482-486.

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Henry of Kirkestede, librarian and prior at Bury St. Edmunds in the fourteenth century, also demonstrated his knowledge of the *De viris* lists of his predecessors while compiling his *Catalogus de libris autenticis et apocrifis*.[195] The Bury library possessed a twelfth-century bibliographic codex (now Oxford, Bodl. e musaeo 31) containing the *De viris* of Jerome, Gennadius, and Isidore, as well as Cassiodorus' *Institutiones*, which Kirkestede used and annotated. Of the thirty-four Africans mentioned in this catalog of 674 authors, only two names were not culled from the previous *De viris* lists. Walter of Mauretania (no. 607) was supposedly bishop of Paris at an unidentified date; eight of the nine works listed for him are likewise unidentified. Vigilius of Thapse (no. 635), on the other hand, may possibly be the Vigilius mentioned by Cassiodorus, though his works usually circulated anonymously during Late Antiquity and he was largely unknown before the ninth century. Henry lists three works attributed to Vigilius: two, with incipits, that correspond to CPL 806 and 807, and a third, *De 1000 annorum intelligentia in Apocalipsi lib. 1*, which is referred to by Cassiodorus. The *Catalogus* therefore shows how the late antique bibliographic guides, including the *De viris* and the *Institutiones*, were often responsible for supplying the names of African (and other) authors and the titles of their works to medieval libraries.

One case must be mentioned, however, that shows that the medieval bibliographic guides did not always follow the late antique *De viris*. This case involves the conflation of Fulgentius, Bishop of Ruspe, and Fabius Planciades

[195] Henry of Kirkestede, *Catalogus de libris autenticis et apocrifis*, eds. R.H. and M.A. Rouse, Corpus of British Medieval Library Catalogues 11 (London 2004), especially pp. lxxxiv-lxxxv, xciv-xcv.

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Fulgentius, also known as the Mythographer. The two Fulgentii were not conflated until Prudentius of Troyes in the ninth century,[196] implying that the works of the Mythographer were little known and not ascribed to the Bishop of Ruspe during Late Antiquity. None of the late antique sources (or the *Vita Fulgentii*) names any of the four works usually attributed to Fulgentius the Mythographer, though Sigebert of Gembleux names them in his chapter on Fulgentius of Ruspe. Both Honorius of Autun and Henry of Kirkestede follow Isidore, in not ascribing any of the Mythographer's works to the Bishop of Ruspe. Henry includes a separate catalog entry for the Mythographer (no. 185; Fulgentius of Ruspe is no. 184), to whom he attributes only one work, the *Mithologiarum* (CPL 849).[197] The confusion over the identities of Fulgentius the bishop and Fulgentius the Mythographer has still not been sufficiently solved. The most recent study, by Antonino Isola, seeks to show that they were the same person.[198] This dissertation, however, follows the convincing argument of Gregory Hays that the two were definitely separate, and that the Mythographer (based on his borrowing from Corippus) lived in the second half of the sixth century. Obviously some late antique readers and manuscript copiers were familiar with the works of the Mythographer, if four of his works have survived. These works were not, however, familiar to Isidore of Seville or Cassiodorus.

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[196] G. Hays, "The Date and Identity," p. 186.

[197] Rouse and Rouse, *Henry of Kirkestede*, pp. 210-213. Henry was following Isidore's information on the Bishop of Ruspe.

[198] A. Isola, "Sul problema dei due Fulgenzi: un contributo della Vita Fulgentii" in *Auctores nostri. Studi e testi di letteratura cristiana antica*, vol. 1 (Bari 2004), pp. 103-117.

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C. The Institutiones *of Cassiodorus*

Though it is not specifically a *De viris* list, the *Institutiones* of Cassiodorus (d. c. 585) serve much of the same purpose—namely, as an introduction to authors and their works (CPL 906).[199] Cassiodorus' *Insitutiones* not only influenced Isidore's reading selection,[200] but it came to be circulated in the same manuscripts as the late antique *De viris* in the Middle Ages. In this way, Cassiodorus influenced medieval library compilers in their choice of collections, such as the compiler of a library catalog from the monastery of Murbach in the third quarter of the ninth century. In his list of desiderata, the cataloger included Primasius of Hadrumetum, about whom he learned from the *Institutiones*.[201]

While the *Institutiones* served as a useful bibliography for the compilation of medieval library collections, it also acts as a bibliography of what books constituted Cassiodorus' own library collection. "In fact, he conceived this work as a bibliography, and to produce this bibliography he used the manuscripts that were in Vivarium."[202] He most likely used a copy of the *De viris* of Jerome-Gennadius—

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[199] Cassiodorus, *Cassiodori senatoris institutiones*, ed. R.A.B. Mynors (Oxford 1937); English ed.: *id.*, *An Introduction to Divine and Human Readings*, transl. L.W. Jones (New York 1946, repr. 1969).

[200] M. Manitius, *Geschichte der lateinischen Litteratur des Mittelalters*, vol. I (Munich 1911), pp. 62-66.

[201] McKitterick, *Carolingians and the Written Word*, pp. 192-194.

[202] P. Courcelle, *Les Lettres grecques en occident de Macrobe à Cassiodore*, 2nd ed. (Paris 1948); English: *Late Latin Writers and Their Greek Sources*, transl. H. Wedeck (Cambridge, MA 1969), p. 335.

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possibly the one appearing in Bamberg, Staatsbibl. B.IV.21 (CLA VII.1031)[203]—though the *Institutiones* is by no means a copy or a continuation of the *De viris*. Cassiodorus was interested not only in introducing authors and discussing their works, but also in advising readers how to read these texts, as well as how to copy them. This suggests that many, if not most, of the titles he mentions are those he read himself and had copied at his *scriptorium* at Vivarium. His contacts with the imperial court at Ravenna, his temporary residence at Constantinople, his location at Scyllacium (Squillace) in Calabria, and his continued book exchange with Africans, were all opportunities for Cassiodorus to acquire the books he mentions in his *Institutiones*.

The uncertainty over the destination of Cassiodorus' books after the dissolution of his library shortly after his death makes it difficult to determine the overall impact that his library had on the dissemination of specifically African texts.[204] However, as the example of the desiderata list from Murbach shows, the *Institutiones* was used in the Middle Ages as a guide to the recommended writers for the study of both Christian literature and the liberal arts. As with the *De viris*, the difficulty remains in distinguishing between what books Cassiodorus mentions as present in his library and what books are only referred to through an intermediate

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[203] Courcelle, *Les Lettres grecques*, pp. 371-373, thinks this MS was written at Vivarium. Troncarelli, *Vivarium*, p. 40, suggests that this MS was at Vivarium, though probably not written there.

[204] Courcelle, *op. cit.*, posits the dissemination of the books through the Lateran to other libraries primarily in Rome and Verona (pp. 342-363), while Troncarelli, *Vivarium*, examines individual manuscripts for common "Vivarian" symptoms. These theories will be discussed further in the following chapter, section II. G.

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source. For example, he was familiar with Martianus Capella, who wrote another important liberal arts textbook called the *De nuptiis Mercuriae et Philologiae*, by name only, and not by content.[205] Cassiodorus nevertheless provides valuable insight to what African authors were considered important to Christian and secular studies in the late sixth century.

The next section looks at the specific Africans named in the late antique *De viris* lists, but the Africans mentioned by Cassiodorus should also be mentioned by name. In addition to the well-known Africans of the second through fourth centuries (Apuleius, Cyprian, Tyconius, and Augustine), the following are also named: Martianus Capella, Junilius, Primasius, Marius Victorinus, Victor Mattaritanus, Vigilius, and Tullius Marcellus. Two of these are seemingly mentioned only by Cassiodorus: the bishop Victor Mattaritanus, who corrected and added to Cassian's *Institutiones*[206]; and Tullius Marcellus the Carthaginian, who apparently wrote a secular work on syllogisms, and whose book Cassiodorus explicitly left his monks to read.[207] Cassiodorus also points his readers to a codex of Marius Victorinus' commentary on Cicero's *Ars rhetorica* (CPL 1544) which is in his library, and became a common text in Carolingian schoolbooks[208]; Victorinus wrote in fourth-century Italy, though, so that Cassiodorus would not have had to obtain this text from

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[205] Mynors, *Cassiodori senatoris institutiones*, II. ii. 17 and II. iii. 20.

[206] Cassian's *Institutiones*, different from those of Cassiodorus, are a classification of eastern and western forms of monasticism in the fourth century.

[207] For Victor Mattaritanus, see Mynors, *op. cit.*, I. xxix. 2; Tullius Marcellus, II. iii. 13.

[208] Mynors, *op. cit.*, II. ii. 10.

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Africa. Cassiodorus may not have been personally familiar with any books of Martianus Capella, as mentioned above, but his comment that he annotated the Apocalypse commentary of Tyconius the Donatist for its orthodox and heterodox content clearly indicates that this was another text that could be found on his shelf. His interest in the subject of the Apocalypse is shown in the section he devotes to the subject in Bk. I. ix. 9, and from his possession of two other works on the Apocalypse by African writers, namely, Primasius and Vigilius. These texts by Primasius, which survives, and Vigilius, which does not, will be explored further as an example of the role of Cassiodorus' *Institutiones* in the knowledge of African authors and works. First, however, is an examination of the Africans named in the late antique *De viris* and the role of these sources in the knowledge and dissemination of African texts in Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages.

II. AFRICAN WRITERS IN THE *DE VIRIS ILLUSTRIBUS*

African writers constitute a small, but not insignificant proportion of the total writers in the *De viris* of Jerome-Gennadius: ten of 135 in Jerome and twelve of 101 in Gennadius, or almost ten percent overall. One might even expect a higher percentage, considering the richness of the African literary tradition from the earliest centuries of Christianity, and considering the involvement of African bishops in ecclesiastical councils and debates. Jerome was a contemporary of Augustine, who, though certainly the most influential and prolific of African writers, was not the only

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renowned Christian writer in Africa before the establishment of the Vandal kingdom.[209] With the collapse of Roman rule in the African provinces in the early fifth century, Catholic bishops found the Arianism of their new barbarian rulers an inspirational subject for anti-heretical literature. Gennadius was thus able to select several African authors, both orthodox and heterodox, as fitting subjects for his *De viris*.

By the time Isidore compiled his list in the early seventh century, however, the political and ecclesiastical situation in the Mediterranean had changed dramatically from Jerome's day. The presence in Isidore's list of several African bishops (seven of thirty-three from the shorter version; eleven of forty-six from the longer one),[210] some of whom were quite active in ecclesiastical controversies, points to a continuity of ecclesiastical literary tradition in Africa. It also reveals that Spain's contacts with Africa sometimes superseded its contacts with the other former provinces; at least, the proportion of African writers mentioned in Isidore's work is significantly higher than in either Jerome or Gennadius. The fact that only one African, Donatus, appears in Ildefonsus' list of famous men, however, hints that fewer doctrinal issues in the later seventh century were controversial enough to turn the attention of Spanish bishops eastward, and that Ildefonsus' focus was much more local in nature. The subject of Chapter 3, Donatus was only included because he

[209] Jerome, however, curiously does not include Augustine in his list. Perhaps this is because Augustine outlived his correspondent; perhaps it is telling of personal disagreements between the two.

[210] The differences between the shorter and longer recensions of Isidore's *De viris* will be discussed in greater detail below, in section III, Table 2.

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became a well-known abbot in Spain, not in Africa (as discussed in the Prologue to Chapter Three).

The *De viris* of Ildefonsus is therefore omitted from Table 1 shown below, which lists the Africans that appear in the *De viris* of Jerome, Gennadius, and Isidore. The corresponding chapter number for every African is listed in the table beside each name. Although the authors listed in Jerome's list enjoyed a circulation that predates the A.D. 430 starting-point for this study, I have included all the names in these three lists that were described as African, or otherwise known to be. Jerome's list is nevertheless essential to include if one considers the *De viris* as one ongoing list and not three independent ones.

TABLE 1: Africans in the *De viris illustribus* of Jerome, Gennadius, and Isidore

JEROME	*GENNADIUS*	*ISIDORE* (long recension)
Tertullian, 53	Vitellius, 4	Macrobius, 2
Julius, 63	Macrobius, 5	Verecundus, 7
Cyprian, 67	Commodianus, 15	Cerealis, 11
Pontius, 68	Tychonius, 18	Ferrandus, 12
Arnobius, 79	Augustine, 39	Possidius,[211] 21
Firmianus, 80	Asclepius, 74	Primasius, 22
Donatus, 93	Victor of Cartenna, 78	Pomerius, 25
Fortunatianus, 97	Voconius, 79	Fulgentius, 27
Victorinus, 101	Honoratus, 95	Facundus, 37
Optatus, 110	Cerealis, 96	Dracontius, 37
	Eugenius, 97	Victor of Tonnenna, 38
	Pomerius, 98	

[211] Isidore refers to Possidius as "Possidonius," though the identity of Possidius is clear from the content of the chapter.

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Not all the authors listed above will be mentioned in this or in later chapters, some because they were too early (such as those in Jerome's list and part of Gennadius' list), others because they wrote their works after leaving Africa (such as Julianus Pomerius of Arles).[212] Among the remaining African *viris illustribus*, some were more *illustres* than others, and thus some writers will receive more attention than the ones that have survived in rather scanty fashion. The works of Vitellius and Asclepius, for instance, have not survived at all. Honoratus, Bishop of Constantine in the mid-fifth century, was known for writing one letter only, which survives today as the *Epistola cohortatoria ad Arcadium* (CPL 426).[213] His near contemporary Voconius, Bishop of Castellus, is mentioned as the author of the *Sermo contra Iudaeos paganos et Arianos de symbolo* (CPL 404), which may have been written by him but is usually attributed to Augustine or Quodvultdeus,[214] plus a *Sacramentorum egregium volumen* which was apparently lost. Macrobius, called a priest by Gennadius and a deacon by Isidore, is actually a case of mistaken identity. Gennadius probably confused Macrobius with an earlier Donatist bishop of the same name, then ascribed to him a work more properly belonging to the corpus of

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[212] Julianus Pomerius will be mentioned in Chapter 5, section IV. A.

[213] Honoratus, *Epistula cohortatoria ad Arcadium*, in T. Ruinart, ed., *Historia persecutionis Vandalicae* (Paris 1699), pp. 433-439.

[214] *Sermo contra Iudaeos paganos et Arianos de symbolo*: PL 42. 1117-1130.

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Cyprian.[215] The Macrobius chapter from the long recension of Isidore's *De viris* merely borrowed the material from Gennadius.

Cerealis of Castellus Ripa, who wrote a dialogue against Arianism in the late fifth century (CPL 813), may seem significant because, along with Macrobius and Julianus Pomerius, he appears in both Gennadius and Isidore. This fact is probably not, however, because Isidore (or Pseudo-Isidore; see below) thought he deserved a second mention, but because Isidore was following a version of Gennadius that lacked the last four chapters (Honoratus, Cerealis, Eugenius, and Pomerius). These last four chapters, all concerning Africans, are found in five out of the twelve different groups of manuscripts that constitute the stemma of Gennadius' *De viris*.[216] The four chapters are transmitted together, and therefore create a mini-*De viris* of their own, sometimes attributed to a Pseudo-Gennadius. Although this addition appears in some late antique manuscripts, it evidently was not a part of the early Spanish dissemination of Gennadius' *De viris*. This does not, however, imply that Isidore was independently familiar with Cerealis' *œuvre*. Isidore was probably unfamiliar with Cerealis, as well as with Macrobius, Verecundus, and Ferrandus. These four Africans are part of another mini-*De viris* that was later attached to Isidore's list, thereby creating the long recension represented in the table above. This particular addition, sometimes referred to as the African Appendix, will be discussed below in a larger examination of Isidore's *De viris*.

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[215] Mandouze, *Prosopographie chrétienne*, "Macrobius 1," p. 662; Monceaux, *Histoire littéraire de l'Afrique chrétienne*, vol. V, pp. 156-161.

[216] Richardson, *Hieronymus liber de viris inlustribus*, pp. xxii-xxiv.

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III. THE *DE VIRIS ILLUSTRIBUS* OF ISIDORE OF SEVILLE

Isidore's list will receive greater examination than the others for a few reasons. First, all the Africans he mentions, as well as the other authors, fall within the time-frame of the overall dissertation. Second, his list is a witness to the widescale migration to Spain of North African patristic texts. Finally, the anomaly of the mini-list, the so-called African Appendix, presents the possibility of an antique *De viris* list from North Africa itself.

Isidore of Seville wrote his *De viris illustribus* around 615-618 as a continuation of those of Jerome and Gennadius, though, as previously mentioned, scholars remain unclear as to his motives. Koeppler calls him "a pragmatic antiquarian," and imputes no clear system to his compilation of the work other than a loose association of names and a perusal of the considerable resources of the library at Seville.[217] Carmen Codoñer Merino, who produced the critical edition of Isidore's *De viris* in 1964, agrees that Isidore's work is for the most part an index, "without any partisanship, nor with a concrete ideological purpose."[218] Purpose or no, Isidore's work provides a list of writers and their writings that held some importance in late

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[217] H. Koeppler, "*De viris illustribus* and Isidore of Seville" in *Journal of Theological Studies* 37 (1936): 32.

[218] Codoñer Merino, *El "De viris illustribus,"* pp. 2-3: "En su catálogo se reduce a dejar constancia de unos determinados escritores, con un sentido casi de índice, sin partidismo ninguno, y sin una finalidad ideological concreta."

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sixth-/early seventh-century Spain, and it both hints at the contents of his library at Seville and implies transmission of non-hispanic writers through Spain.

The transmission of Isidore's *De viris* itself has occasioned much debate over its form and authenticity. Basically, the work was disseminated in two forms: a short version, containing thirty-three chapters, and a long version, containing forty-six. Most scholars agree that the short version is authentically Isidorian, though few claim the thirteen chapters found only in the longer version are authentic.[219] Codoñer Merino established what has become the modern scholarly consensus: that the thirty-three chapters in the short version are authentic to Isidore, whereas the chapter on Isidore himself was appended after his death by Braulio of Saragossa (along with some additional passages), and the remaining thirteen chapters were based on a seventh-century Spanish source attributed to Peter, Bishop of Lérida. According to Codoñer Merino, however, these extra chapters were added by an Italian compiler in the eleventh or twelfth centuries, though François Dolbeau maintains that they were added in Visigothic Spain and then transmitted thus to Gaul with the Visigothic refugees from the Arab invasion of the Iberian peninsula.[220] This late antique Spanish source is in turn thought by Koeppler to be based on an earlier African one, called the

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[219] For a good summary of the scholarship on this topic, see F. Dolbeau, "Une refonte wisigothique du *De viris illustribus* d'Isidore" in L. Holtz and J.-C. Fredouille, eds., *De Tertullien aux Mozarabes: antiquité tardive et christianisme ancien*, vol. II (Paris 1992), pp. 41-56. Here is a brief review of the debate from 1797 to 1936: Arevalo, who published Isidore's *opera* 1797-1803, considers all forty-six chapters to have been written by Isidore, a position maintained, with slight modification, by Dzialowski one hundred years later. Schütte in 1902 rejects the authenticity of the long version and then separates the core thirty-three into twenty-five by Isidore and the other eight by Braulio. Ihm (1903) also attributes the first fourteen chapters to someone else, and identifying the core thirty-three chapters as Isidore's (why this adds up to forty-seven instead of forty-six chapters is unclear). Koeppler in 1936 agrees that the first fourteen (the "*appendix africana*") were not written by Isidore.

[220] Codoñer Merino, *El "De viris illustribus,"* pp. 28-40, especially pp. 31-33; Dolbeau, *op. cit.*, p. 56.

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"*appendix africana*" and referred to here as the African Appendix. This supposed African *De viris*, whether believed to be a source used by Isidore or a source later added to his work by Peter of Lérida, represents a connection between Africa and Spain in the sixth and seventh centuries, a connection which identifies important African writers and theologians whose works were known (and most probably read) in Visigothic Spain.

The chapters in the African Appendix, however, are not the only chapters about Africans in the long version of Isidore's *De viris illustribus*. Out of the forty-six chapters in all, eleven are devoted to Africans, which is a rather significant proportion; out of the thirteen in the Appendix, four are devoted to Africans, again a large fraction. The Appendix cannot be significant only for its percentage of African *virorum*, as this percentage is not very much higher than for the work as a whole.[221] Its significance lies in its conjectured African source, which will be explored in greater detail below. Table 2 repeats the names and chapters of the long version (i.e., the full forty-six chapters from Table 1), but also adds the short version chapters (i.e., without the Appendix):

TABLE 2: Africans in both the short and long version of Isidore's *De viris illustribus*

[221] The percentage of Africans in the long version is twenty-four percent, with thirty-once percent in the African Appendix. For the original Isidorian version (i.e., the core thirty-three chapters), the percentage is twenty-one percent, which is considerably less than thirty-one percent, though not amazingly so, considering we are not dealing with a very large number of chapters here.

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Name	Date of Death	Number in Short Version[222]	Number in Long Version	Number in African Appendix
Macrobius	VI?	-	2	2
Verecundus	551-553	-	7	7
Cerealis	s.VI^{in}	-	11	11
Ferrandus	546/547	-	12	12
Possidius	c. 437	8	21	-
Primasius	c. 550	9	22	-
Iulianus Pomerius	s.VI^{in}	12	25	-
Fulgentius	527/533	14	27	-
Facundus	post 571	19	32	-
Dracontius	s.VI^{1}	24	37	-
Victor of Tonnenna	567	25	38	-

For each author, Isidore (following Jerome and Gennadius) gives a short entry, providing a small amount of biographic information, but mostly devoting his attention to the bibliographic. Isidore's work, as mentioned above, serves as a bibliography of the important writers of the sixth century, or at least of those well-known in Spain at the time.[223]

The mid-sixth century was a turbulent time in North Africa, with the Byzantine armies under Belisarius reconquering the former Roman provinces from the Vandals and reestablishing Roman administrative bureaucracy, and with the

[222] The "short version" to which I refer corresponds to Dolbeau's R1 and R2, the earliest two recensions of Isidore's *De viris illustribus*, both from the ninth century. The "long version" is based on R5, the fifth recension, dating from the middle of the fifteenth century. I am also indebted to Dolbeau's tables, upon which Table 2 is based. See Dolbeau, "Une refonte wisigothique," pp. 44, 47-49.

[223] Possidius is the only African on the list from the fifth century instead of the sixth (except maybe Macrobius, whose identity is lost). Perhaps Isidore was surprised to find him missing from Gennadius' compilation, which certainly includes Augustine though neglects to include Augustine's biographer and bibliographer.

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theological controversy of the Three Chapters creating a rift between the African Church and the Emperor Justinian. That the Byzantine armies were not long able to hold back the Berber/Moorish tribes on the frontier is one reason for the exodus of many churchmen and their books from Africa to places like Spain. That the Three Chapters were in the end condemned, against the particular support of the African Church, is one reason for the literary activity of many Africans at the time, whose works on this doctrinal subject reached Spain. Both events, therefore, did much to encourage the dissemination of African writers and writings to Spain, in what Jacques Fontaine calls a "second wave of African refugees."[224]

Turning again to the list of Africans in Isidore's *De viris*, one notices that not only are most of them contemporary with the theological controversy, but some of them were also prominent supporters of the Three Chapters (as were some of the non-Africans mentioned as well). Facundus of Hermiane, for example, is one of the best-known African churchmen who spoke against Justinian in this controversy; in Chapter 32, Isidore attributes to him "twelve books in defense of the Three Chapters," which are still extant as the *Pro defensione trium capitulorum, l. xii* (CPL 866). Theodore of Mopsuestia (d. 428) of Antioch, one of the three "chapters" condemned, is the subject of Chapter 4, whereas Justinian, who presided over the condemnation, is the subject of Chapter 31 for the express reason of his involvement in this controversy. Out of these three examples, only one (Theodore) is contained in the

[224] Fontaine, *Isidore de Seville*, vol. 2, pp. 854ff. The first wave refers to the migrations during the Vandal persecutions a century earlier.

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African Appendix. The theory that the Appendix was compiled in Africa around the theme of the defense of the Three Chapters is weakened when one considers that as many key figures in the controversy are in the Isidorian core as in the African Appendix.[225] This theory, so attractive to anyone wanting to consider the Appendix an African *De viris*, simply does not hold for all thirteen chapters of the Appendix, which are, as a whole, more Spanish in content than African. Furthermore, of the four Africans in the Appendix, none are mentioned (in the *De viris*) as having any involvement in the controversy. Of the seven Africans in the core work, furthermore, only in the chapters on Facundus and Victor of Tonnenna (ch. 38) is direct reference to the Three Chapters made. These conclusions, though they do not altogether disprove the theory that the Appendix was transmitted to Spain from Africa, render untenable the idea that the Appendix had a conscious theological or polemical purpose.

Schütte, at the beginning of the twentieth century, was the first scholar to attribute the opening thirteen chapters of the long version of Isidore's *De viris* to an African source—specifically Pontianus, Bishop of Thaenae in Byzacena in the mid-sixth century. This Pontianus is known by his participation in a synod at Iunca called by Liberatus, the primate of Byzacena,[226] by his participation in another synod to elect a successor to Fulgentius of Ruspe, and by a letter written to Justinian

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[225] Koeppler, "*De viris illustribus*," p. 27: it is "very probable that the *appendix africana* was written by a defender of the 'Three Chapters' in Africa, at a time when the interest in the dispute was still great, that is in the second half of the sixth century."

[226] Mandouze, *Prosopographie chrétienne*, "Liberatus 7," pp. 638-639. Not to be confused with Liberatus of Cartagena, himself a source for Isidore's *De viris*.

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concerning the Three Chapters affair.[227] This last consideration is probably the reason he was identified with the Appendix; Dolbeau states that Schütte had no textual basis for his assumption.[228] Apparently, Pontianus was a convenient choice because he was a contemporary African churchman, who would have promoted his fellow partisans in the affair. However, if the Three Chapters was not the governing theme of the Appendix, as I have argued above, then the attribution of its authorship to Pontianus makes even less sense, and we are left without an author for the Appendix.

The real question is not who wrote the Appendix, but rather, did it come from Africa? For the sake of arguing the simpler case, it makes more sense to allow that these thirteen writers were known in sixth-/seventh-century Spain than to attribute a unified theme to such a diverse selection that would keep the thirteen chapters together in the course of transmission from Africa. The possibility that the chapters were transmitted from Africa, though in scattered fashion—like most of the knowledge of African writers in Spain—still remains. The African Appendix therefore no longer holds together as a quantifiable entity, but rather disintegrates into the broader dissemination of African writers to Spain; Dolbeau more accurately refers to it as "l'appendice hispano-africain."[229] It is actually more interesting that a significant number of Africans were known in Spain in a scattered fashion, rather

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[227] Mandouze, *op. cit.*, "*Pontianus" and "Ponticanus 2," pp. 883-884.

[228] Dolbeau, "Une refonte wisigothique," p. 43.

[229] Dolbeau, *op. cit.*, p. 46.

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than an all-encompassing African Appendix, because it illustrates a knowledge of the African authors that possibly arrived separately and independently from each other.

The most plausible possibility remaining is that these thirteen chapters were added to Isidore's core of thirty-three in Spain.[230] Codoñer attributes the extra chapters to a seventh-century Spanish collection by Peter of Lérida, and claims that this collection was based on African sources.[231] This would imply an independent knowledge of the Macrobius,[232] Verecundus, Cerealis, and Ferrandus at the cathedral library of Lérida. The entire *De viris*, or at least those chapters dealing with Africans, was obviously based on African sources. There is a distinction, however, between writers whose works were known, and writers whose works were known in a more tangible sense. One way to determine what works were actually read in a certain place (as opposed to mentioned) is to trace the manuscript dissemination of the specific texts. The fact that very early manuscripts contain the *De viris* as well as works by *viris illustribus* who are mentioned can, confidently enough, imply not only the knowledge of, but also the presence of these works in places such as Seville.

IV. THE *DE VIRIS ILLUSTRIBUS* AND TEXTUAL TRANSMISSION

[230] A further matter of debate concerns whether it was a source for Isidore or whether it was appended after his death. Koeppler argues convincingly that Isidore did not use the Appendix as a source: "*De viris illustribus*," pp. 30-33.

[231] These sources may have arrived in Spain during the second wave of refugees in the sixth century.

[232] Though whoever wrote the chapter on Macrobius in the African Appendix copied his information from Gennadius, including the confusion as to Macrobius' identity.

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The *De viris* could affect the transmission of an author's works in many ways. One way was by indirectly influencing the compilation of library catalogs and thus the composition of library book collections. Another was by suggesting pre-made collections of texts to include in the same manuscripts. Related to that is the *De viris* lists' effect of providing short pre-made biographies of authors that could then be included in the same manuscripts as those authors' works. For example, Jerome's chapter on the fourth-century Father of the African Church, Lactantius, accompanies the works of Lactantius in thirty-one manuscripts from the fifteenth century alone.[233] Another example is the appearance of Possidius' *Indiculum librorum Sancti Augustini* in Verona, Biblioteca Capitolare XXII (20) (CLA IV.490), a sixth-century manuscript also containing the Jerome-Gennadius *De viris*.[234] Although Possidius himself does not appear in a *De viris* until the Isidorian version, Gennadius devotes a chapter to Augustine and his works. The Verona manuscript, however, does not contain a work of Augustine nor his *Vita* (written by Possidius), which usually accompany the *Indiculum*. This text was actually added onto the Gennadian chapter on Augustine, therefore providing a more updated and complete bibliography of the Augustinian canon.[235]

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[233] B. Lambert, *Bibliotheca Hieronymia manuscripta* 2, Instrumenta patristica 4 (Steenbrugge 1969), pp. 429-457.

[234] This MS will be discussed in greater detail in Chapter Five, section II. G.

[235] Richardson, *op. cit.*, p. xvi, no. 25.

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A. Verecundus of Iunca: Bibliography and Biography in Madrid 590

A fuller example of how inclusion in a *De viris* list could affect transmission is seen in a manuscript of Verecundus, Bishop of Iunca in the first half of the sixth century. Verecundus is listed in Isidore's *De viris* as a writer of poems, or *carmina*, one of which is the *De paenitentia* (CPL 869).[236] This work appears in a ninth/tenth-century manuscript, Madrid, Bibl. Nac. 10029,[237] as well as three of its descendents: Madrid, Bibl. del Noviciado de la Universidad central 130, from the sixteenth/seventeenth century; Berlin, Deutsche Staatsbibl., MS. lat. fol. 448, possibly from the nineteenth century; and Madrid, Bibl. Nac. 590, from the seventeenth century. This last manuscript is a collection of various works, mostly written by Spanish bishops, but also by two African bishops. On folio 11v of Madrid 590 appears one chapter from Isidore's *De viris*: Chapter 7, on Verecundus "*episcopus africanus*."[238] The *De paenitentia* begins on the next folio. The compiler of this manuscript therefore included the chapter on Verecundus to accompany the poem of Verecundus, or he included the poem because Verecundus is one of the writers recommended by Isidore.[239] Verecundus is one of only two authors in the entire

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[236] Crit. ed.: Verecundus, *Verecundi Iuncensis, Commentarii super cantica ecclesiastica, Carmen de satisfactione paenitentiae*, ed. R. Demeulenaere, CCSL xciii (Turnholt 1976). The *De paenitentia* is often spelled *poenitentia*, as it is in Isidore's *De viris* as well as the catalogue entry for Madrid, Bibl. Nac. 590.

[237] Formerly Toledo 14 (22). For a full description see *Inventario general de manuscritos de la Biblioteca Nacional*, vol. XIV: 9501-10200 (Madrid 2000), pp. 300-301.

[238] For a full description see *Inventario general de manuscritos de la Biblioteca Nacional*, vol. II: 501-896 (Madrid 1956), pp. 87-90.

[239] This assumes, of course, that both entries were added by the same scribe.

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manuscript who is not Spanish, the other being Dracontius, another poet in Isidore's *De viris*. The work of Dracontius included in Madrid 590, even though it is attributed to the African poet, is, however, treated as one of the works of Eugenius of Toledo (d. c. 657), who published a version of Dracontius' poems for King Chindasuinth.[240] Interestingly, the works of Eugenius are also preceded by a chapter from a *De viris*—namely, the chapter on Eugenius that appears in Ildefonsus' list.

In the manuscript, however, Verecundus is clearly an *episcopus africanus*, whose poem *De paenitentia* was known by the time Isidore was writing in the seventh century and was still known in Spain by the time the poem appeared in the ninth-century manuscript Madrid 10029, on which Madrid 590 was based. Madrid 10029 was originally from the cathedral at Toledo, where Ildefonsus was once bishop. The scribes at Toledo, and perhaps Ildefonsus himself, who had certainly read Isidore's *De viris*, were therefore responsible for the Spanish dissemination of Verecundus' *De paenitentia*. The work also appears outside of Spain, in a twelfth-century manuscript at Douai (Bibl. mun. 290), though this manuscript attributes the poem to Isidore; the exemplar, then, quite possibly came from a Spanish center before the twelfth century.

The seventeenth-century Madrid 590 may not necessarily indicate a medieval identification of Verecundus' poetry and his chapter in Isidore's *De viris*. It may, indeed, only indicate a seventeenth-century scholar's correlation of a work and its identified author using the most convenient bibliographic source at hand. Moreover, neither Madrid 590 nor its parent, the ninth/tenth-century Madrid 10029, contain

[240] For more on the Eugenian recension of Dracontius, see Chapter Five, section III. C.

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Isidore's *De viris* in full, implying that only the relevant chapters were chosen because of the texts included in the manuscript. The *De viris* thus served as convenient catalog entries for scribes and compilers from the fifth through seventeenth centuries.

B. Victor of Tonnenna: From African vir illustris *to Spanish Historian*

A similar situation occurs in a manuscript containing the *Chronica* of Victor, Bishop of Tonnenna in the mid-sixth century (CPL 2260).[241] Victor's work is preceded by the chapter Isidore devoted to him in the *De viris*; but, unlike the example of Madrid 590, the entire *De viris* of not only Isidore, but Ildefonsus as well, are also included in the same manuscript, based on a medieval exemplar.

This manuscript is El Escorial, Real Bibl., Signatura &.IV.23, written in Spain in the sixteenth century. It is referred to as P (E), since it is one of several manuscripts in a family attributed to Juan Baptista Pérez, Bishop of Segorbe in the second half of the sixteenth century.[242] This family was based on a late-ninth century manuscript discovered by Pérez, which in turn was based on a postulated manuscript from the mid-eighth century. Both of these early medieval manuscripts have been lost, though the contents of the ninth-century manuscript are known, thanks to Pérez. All of these manuscripts have similar contents: they contain Victor's *Chronica*, John

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[241] Victor of Tonnenna, crit. eds.: *Victoris Tonnennensis episcopi Chronica*, ed. T. Mommsen, MGH *Chron. min.* II (also *Auct. ant.* XI) (Berlin 1894), pp. 184-206; and *Victor Tunnunensis—Iohannes Biclarensis Chronicon cum reliquiis ex Consularibus Caesaraugustanis*, eds. C. Cardelle de Hartmann and R. Collins, CCSL xlxxiii A (Turnholt 2001).

[242] P for Pérez and E for Escorial. For descriptions of this manuscript, see Mommsen, *op. cit.*, pp. 165-166; and Cardelle de Hartmann and Collins, *op. cit.*, pp. 38-40.

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of Biclarum's continuation of that work (CPL 2261), and several other works dealing with the history of Visigothic Spain. Victor's *Chronica* is in fact accompanied by the continuation of John of Biclarum (d. 690) in every manuscript witness to the chronicle. We see again the late antique custom of continuing the historical and/or biographical records of an earlier author, as in the case of the *De viris illustribus*. Victor was himself writing a continuation of the chronicles of Prosper of Aquitaine, a theologian in the early to mid-fifth century who was a great adherent of Augustine.[243] Prosper, furthermore, was writing a continuation of Jerome (late fourth century), who in turn was continuing the Chronicle of Eusebius of Caesarea (early fourth century). The two oldest manuscripts containing Victor's work in fact begin with the Chronicle of Jerome, followed by Prosper, then Victor, then John of Biclarum[244]—therefore treating these chronicles as one unit in much the same way as with the *De viris*.

Another important manuscript witness for Victor's *Chronica* is Madrid, Bibl. gen. de la Univ. Complutense, Fondo Histórico, 134 from the thirteenth-century (U), which is based on one of the two lost archetypes and is independent from the Pérez family.[245] This manuscript contains twenty-nine items, all relating to the history of

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[243] Cf. Victor's incipit: *Huc usque Prosper vir religiosus ordinem praecedentium digessit annorum: cui et nos ista subiecimus* (Mommsen, *Victoris Tonnennensis episcopi Chronica*, p.184). Compare John's incipit: *Huc usque Victor Tunnennensis ecclesiae episcopus Africanae provinciae ordinem praecedentium digessit annorum: nos quae consecuta sunt adicere curavimus* (Mommsen, *op. cit.*, p. 211).

[244] The two "lost archetypes" are 1) a late-ninth-century MS discovered by Pérez at the Escorial which was lost in the sixteenth century; and 2) a MS that was written anywhere from the mid-eighth to the early eleventh century, of which only six folios remain: two in London, Brit. Lib. Egerton 1934, and four in Madrid, Bibl. de la Acad. de la Hist. 81. MS U is descended from the latter.

[245] Cardelle de Hartmann and Collins, *Victor Tunnunensis—Iohannes Biclarensis*, pp. 27-38 and Mommsen, *op. cit.*, pp. 167-172.

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Spain: mostly chronicles, histories, and name-lists. Besides including the *Chronica* of Jerome-Prosper-Victor-John, it also contains the *De viris* of Gennadius, Isidore, Ildefonsus, and Jerome (in that order). Victor's work is not prefaced by his chapter in Isidore's *De viris*, as it is in the Escorial &.IV.23. This implies that Victor was not included in this manuscript because he happens to be mentioned by Isidore, but because his *Chronica* has become irretrievably linked with the chronicles and history of Spain. Because of John of Biclarum's continuation, not only is Victor's work always transmitted with John's, but it has also become part of Spanish, not African, history.[246] In one of the manuscripts belonging to the Pérez family, for instance, Victor is mistakenly called Victor Turonensis, instead of Tonnennensis,[247] further illustrating that Victor's association with Africa is no longer essential to his identity.

Returning to P (E), Escorial &.IV.23, we see that the excerpt about Victor from Isidore's *De viris* was actually added by Pérez himself, along with a brief table of contents, on the first folio before the beginning of Victor's *Chronica*. That he also wrote marginalia on some pages of the *Chronica* suggests that the excerpt was included after the *Chronica*. If his work was already part of the collection of texts on Spanish history, before his African identity was made obvious by the *De viris* chapter, then perhaps he was assumed to be Spanish.[248] In any case, the manuscript

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[246] Granted, Victor never meant his chronicle to be a work of African history. He does mention African people and events, such as the war against the Moors (*Mauris*) in the years 569-571, but in no greater proportion than for other places.

[247] London, Brit. Mus. Egerton 1873, a copy made by Juan de Mariana in the sixteenth century. Cf. Mommsen, *Victoris Tonnennensis episcopi Chronica*, pp. 174-175.

[248] Of course, he is still identified as an African bishop in the preface to John's continuation.

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follows U in assuming that Victor of Tonnenna, an African, belongs in the tradition of Spanish historiography. This added excerpt also reveals the custom, in some manuscripts, of accompanying an author's work with a brief biographical sketch. Victor's biography is not the only one in the Escorial manuscript; Ildefonsus' *De viris* is followed by the *Vita Ildefonsi* by Julian of Toledo, which is itself followed by the *Vita Juliani*.[249] This is the same authorial convention that added a chapter on Gennadius at the end of his *De viris*, and the chapter on Isidore by Braulio of Saragossa. The example of Victor of Tonnenna's *Chronica* in the above-mentioned manuscripts is thus an example both of a work that caused the inclusion of part of a *De viris*, and a work being included along with a *De viris*.

The fact which ultimately lessens the significance of Victor's African origin is that he wrote his *Chronica* while in exile at Constantinople, where John of Biclarum no doubt became familiar with it during his studies there, and then most likely brought to Spain with him when he became abbot of Biclarum.[250] Instead of revealing dissemination from Africa to Spain, this example instead reveals the importance of Constantinople as a dissemination point for African texts, especially during the Three Chapters controversy, which was the cause of Victor's exile. This is an unusual case of an African author writing a text in the East that, because of one contact, became a part of Spanish history and was primarily transmitted with Spanish works. Victor was practically unknown in the rest of Europe until the eleventh

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[249] Cardelle de Hartmann and Collins, *Victor Tunnenensis—Iohannes Biclarensis*, p. 39.

[250] Mommsen, *Victoris Tonnennensis episcopi Chronica*, pp. 179-183.

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century,[251] two centuries after Visigothic works started to spread in the Carolingian kingdom. All of the manuscripts of his *Chronica* have come from Spain, and although Isidore was certainly instrumental in advertising his work, John of Biclarum, another of Isidore's *viri illustres*, is the person most responsible for the course of its transmission.

C. Extant and Lost Apocalypses from Cassiodorus' Institutiones

Though the bibliographic purpose of Cassiodorus' *Institutiones* is similar to that of the *De viris*, the *Institutiones* does not provide convenient bio-bibliographic chapters for the authors or works it mentions. Instead of looking at examples of how inclusion in a *De viris* affects transmission of a particular African text, this case study will focus on how a bibliographic guide such as the *Institutiones* can preserve the names of texts that have since been lost.

The commentaries on the Apocalypse written by the Africans Tyconius, Vigilius, and Primasius have already been mentioned above as part of Cassiodorus' library at Vivarium. The commentaries by Tyconius and Primasius were influential texts during Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages, though the commentary by Vigilius is attested only by Cassiodorus, and in the catalog of Henry of Kirkestede, who was probably copying his information from Cassiodorus, though he does not mention this as his source. Cassiodorus reported that

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[251] M. Manitius, *Geschichte der lateinischen Litteratur des Mittelalters*, vol. I (Munich 1911), pp. 215ff.

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> Vigilius as well, bishop of Africa, has written in very full and careful style about the interpretation of the thousand years which is contained in the previously mentioned Apocalypse and is to some a source of considerable confusion.[252]

Eight hundred years later, Henry listed, as one of the three texts by Vigilius, the *De 1000 annorum intelligentia in Apocalipsi lib. 1*,[253] which remains otherwise unidentified. Henry was simply copying from Cassiodorus, as he certainly did with other items in his catalog, but he also listed two Vigilian texts (CPL 806-807) not mentioned in the *Institutiones*. As these two other texts are unattested in any of the late antique or medieval bibliographic guides, and since he provides their incipits, Henry presumably knew them from manuscripts at the library of Bury St. Edmunds. The Apocalypse commentary attributed to Vigilius, therefore, was most likely unknown in England by the fourteenth century, and possibly unknown in Europe at that time as well.[254] This Vigilian text was, then, probably lost at some point between the sixth and fourteenth centuries.

The *Commentarius in Apocalypsin* by Tyconius (CPL 710), written around the turn of the fifth century, survives only in fragments.[255] This commentary influenced most subsequent writings on Revelation, including those of Primasius and

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[252] Jones, *An Introduction to Divine and Human Readings*, p. 94. Mynors, *Cassiodori senatoris institutiones*, I. ix. 2: *Vigilius quoque, Afer antistes, de mille annorum intellegentia quae in praedicta Apocalypsi, unde magna quaestio nonnullis oboritur, plenissima et diligenti naratione disseruit.*

[253] Rouse and Rouse, *Henry of Kirkestede*, no. 623, text no. 3.

[254] If Kirkestede was copying his information about Vigilius from Vincent of Beauvais (d. 1264), as is possible, then perhaps Vincent of Beauvais was only familiar with the Apocalypse commentary of Vigilius by name only. This implies the work was unknown in thirteenth-century France as well as fourteenth-century England.

[255] F. Lo Bue, *The Turin Fragments of Tyconius' Commentary on Revelation* (Cambridge 1963).

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Cassiodorus in the sixth century, and Bede and Beatus of Liébana in the eighth. The writings of Tyconius, the subject of Chapter 18 in Gennadius' *De viris*, were well-known in both late antique Spain[256] and Italy, despite his adherence to the Donatist Church. This particular text of the Apocalypse is therefore not completely dependent on Cassiodorus' *Institutiones*, as opposed to that of Vigilius.

Primasius of Hadrumetum used Tyconius when composing his own Apocalypse commentary in the mid-sixth century (CPL 873).[257] However, Primasius' commentary was probably not familiar to Beatus of Liébana, meaning that this is one work on the Apocalypse that may not have been transmitted to Spain at all during the late antique period. This idea is supported by the fact that Isidore, in his chapter (no. 9) on Primasius, mentions only the *Sermonem scholasticum de haeresibus iii lib. directos ad Fortunatum episcopum*,[258] and not the Apocalypse commentary. Since Isidore also neglects to mention the place-name of Hadrumetum, the "Primasius" he is familiar with may be a homonymous writer, and not Cassiodorus' Primasius at all. The *Institutiones* mentions two works by Primasius: the *Super Apocalypsin lib. v* and the *Quod faciat haereticum lib. i* (CPL 873a), the first of which survives, and the second of which survives only through the fragments which Cassiodorus copied into the *Institutiones*. The editor of the critical edition of Primasius' Apocalypse

[256] Tyconius was also mentioned in Isidore's *Liber sententiorum*, and is tied to the Apocalyptic tradition of bible illustration in Spain; W. Neuss, *Die Apokalypse des bl. Johannes in der altspanischen und altchristlichen Bibelillustration. Das Problem der Beatushandschriften* (Münster 1931), pp. 5-111.

[257] Primasius, *Primasius episcopus Hadrumetinus, commentarius in apocalypsin*, ed. A.W. Adams, CCSL xcii (Turnholt 1985).

[258] Codoñer Merino, *El "De viris illustribus,"* p. 139.

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commentary, for instance, deems the commentary the only surviving work of Primasius. Henry of Kirkestede, for his part, lists all three works, showing he was following both Isidore and Cassiodorus, and possibly conflating the two Primasii; he need not necessarily have been familiar with all three texts at Bury St. Edmunds.[259] The *Sermonem de haeresibus* may have therefore been lost well before the fourteenth century; it may have been known only in Spain (and Africa, of course) during Late Antiquity. The widespread influence of Primasius' Apocalypse commentary (Bede used it, for instance) casts doubt on the thought that Cassiodorus' manuscript of it in southern Italy was solely responsible for its transmission. By the seventh century, the text was copied into a manuscript in northern Gaul by an Insular scribe, meaning that the text probably traveled from southern Italy in the intervening century.

Cassiodorus' *Institutiones* may therefore have been responsible for the transmission of Primasius' Apocalypse commentary, and at least partially responsible for the transmission of Tyconius' commentary at least in Italy, both of which became quite influential in the Middle Ages. The *Institutiones* was not able to have the same impact on the Apocalypse commentary of Vigilius, nor on the *Quid faciat haereticum* of Primasius. Whether this is due to the dispersal of Cassiodorus' library is uncertain. Perhaps it had only to do with the quality of the texts themselves; Cassiodorus does admit that Vigilius' commentary "is to some a source of considerable confusion." Another possibility is that Cassiodorus did not have copies of these two lost works at all, and that he only knew about them from hearsay, extracts, or a previous glimpse of

[259] Rouse and Rouse, *Henry of Kirkestede*, no. 467.

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them somewhere other than Vivarium. Even if subsequent librarians could not find the texts listed in the *Institutiones*, however, Cassiodorus' work was still instrumental in raising awareness of authors and their works during Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages. As long as a library held a copy of the *Institutiones*, it held a key to the library of Vivarium and, consequently, to one of the most detailed collections of patristic and secular literature from the ancient and late antique periods.

VIII. CONCLUSION

Cassiodorus included the African authors he knew and approved in his *Institutiones* in the same way he included authors from Italy, Gaul, Spain, or the eastern Mediterranean. Victor of Tonnenna, moreover, became part of the Spanish historiographical tradition via the continuation and subsequent dissemination of his *Chronica* by the Spanish author Julian of Toledo. These two examples illustrate a sense of community still prevailing among the monks, bishops, and scholars of the Late Antique Mediterranean world. Africans and their texts were still a noteworthy segment of both Christian and secular culture; one indication of this is not only their appearance in the *De viris illustribus*, but also the fact that, in these lists, the word *Afer* or *Africanus* is still only a description, without any distant or exotic connotation. All the works in the *De viris*, whether written in Gaul, Syria, Africa, or other place, were part of the same corpus of contemporary Christian writers. Towards the seventh century, however, with the Spanish *De viris*, we see a shift to a less cosmopolitan,

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more local focus. Still, an emphasis on local Spanish history did not exclude Africans or African texts. It absorbed them, rather, in the way late antique African patristic culture was absorbed in Europe during the political and economic disintegration of the Mediterranean Empire.

The late antique *De viris*—those of Jerome, Gennadius, Isidore, and Ildefonsus—are witnesses to many different aspects of late antique history. They can help hypothetically reconstruct the libraries of their authors, they can reveal which works of certain authors were known or unknown, and they can trace the dissemination of certain texts by locating them in, for example, the area of Seville by the early seventh century, in Isidore's case. The lists of texts in the entries of the *De viris*, however, must be approached with caution, for knowing the titles of works written by an author is not necessarily the same as reading the works themselves, much less the same as possessing or copying. For some of the Africans listed in the late antique *De viris* lists, the extent of their "illustriousness" in late antique Europe is unsupported by sufficient evidence. For others, however, clues can be found in the examination of the textual transmission of their works. The next chapter continues the study of the African writers known from *De viris* lists—as well as Africans not mentioned in these sources—by examining the manuscript evidence linking late antique Africa with centers of dissemination in late antique and medieval Europe.

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Chapter Five: The Transmission of North African Texts to European Centers in Late Antiquity

I. INTRODUCTION

The survival of the manuscript copies of all known antique North African texts depends on their physical transmission to Europe before the eighth century A.D. We have already seen, in the previous chapter, how knowledge of North African authors' written works traveled to Europe via the *De viris illustribus* lists during the late antique period. The present chapter will attempt to determine where, in late antique Europe, texts were sent to or taken from North Africa. Locating the places in Europe where North African texts traveled will reveal the paths of transmission out of Africa and points of communication between Africa and Europe during Late Antiquity. The focus therefore will be on the libraries of monasteries, cathedral chapters, and learned individuals, that were the primary centers which received texts from North Africa, and out of which these texts were disseminated in the Latin West.

The monastic, cathedral, personal, and papal libraries of Italy were the centers that received the most North African texts during this time. This reflects the ecclesiastical, administrative, and personal connections shared between Italian and African cities since the Roman Empire. These Italian libraries will therefore be discussed in the first part of the chapter, with a separate section for each individual manuscript example which points to contact with a specific place in Italy. The libraries of late antique Spain, most of them ecclesiastical, will be examined in the

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second part, followed by the manuscript evidence for late antique Gaul, in the third and last part of the chapter. In addition to late antique manuscript evidence, manuscripts from the medieval period will also be discussed when they can provide information about the location of a late antique ancestor of a North African work. North African texts that can be shown to have been read in specific places must imply the one-time presence of a manuscript containing that text—a manuscript that in many cases traveled out of Africa. The Appendix at the end of the chapter lists all the extant (Latin) manuscripts that were possibly produced in (western) North Africa before the end of the seventh century, the purpose of which is not only to locate these manuscripts in modern European libraries, but also to provide some comments on how they may have arrived at their final destinations.[260]

Focusing on African texts that appear in individual manuscripts from late antique Italy, Spain, and Gaul can also shed light on how African texts were collected and perceived: in most cases, they were collected and perceived in the same way as any other texts of a patristic, grammatical, or literary nature in Late Antiquity. Even when the provenance of a particular North African text or manuscript was unknown to late antique and medieval scribes, the anonymous text seems to have been copied in the same way as those from any other *scriptorium* in late antique Europe. This secondary stage of the dissemination of North African texts—namely, their dissemination within Europe—is another story. Once an African text reached Europe through a late antique contact, that text was then copied and circulated according to a

[260] The list and the comments are based largely on those made by E.A. Lowe in his special section on North African manuscripts in CLA Suppl., pp. vii-x.

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new set of circumstances—namely, the relation and communication of monks, scholars, and clergy in early medieval Europe. The present chapter's focus is on the primary stage of dissemination, or where North African texts arrived in Europe upon leaving the land of their original composition.

II. TRANSMISSION THROUGH ITALY

A. Introduction to Late Antique Italian Centers

The Italian peninsula shared constant contact with the Roman provinces of Africa throughout Late Antiquity. Administrative connections to the papal chancery in Rome and the imperial chancery in Ravenna kept people, documents, and books moving across the Mediterranean to and from Carthage, and personal connections saw the exchange of letters and books from Africa to the regions around Naples and Rome. The ties that bound North Africa to Italy even into the Vandal period were so strong that the appearance of the uncial script written in African and Italian centers is almost indistinguishable. For instance, a family of Cyprian manuscripts that once belonged to Bobbio (and which will be discussed in greater detail in section II. H. 1 below), were written in a fifth-century uncial that could have been executed in either Italy or Africa. Their African origin has only been determined by the use of pre-Vulgate biblical text known to Cyprian. The *scriptoria* of late antique Italy must have been quite familiar with manuscripts produced by African *scriptoria*, if their styles are so similar; this indirectly attests an active exchange of books until at least the fifth century. The stichometric lists of the works of Cyprian mentioned in

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Chapter One, moreover, provide direct evidence about the African booktrade in the fifth century.[261]

In the fourth and fifth centuries, the most important Italian centers for the transmission of texts were the episcopal cities, such as Naples, Verona, Milan, and, of course, the former imperial capital and papal seat of Rome. In the sixth and seventh centuries, the emergence of major monasteries, such as Monte Cassino and Bobbio, meant new libraries and *scriptoria* for the collection and production of late antique manuscripts. Because Italy was highly urbanized since the early Roman Empire, the episocopal cities remained important for the transmission of texts into the Middle Ages, and were not eclipsed by newly-founded monastic establishments (as in Gaul).

By the end of the fifth century, Rome was no longer the political capital of the West. The imperial court had moved first to Milan in northern Italy and then to Ravenna on the Adriatic, implying that these two northern cities maintained their own considerable collections of books. The sixth- and seventh-century manuscripts identified by E.A. Lowe as northern Italian are attributed to the early *scriptoria* of Ravenna (e.g., CLA IV.410), Verona (IV.494), Vercelli (IV.467), Nonantola (IV.420a), and Bobbio (IV.448). No antique manuscript, however, remains as a witness to the early ecclesiastical library of Milan. This once Roman, once Lombard capital, also site of the important cult of Gervasius and Protasius, almost certainly had an important library by the fourth century, when Augustine went there to further his classical education. Some of the antique manuscripts of Milan may have been taken

[261] Bischoff, *Latin Palaeography*, p. 184; Rouse and McNelis, "North African Literary Activity," p. 189.

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to Bobbio, which was founded in 613 on land granted by the Lombard king Agilulf and his Catholic wife Theodelinda to the Irish monk Columbanus. The Bobbio manuscripts that predate its seventh-century foundation, were more than likely brought in from one of the episcopal libraries of northern Italy, such as those at Milan, Ravenna, and Verona.

Lowe lists Bobbio and Verona as the two most important *scriptoria* in pre-Carolingian Italy[262]—interestingly not Ravenna, which was the imperial capital longer than Milan, and which resisted the advance of the Lombards, unlike Milan and Verona. Its imperial status and connections to Constantinople no doubt attracted educated people, which implies that it attracted texts as well. The texts of poems by the Africans Dracontius and Corippus,[263] for instance, were known to Gallic poet Venantius Fortunatus and may possibly have been acquired when he was studying in Ravenna. Cassiodorus, in the opening words of the *Institutiones*, remarks on the diligence with which secular studies were pursued around him, he may have been referring to a class of secular *magistri* at Ravenna.[264] Where there are teachers, there are manuscripts. The manuscripts attributed to Ravenna in CLA IV, while not numerous, are nevertheless fine examples of half-uncial, and bear close resemblance to the half-uncial script produced at Verona. This script is also found in manuscripts thought to have been produced at Cassiodorus' Vivarium in southern Italy, such as

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[262] CLA IV, pp. xix-xxvii.

[263] The Italian transmission of the poetry of Dracontius and Corippus will be examined in II. I. 1-2.

[264] J.J. O'Donnell, *Cassiodorus* (Berkeley 1979), p. 179.

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Oxford, Bodl. Auct. T.II.26.[265] Cassiodorus, who was secretary to the Ostrogothic King Theoderic in the first quarter of the sixth century, may have found in Ravenna many of the texts he later recommended in his *Institutiones*.

The libraries of Ravenna, however, did not survive or leave records, other than the few manuscripts identified in the CLA, and any attempt to reconstruct them through references in the *Institutiones* of Cassiodorus is merely guesswork. As is apparent from the above speculations, interpreting late antique evidence often ends in guesswork and tentative statements. Even if the evidence for African manuscripts at Italian ecclesiastical and monastic libraries is not extensive, it still represents some of the strongest and most interesting evidence for the transmission of African texts to Italy in Late Antiquity.

B. Martianus Capella's De nuptiis philologiae et mercurii *and Early Circulation in Rome*

One example of an African text, which was copied in Rome not long after its composition, is the *De nuptiis philologiae et mercurii* of the fifth-century secular writer Martianus Capella.[266] In twenty-five of the over two hundred surviving manuscripts of this liberal arts textbook is a subscription,[267] dated to the year 534:

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[265] Troncarelli, *Vivarium*, plate 19.

[266] Crit. ed.: Martianus Capella, *Martianus Capella*, ed. J. Willis (Leipzig 1983).

[267] For subscriptions, see O. Jahn, "Über die Subscriptionen in den Handschriften römischer Classiker" in *Berichte über der Verhandlungen der Sächsichen Gesellschaft der Wissenschaften*, Phil.-hist. Classe 3 (1851): 327-372; and J.E.G. Zetzel, *Latin Textual Criticism in Antiquity* (Salem, NH 1984), pp. 209-231.

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> I, Securus Melior Felix, *vir spectabilis*, *comes consistorianus*, rhetorician of the city of Rome, emended [this] from the most faulty exemplars against the reading of my disciple, Deuterius *scholasticus*, at Rome at the *Capena* gate, in the consulship of the *vir clarissimus* Paulinus, on March 3rd, with the help of Christ.[268]

This subscription proves that the work had already been known long enough in Rome to draw the attention of rhetoricians there and to gather corruptions in the text. Danuta Shanzer arrives at the date of 534 through an attempted identification of the Felix and Deuterius mentioned, and through an examination of which fifth- and sixth-century writers show a familiarity with the *De nuptiis*. The Africans Dracontius and Fulgentius the Mythographer both read the work in the late fifth century, Ennodius bishop of Pavia was probably familiar with it by 512, and Boethius had certainly read it by 524. If the work were written in the 470s or 80s, then it must have traveled to Rome within a few decades of its composition;[269] whether or not Martianus himself went to Rome is uncertain. If twenty-five of the nearly two hundred extant manuscripts of the *De nuptiis* bear this subscription, then a substantial portion of the later transmission of this work depends on its arrival in Rome in the late fifth/early sixth century. This text was one of many North African works that traveled to Rome from Africa before the end of the seventh century.

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[268] D. Shanzer, *A Philosophical and Literary Commentary on Martianus Capella's* De Nuptiis Philologiae et Mercurii Book 1. University of California Publications: Classical Studies 32 (Berkeley 1986), pp. 8-10: *Securus Melior Felix, vir spectabilis, comes consistorianus, rhetor urbis Romae, ex mendososissimis exemplaribus emendabam contra legente Deuterio scholastico, discipulo meo, Romae ad portam Capenam, consulatu Paulini viri clarissimi, sub V nonarum Martiarum, Christo adiuvante.* The English translation is mine. *I thank David Howlett of the* Medieval Latin Dictionary *for this reference.*

[269] Shanzer, *A Philosophical and Literary Commentary*, pp. 25-26.

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C. The Earliest Augustine Manuscript and Literary Activity in Campania

The area around the towns and islands in the Bay of Naples, known as Campania, was another main destination for African letters and books both before and during the Vandal era. In the late fourth century, for instance, Augustine and his colleagues made use of these channels of communication a generation before the contacts of Fulgentius. The earliest manuscript of Augustine existing in any library is a manuscript containing the *De doctrina christiana*, which William Green dates to c. 396, and which is now St. Petersburg, Bibl. Pub. Q.v.I.3 (CLA XI.1613).[270] This manuscript is a prize witness to late antique North African manuscript production not only because it can be dated to the late fourth century, but because its composition can be attributed to Augustine's *scriptorium* in Hippo. It was supposedly sent from Africa to Campania by Augustine's friend Alypius, who was sending it to their mutual correspondent, the aristocrat-turned-monk Paulinus of Nola.

Many other works by Augustine had reached Campania by the time Eugippius compiled his *florilegium* of Augustinian excerpts, the *Excerpta ex operibus sancti Augustini*, at Lucullanum in the Bay of Naples around the year 500. According to Michael Gorman, "Very few extant manuscripts of St. Augustine's works were copied before the *Excerpta* was compiled. Thus, passages in the *Excerpta* usually constitute the earliest testimony to the history of the transmission of St. Augustine's

[270] W.M. Green, "A Fourth Century Manuscript of Saint Augustine?" in *RB* 69 (1959): 191-197, especially p. 196.

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works."[271] The *Excerpta*, in fact, was the work which introduced many medieval readers to the Augustinian corpus. This connection between Hippo (via Carthage) and Naples in the fifth century is directly responsible for a significant portion of the transmission of Augustine's works.

During the early fifth century, the monastic communities founded in Africa by Pinian and Melania under the sponsorship of Alypius at Thagaste kept in close contact with their sister foundations in Campania.[272] These monastic communities, in addition to obtaining African texts, may have also received many African exiles from the Vandal persecutions in the fifth century (such as the bishops Quodvultdeus and Gaudiosus, discussed in the next chapter), as well as African exiles from the insurgence of Berber and Arab tribes in the sixth and seventh centuries. The best-known representative of these later African exiles is Hadrian, from Cyrenaica in Libya or perhaps further west, who fled with his family to Naples in the 640s.[273] According to Bede's *Historia ecclesiastica*, Hadrian was abbot of a monastery in the Bay of Naples for several years before being appointed to head the episcopal school at Canterbury in England. The name of this Neapolitan monastery has been obscured

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[271] M. Gorman, "The Manuscript Tradition of Eugippius' 'Excerpta ex operibus sancti Augustini'" in *id.*, *The Manuscript Traditions of the Works of St Augustine* (Florence 2001), pp. 105-167, at pp. 105-106; orig. in *Rev. Bén.* 92 (1982): 7-32, 229-265.

[272] C.P. Hammond Bammel, "Products of Fifth-Century *Scriptoria* Preserving Conventions Used by Rufinus of Aquileia" in *Journal of Theological Studies* 30 (1979): 430-462, at p. 443.

[273] B. Bischoff and M. Lapidge, *Biblical Commentaries from the Canterbury School of Theodore and Hadrian*, Cambridge Studies in Anglo-Saxon England 10 (Cambridge 1994), pp. 82ff. See also A.S. Cook, "Hadrian of Africa, Italy and England" in *Philological Quarterly* 2 (1923): 241-258, who assumed Hadrian was from Byzacena or Africa Proconsularis, p. 245. The recent article by M.A. Handley, "Disputing the End of African Christianity" in Merrills, ed., *Vandals, Romans and Berbers*, pp. 291-310, at 296, prefers an origin in one of the western, Latin-speaking provinces, rather than an origin in the bilingual, Greek- and-Latin speaking Tripolitania (Libya).

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through a series of errors in transcription in Bede's source for the life of Hadrian and in the *Historia ecclesiastica* itself. Most scholars generaly concur with R.L. Poole, who identified the island of Nisida in the Bay of Naples as the site where Hadrian served his abbacy before traveling to Canterbury.[274]

Bischoff and Lapidge suggest that Hadrian and Theodore, Archbishop of Canterbury and companion to Hadrian, together with Benedict Biscop (founder of Wearmouth-Jarrow), "did bring 'a copious library' of Greek and Latin manuscripts" to England,[275] though whether any of these manuscripts originally came from Africa with Hadrian is impossible to discern and probably unlikely. Hadrian's arrival in England may coincide with the copying of the earliest extant manuscript of Primasius' *Commentarium in Apocalypsin*, copied in an Insular center,[276] but this coincidence can only suggest the remote possibility that Hadrian brought a manuscript of the Primasius text from Naples with him. Because the text was known to Cassiodorus, the possibility that it was also known in Campania in the seventh century is likely. In any case, the example of Hadrian shows how Campania was a destination for Africans and their books for more than three hundred years, thereby claiming a significant population of both throughout Late Antiquity.

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[274] R.L. Poole, "Monasterium Niridanum" in *English Historical Review* 36 (1921): 540-545. In the two earliest MSS for Bede's *Historia*, the name of the monastery appears as "Niridanum" in one and "Hiridanum" in the other, since Anglo-Saxon script renders "N" and "H" almost indistinguishable. To complicate the name further, "r" and "s" also look very similar, which was one reason why Poole decided upon Nisida as the actual location.

[275] Bischoff and Lapidge, *Biblical Commentaries*, p. 241.

[276] This MS, Oxford, Bodl. Douce 140, will be discussed further in section V below.

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D. Fulgentius at Sardinia and the Basilicanus Manuscript of Hilary

Fulgentius of Ruspe exchanged texts with Eugippius in Naples while he was in exile in Sardinia, an island between Carthage and Naples (while closer to Carthage). We have already seen, in Chapters Two and Three, how Sardinia was a stop-over point between Carthage and Naples for Fulgentius, his fellow exiles, and their books. The following example provides specific manuscript evidence for this flow of texts. Dating from the year 509 or 510, the Basilicanus manuscript of Hilary of Poitiers, *De trinitate*, Vat. Bas. lat. D. 182,[277] was the personal working copy of Fulgentius of Ruspe. When exiled by Thrasamund in 502/507, Fulgentius and about sixty followers went to Sardinia, and there established a community at Cagliari. He not only brought the Hilary manuscript with him, but also annotated and continued the text. The path this manuscript traveled from Africa (or Cagliari, if it were originally written there) to its eventual destination in the Archivio della Basilica di San Pietro at the Vatican has been examined in detail by André Wilmart, Leonard Boyle, and Fabio Troncarelli.[278]

Wilmart was the first to suggest that the Basilicanus was Fulgentius' annotated copy, written at Cagliari in Sardinia, that he took back to Africa with him when he was recalled by Thrasamund for the purposes of a doctrinal debate around

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[277] For facsimile of entire manuscript, see J. Perugi, *S. Hilarii Pictaviensis De Trinitate*, 2 vols. (Tours 1930).

[278] A. Wilmart, "L'Odyssée du manuscrit de San Pietro qui renferme les œuvres de Saint Hilaire" in L.W. Jones, ed., *Classical and Mediaeval Studies in Honor of Edward Kenneth Rand* (New York 1938), pp. 293-305; F. Troncarelli, "L'Odissea di un'Odissea: Note sull'Ilario Basilicano (Arch. S. Pietro D 182)" in *Scriptorium* 46 (1991): 3-21; and L. Boyle, "The 'Basilicanus' of Hilary Revisited" in E. Condello and G. De Gregorio, eds., *Scribi e Colophoni* (Spoleto 1995), pp. 93-105; repr. in L. Boyle, *Integral Palaeography*, Textes et Études du Moyen Âge 16 (Turnholt 2001).

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the year 510. Thus the manuscript traveled to Africa with Fulgentius, and then most likely back to Sardinia for Fulgentius' second exile two years later. From there it returned again with Fulgentius to Africa, and was in his personal collection until he died in 532, after which it passed to his disciple Ferrandus at Carthage. Ferrandus supposedly refers to this manuscript in a letter to the Roman deacons Pelagius and Anatolius in 546, meaning that the manuscript would not have left Africa before the second half of the sixth century.[279] When exactly it did leave Africa is uncertain, but it probably traveled first to Spain, as it was annotated in a Visigothic hand of the eighth century. Shortly after acquiring the Visigothic marginalia, it traveled to Italy, where it was annontated in an Italian hand of the ninth century, and where it has remained to this day.[280]

Troncarelli suggested that the Basilicanus went straight to Italy, not Spain, from Africa in the sixth century. In fact, he places it at Vivarium, since it shows some of the corrections found in other manuscripts demonstrated to have been at Vivarium, made in Cassiodorus' own hand, and not the hand of Fulgentius as was suggested by Wilmart.[281] Boyle was the first to assign separate provenances for the uncial and half-uncial parts of the Basilicanus. The half-uncial, he maintains, was a copy of Hilary's *De trinitate* brought from Africa and corrected against a copy of the text that had been at Cagliari since the time of the Bishop Lucifer (fl. c. 356-360).

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[279] Wilmart, "L'Odyssée du manuscrit," p. 294.

[280] Wilmart, *op. cit.*, p. 304.

[281] In addition to Troncarelli, "L'Odissea di un'Odissea," see his treatment of the Basilicanus in *id.*, *Vivarium*, pp. 48-49.

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The corrections and the uncial portion (CPL 818) represent Fulgentius' copying activity during his first exile at Cagliari.[282]

Boyle does not suggest a route of transmission for the manuscript after the time of Fulgentius, and so we are left with Wilmart's route to Spain and Troncarelli's route to Vivarium. Considering the connections of both Fulgentius and Ferrandus, who probably did have the Basilicanus at Carthage in the mid-sixth century, to Eugippius at Naples, the manuscript may have reached southern Italy through an exchange of books in Campania. From there, it could have easily traveled to Vivarium, or straight to Rome. It may be more realistic to conjecture a Visigothic scribe in Italy during the eighth century who added the marginalia Wilmart noticed, than to conjecture that the manuscript traveled from Carthage to Spain and then to Italy, instead of straight from Carthage to Italy. Even if the Vat. Bas. lat. D. 182 did not travel straight to Italy in the sixth century, it still suggests Italian connections: with Cagliari, an important Italian bishopric since Lucifer; with Naples, where Eugippius exchanged books with Fulgentius at Sardinia; and with Vivarium, if we accept Troncarelli's theory that the manuscript was in Cassiodorus' library by the second half of the sixth century. Furthermore, as the first datable example of half-uncial Latin script, it may even have influenced the development of half-uncial in Italy, where the northern Italian cathedral cities of Verona, Ravenna, and others produced many sixth-century manuscripts in a similar hand.

[282] Boyle, "The 'Basilicanus' of Hilary," pp. 101, 103-104.

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E. The Fulgentian Circle and a Collection of African Canons from Rome or Naples

Fulgentius, from his monastic establishment at Sardinia, may have also been responsible for the circulation of a particular collection of African conciliar material from Carthage to Rome. The first part of Verona, Bibl. cap. LX (CLA IV.510), dating from the second half of the eighth century, contains a fifth-century collection of African conciliar material dealing with the case of a certain Apiarius.[283] This case, the details of which need not be explained here, represents differences in the canonical traditions of the African and Roman Churches, while at the same time implying the constant contact between the African and Roman Church.[284] In tracing the first stages of the transmission of this conciliar collection, Lester Field highlights the community of Fulgentius and Ferrandus at Sardinia, and points to their contacts with Naples and Rome for a likely means of transmission of the collection to the Italian peninsula in the early sixth century. Fulgentius and Ferrandus not only brought books from Africa and requested books from Naples and Rome for reading and copying in their *scriptorium* at Cagliari (such as the Basilicanus Hilary). "In Sardinia, they even gathered in synods, which not only maintained contact with the underground Church in Africa but also addressed larger christological causes, or their smaller symptoms."[285] This interest could very well include the Apiarian case and the

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[283] L. Field, *On the Communion of Damasus and Melitius* (Toronto 2004), pp. 87-153, Chapter Three: "Codicological Contexts: The *Codex Veronensis LX*, Its Collections, Texts, and Their Transmission," at p. 97.

[284] Field, *op. cit.*, pp. 101-102.

[285] Field, *op. cit.*, p. 127.

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larger issues of the Council of Carthage 419 contained in Verona LX. Fulgentius, as one of the leading bishops of early sixth-century Africa and almost certainly the most outspoken, also maintained some of the most extensive contacts that connected Africa to Italy. His role in the dissemination of African canonical material to Italy seems therefore a likely possibility, or at least for this specific collection that traveled to Rome and is known to us through this eighth-century Veronese manuscript.

F. A North African Manuscript of Augustine Found at Verona

Another Veronese manuscript is actually a likely candidate for a manuscript of North African provenance. Verona, Bibl. cap. XXVIII (26) (CLA IV.491), containing Augustine's *De civitate dei* (CPL 313), was probably written in Africa in the first half of the fifth century, and probably traveled to Verona soon afterwards. Where it arrived in Italy before traveling to Verona is uncertain, though Naples, where Eugippius was compiling his Augustinian *florilegium*, is a likely destination.[286] Between Naples and Verona, the manuscript may have stopped in Rome, since Verona probably acquired many of its books from Rome in the early period of its library. The capitular library at Verona was a significant repository of books since its founding in the fifth century.[287] Verona itself was an important ecclesiastical center

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[286] M. Gorman, "A Survey of the Oldest Manuscripts of St. Augustine's *De civitate Dei*" in *id.*, *The Manuscript Traditions of the Works of St. Augustine*, pp. 178-190, at 188; orig. in *Journal of Theological Studies*, N.S., 33 (1982): 398-410.

[287] A. Spagnolo and S. Marchi, eds., *I Manoscritti della Biblioteca Capitolare di Verona. Catalogo descrittivo*, (Verona 1996); G. Turrini, "La Biblioteca Capitolare di Verona" in *Italia medioevale e umanistica* 5 (1962): 401-423; and *Biblioteca Capitolare di Verona. Veronensis Capitularis Thesaurus* (Verona 1990), pp. 1-29 (preface).

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since the fourth century, when an African named Zeno became bishop in 362, and, after his death in c. 375, became the city's patron saint.[288] With such patronage, perhaps it is not surprising to see so many important early manuscripts of African texts either located or copied there. The Verona XXVIII (26) is only one example of many that illustrate the role of Verona's capitular library in the late antique transmission of African texts. A text of the African psalter, for instace, was copied in Verona in the seventh century (Verona, Bibl. cap. I), possibly implying the influence of African liturgical material in Verona. It is, however, improbable that any manuscript went directly from Africa to Verona, without stopping first in Campania, Vivarium, or Rome. Manuscripts probably traveled northward in the same way as particular abbreviations of *nomina sacra*: according to C.P. Hammond Bammel, the distribution "appears to follow the axis North Africa, Campania, Rome, North Italy."[289] Even if it does only represent a second, third, or even fourth stage of transmission, Verona is nevertheless important for preserving some of the oldest extant manuscript of African texts, as in the case of a text of Facundus, examined next.

G. A Veronese Family of Manuscripts, Possibly from Vivarium

Facundus of Hermiane's *Pro defensione trium capitulorum* (CPL 866) is found in a sixth-century family of manuscripts written at the capitular library of

[288] For Zeno, refer to no. 5 on the "List of African Saints Venerated in Europe" at the end of Chapter Three.

[289] Hammond Bammel, "Products of Fifth-Century *Scriptoria*," p. 441.

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Verona. This family of manuscripts contains four manuscripts from the sixth through seventh centuries, all in half-uncial script, containing patristic material dealing with anti-Arian issues and the Three Chapters controversy. The specific manuscripts, with their contents, are as follows: Verona, Bibl. cap. XXII (20), written after 555 (CLA IV.490), with Jerome-Gennadius' *De viris* and Possidius' *Indiculum librorum Sancti Augustini*; Verona, Bibl. cap. LIII (51), from the second half of the sixth century (CLA IV.506), with Facundus' *Pro defensione trium capitulorum* and *Contra Mocianum*; Verona, Bibl. cap. LIX (57), from the sixth or seventh centuries (CLA IV.509), with the Acta *synodi Chalcedonensis* and a collection of various patristic material including works of Ambrose and a short work by Vigilius of Thapse, who wrote on Christological (i.e., Chalcedonian) issues at Constantinople in the late fifth century; and Vatican, lat. 1322, from the late sixth century (CLA I.8), with the Acta *synodi Chalcedonensis*.

Lowe, writing in 1947, attributes the production of these manuscripts to the Verona cathedral chapter. The manuscripts do indeed bear a resemblance to other manuscripts produced at the chapter library of Verona in the sixth and seventh centuries. Courcelle, writing in 1948, believes that they were written at Cassiodorus' *scriptorium* at Vivarium.[290] Both Lowe and Courcelle conjecture that all four were written in the same center. Palaeographically, the four are quite similar, and though

[290] Courcelle, *Les Lettres grecques*, pp. 342-356, 373-388. Courcelle does not mention these MSS specifically, but does posit a Vivarian origin for many of the antique codices of Verona.

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they may not have been copied by the same hand,[291] the most likely possibility is that they were copied in the same place. Whether that place were Verona or Vivarium, however, is difficult to determine, though I believe that the more likely possibility is that these manuscripts were written at Verona. None of these manuscripts are included by Troncarelli in his list of manuscripts that were written at Vivarium;[292] this does not necessarily mean that they were not written at Vivarium, but that they do not contain the signs which he identified as suggesting Vivarian origin. The four manuscripts were certainly all at Verona by the time of Archdeacon Pacificus (d. 844), as can be seen from his marginalia. Pacificus was renowned for encouraging *scriptorium* activity, and for copying many manuscripts himself.

The manuscripts may still have been *copied* from a group of manuscripts that came from Vivarium. The circumstances of their grouping seems to point to this possibility, as will be examined below. If they were copied from Vivarian exemplars, then these manuscripts would still support Courcelle's theory that the capitular library of Verona, via the Lateran at Rome, was one of the final destinations for many of Cassiodorus' manuscripts after the dispersal of the library of Vivarium shortly after his death c. 580. If the manuscripts of this family were produced at, or at least disseminated from Vivarium at the end of the sixth or beginning of the seventh

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[291] Here I depart from Lowe, who suggests that the same scribe wrote Verona LIII (51) and Vat. lat. 1322. Actually, Courcelle interprets Lowe's notes to mean the same scribe, though what Lowe says is, "the script is very similar." See Courcelle, *op. cit.*, p. 399, fn. 30, and CLA I.8. Vat. lat. 1322 examined by SRG on Mar. 8, 2004; Verona XXII (20) and LIII (51) examined by SRG on Mar. 20, and LIX (57) on Mar. 22, 2004.

[292] Troncarelli, *Vivarium*, e.g., p. 95.

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century, then we see the resonance of the theological debate over Chalcedonian orthodoxy in southern Italy, a mid-way point between the bishoprics of Africa and the papal see in Rome. Most of the texts in this family are concerned with this debate, including the *Pro defensione trium capitulorum* of Facundus of Hermiane.[293] Verona LIII (51) is in fact the earliest manuscript witness to the works of Facundus, and cannot have been written more than fifty years after his death. This work articulated the position of many African bishops who opposed the Emperor Justinian's edict of 543/4 condemning the Three Chapters, the controversy that saw the entire Western Church save Africa eventually submit to the will of the eastern emperor. That this work is circulated with the *acta* from the 451 Council of Chalcedon is appropriate, for Justinian's condemnation of the Three Chapters was in opposition to the decisions made at Chalcedon.

Verona, LIII (51) therefore witnesses an early circulation of the *Pro defensione*, which traveled to Verona either via the Lateran during the dispersion of Cassiodorus' library in the seventh century, as Courcelle argues,[294] or simply via an ecclesiastical library in Rome or Ravenna. Although Cassiodorus' position in the debate remains ambiguous, he stayed in Constantinople from about 540 to 554, during which he corresponded with Pope Vigilius and wrote his *Expositio psalmorum*

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[293] Crit. ed.: Facundus, *Facundi episcopi ecclesiae Hermianensis opera omnia*, eds. I.-M. Clément and R. Vander Plaetse, CCSL xc A (Turnholt 1974). Also includes edition of the *Contra Mocianum*.

[294] Courcelle, *Les Lettres grecques*, pp. 378-379.

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(CPL 900).[295] One of the sources for his *Expositio* was the *Pro defensione* of Facundus, published in 548, which he either brought with him or obtained in the eastern capital. Facundus' work may not have been transmitted directly from Africa to Italy, but directly from Africa to Constantinople, whence it was brought to Italy by Cassiodorus. This dissemination through Constantinople is not unusual: the works probably followed the same lines of correspondence along which news of the condemnation of the Three Chapters reached Africa in the first place.

Not every member of this Veronese/Vivarian family of manuscripts deals with the issue of the Three Chapters and Chalcedonian orthodoxy. Verona XXII (20) contains Jerome-Gennadius' *De viris* and Possidius' bibliography of Augustine, as well as a list of the popes (*Vitae romanorum pontificum*)—more "famous men". These texts are linked thematically, for they are all lists of famous men and their writings. Facundus himself is a *vir illustris*: being too young for the Jerome-Gennadius *De viris*, he is the subject of Chapter 19 in Isidore's list.[296] The Verona XXII (20), however, may still have been written as part of a group of manuscripts dealing with the Three Chapters controversy. This manuscript was written in 555 at the earliest, as the last entry in the *Vitae pontificum* is Vigilius (d. 555), the pope whose capitulation to Justinian brought an end to the Three Chapters controversy. Cassiodorus, was corresponding with Vigilius, who was in the East at that time, may have made an updated list of popes out of respect to the defeated pope. I have already

[295] For an examination of Cassiodorus' residence in Constantinople and the composition of his *Expositio psalmorum*, see O'Donnell, *Cassiodorus*, ch. 5, especially pp. 169ff.

[296] Codoñer Merino, *El "De viris illustribus,"* p. 144.

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mentioned that Cassiodorus could have used copies of Facundus that were in Constantinople; perhaps he also used copies of Augustine, for which he might have needed Possidius' bibliography. He also needed to consult the conciliar *acta* of the Council of Chalcedon 451; according to O'Donnell, "On every page, all up and down the commentary that he wrote at Constantinople in the 540's, there is implicit and explicit in Cassiodorus the exact working of the Chalcedonian Christology."[297] If this is the case, then these four manuscripts were already considered a unit in the sixth century.

The theory that the manuscripts of the Verona family were copied from a group of manuscripts written at Vivarium, might be summed up as follows: Cassiodorus gathered his own corpus of material related to the Christological controversy at the heart of the Councils of Chalcedon 451 and Constantinople 553, and then brought it with him upon his return to Italy in 554. There, this corpus was copied by scribes in his *scriptorium* at Vivarium, and then disseminated to Verona via the Lateran in the years after his death, where it was copied into our present group of manuscripts at Verona. Determining that these four manuscripts were most likely written at Verona, based on palaeographical considerations, does not eliminate the possibility that the African texts contained in them were disseminated to Verona through manuscripts at Rome or Naples that were never in Cassiodorus' possession. The relatedness of the texts in the group of manuscripts, however, strongly suggests that Cassiodorus was involved. The most likely route is that these African texts, and

[297] J.J. O'Donnell, *op. cit.*, p. 169.

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Facundus' *Pro defensione trium capitulorum* in particular, traveled directly from Africa to southern Italy, at the request of Cassiodorus, and that they were taken to Constantinople by him during the Three Chapters controversy. The *Pro defensione* was also known to Victor of Tonnenna[298] in sixth-century Africa and Isidore of Seville in seventh-century Spain, implying that the work was written in Africa and that it also traveled from Africa to Spain. It was not, therefore, introduced to the western world only through a manuscript brought back from Constantinople; if the *Pro defensione* were written in Africa, or brought back to Africa by Facundus or one of his friends, then it probably traveled to Italy directly, where Cassiodorus obtained a copy.

H. Early Manuscripts Brought to Bobbio[299]

While Verona and Vivarium were both active in manuscript production during the sixth century, as we have seen, the other key *scriptorium* of early medieval Italy, Bobbio, was not founded until around 613. Bobbio may have been founded by the Irish monk Columbanus, but from the start it was patronized by the Lombard royal family, beginning with Agilulf and Theodelinda who donated the land. The monastery also enjoyed geographic proximity to the stock of ancient manuscripts that were produced in either Africa or Italy and had never traveled north of the Alps—

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[298] For the year 550, after reporting the African bishops' defense of the Three Chapters: *Eo tempore duodecim libri Facundi Hermianensis ecclesiae episcopi refulsere, quibus evidentissime declaravit tria saepe fata capitula in praescriptione fidei catholicae et apostolicae Calchedonensisque concilii fuisse damnata.* Mommsen, *Victoris Tonnennensis episcopi Chronica.*, p. 202.

[299] *I thank Kevanne Kirkwood for her helpful comments and suggestions concerning all things Bobbio;* K. Kirkwood, University of Pennsylvania, forthcoming dissertation.

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namely, manuscripts from the most important episcopal cities in northern Italy: Milan, Verona, Pavia, and Ravenna. Bobbio thus became a significant center for the transmission of ancient texts, and its surviving manuscripts, now found mainly at Milan, the Vatican, and Turin, are a testament to Bobbio's role in the history of textual transmission.[300]

H. 1. Two Cyprian Manuscripts and Codex k *of the Gospels*

Many manuscripts were copied at Bobbio in the seventh and eighth centuries, and others copied in previous centuries were brought there after its foundation. Many of these early manuscripts were in time discarded and reused, such as Vat. lat. 5757, with Cicero written over in seventh-century uncial with Augustine's *Enarrationes in Psalmos* (CLA I.34-35),[301] but the earlier manuscripts containing patristic texts usually fared better. I have already mentioned briefly a family of Cyprian manuscripts in uncial, possibly written in North Africa in the fourth or fifth century, and "probably at Bobbio from earliest times."[302] This family includes Cyprian's *Epistolae* (Turin, Bibl. naz. univ. F.IV.27, 24 ff. + Milan, Ambros. D. 519.inf., 8 ff. + Vat. lat. 10959, 1 f.: CLA IV.**458), his *De opere et eleemosynis* and *De sacramento calicis* (Turin, Bibl. naz. univ. G.V.37: CLA IV.464), and the related *Codex Bobiensis*

[300] Cf. J. Di Benigno, "Breve storia della biblioteca de Bobbio" in *L'Italia che scrive* 12 (1958): 293-294; C.Cipolla, *Codici Bobbiesi della biblioteca Nazionale Università di Torino*, 2 vols. (Milan 1907).

[301] For more on Cicero palimpsests, see E. Pellegrin, ed., *Les manuscrits classiques latins de la Bibliothèque Vaticane*, vol. 2, pt. 2 (Paris 1982), pp. 19-26; and J. Fohlen, "Recherche sur le manuscrit palimpseste Vatican, Pal. lat. 24" in *Scrittura e civilta* 3 (1979): 195-222.

[302] Lowe, specifically for CLA IV.**458, Turin, Bibl. naz. univ. F.VII.15, the *Codex Bobiensis* (*k*), but by extension for Cyprian MSS as well, if the family shares the same transmission history.

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(*k*) (Turin, Bibl. naz. univ. G.VII.15: CLA IV.465). These manuscripts, though written in different places, share a certain version of the biblical text that was used in Africa before the Vulgate. The *Codex* (*k*) is in fact thought to be African, mostly because the text of the gospels it contains is the same ante-hieronymian version used by Cyprian in the other manuscripts of this family. If these three manuscripts were indeed written in Africa, they most likely traveled to an early Italian center soon afterwards, such as Rome or Naples, and then went to Bobbio in the early seventh century with other Italian manuscripts to stock the library. This is much easier to posit than a line of transmission directly from Africa to Bobbio, especially as late as the seventh century.

H. 2. A Cerealis Text at Bobbio

A second example of a North African manuscript that traveled to Bobbio shortly after its foundation is the exemplar for the *Libellus contra Maximinum* by Cerealis of Castellus Ripa,[303] found in a seventh-century fragmentary manuscript at Turin, Bibl. naz. univ. E.IV.43 (CLA IV.448).[304] This text was once bound in a square-shaped codex with Sedulius' *Carmen paschale* (Turin E.IV.42: CLA IV.447), the Cerealis portion representing only the first two quires (10 ff.). That the manuscript is not included in the tenth-century library catalog of Bobbio[305] is

[303] Cerealis is Chapter 96 in Gennadius and Chapter 11 in the long recension of (Pseudo-)Isidore; refer to Table 1 in Chapter Four.

[304] Examined by SRG, Mar. 24, 2004.

[305] G. Becker, *Catalogi bibliothecarum antiqui* (Bonn 1885), no. 32.

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probably due to the fact that Cerealis' name is not given in the manuscript. This may imply that Cerealis' name was not known in connection to the *Libellus contra Maximinum*, even though Cerealis is described as the author of this text in Chapter 97 of Gennadius' *De viris illustribus*, and Chapter 11 of the African Appendix to Isidore's. The only other pre-Carolingian witness to this text, Fulda, Landesbibl. Bonif. 2 (CLA VIII.1197), was written at Luxeuil or one of its sister monasteries before the year 754.[306] As Bobbio and Luxeuil were both founded by Columbanus, the communications between the two monasteries might be responsible for the same text appearing in both places, though it is not certain that the Turin manuscript was the exemplar of the Luxeuil copy.

H. 3. A Collection of African Sermons at Bobbio

An early collection of sermons attributed to Augustine, though possibly written by other late antique North African writers, found in Turin, Bibl. naz. univ. G.V.26 (CLA IV.463), was written in the sixth century and therefore before Bobbio's foundation.[307] Because of Augustine's status as prolific writer and Church Father, many of the sermons written and circulated in or out of North Africa were simply

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[306] See L.E. Von Padberg and H.-W. Stork, *Der Ragyndrudis-Codex des Hl. Bonifatius* (Fulda-Paderborn: Verlag Parzeller, 1994). Fulda, Landesbibl. Bonif. 2, besides the texts by Cerealis and Ambrose, also contains an anonymous fifth-century African text on the Trinity (CPL 386), called *Testimonia de patre et filio et spiritu sancto*; cf. *Florilegia biblica africana, saec. V*, eds. D. De Bruyne and B. Schwank, CCSL xc (Turnholt 1961), pp. 225-234.

[307] This manuscript is known to have been at Bobbio, though it may have been written at a different center before the founding of St. Colomban's at Bobbio. The half-uncial, in which the codex was written, is rather faded in several places, and a later hand has tried to copy the forms of the letters over the half-uncial in a darker ink. This later hand, however, soon falls into a heavily-ligatured pre-Carolingian minuscule that is probably representative of a Bobbio hand (see, e.g., fol. 5^{v}). Examined by SRG, Mar. 24, 2004.

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attributed to him, and the anti-Arian text *Epistola S. Augustini ad Pascentium* (CPL 366) appearing in the Turin manuscript is an example of this. The authorship of this work is still not entirely clear; Bede and Florus of Lyons, in the eighth and ninth centuries, respectively, both attribute it to Augustine, but it has also been tentatively attributed to Vigilius of Thapse. The most confident, though vague, answer concerning its authorship, is that it was written in Africa in the fifth or sixth century.[308] Turin G.V.26 also contains the *Sermo de symbolo contra Judaeos* (CPL 404), which is introduced in the manuscript as *eiusdem de sinbolo*, the "eius" being Augustine. Modern scholarship, however, attributes this sermon to Quodvultdeus of Carthage. As this manuscript was probably written in the sixth century, these works were misattributed only a century after their original composition in Africa. Either the sermons circulated in Africa without the authors' names, or they were separated from the authors' names while being copied in Italy. Neither Vigilius nor Quodvultdeus appear in a *De viris* list, implying that they were little-known outside Africa in Late Antiquity. Quodvultdeus, however, was at least well-known in Campania in the fifth century, so perhaps the sermon collection was copied in northern Italy; the half-uncial script certainly resembles that of other northern *scriptoria*, such as Verona's. The misattribution of authors may also suggest that the collection, or at least the African texts in it, were copied several times in Italy before being copied into Turin G.V.26. Conversely, other works by Quodvultdeus and

[308] In CPL, the *Altercatio cum Pascentio Ariano* is listed under the name Ps. Augustinus, but in the entry is attributed to Ps. Vigilius, and "saec. v-vi in Africa confecta."

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Vigilius which are now assigned to them circulated under various authors' names in Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages. The sermon collection from Bobbio, in this case, shows how the authorship of some African texts was already unknown in northern Italy within only a century of the composition of those texts.

I. 1. Dracontius in a Bobbio Florilegium

Bobbio certainly received an influx of manuscripts that pre-date its founding in order to stock its early library. Its *scriptoria* soon grew into one of the most active in northern Italy, copying and reusing the manuscripts it could obtain or borrow. An example of an African text that was actually copied at Bobbio is Dracontius' *Romulea* (CPL 1513), also known as the *Carmina minora* and the *Carmina profana.*[309] Blossius Aemilius Dracontius was a poet and scholar at Carthage in the late fifth/early sixth centuries.[310] He was well-educated in both the pagan classics and patristic texts, and was a pupil of the grammarian Felicianus, whom he praised for "[bringing] back to Africa the literature which had fled."[311] At least three copies of this text were known at Bobbio, and then copied into what are now two manuscripts: one at Verona, Bibl. cap. CLXVIII (155), copied in 1329, and one at Naples, Bibl. naz. IV.E.48, copied in the late fifteenth century. The Verona manuscript contains

[309] Crit. eds. of Dracontius: *Dracontius, Œuvres,* vol. III: *La tragédie d'Oreste, Poèmes Profanes I-V*, eds. J. Bouquet and É. Wolff (Paris 1995); *Blosii Aemilii Dracontii carmina*, ed. F. Vollmer, MGH *Auct. ant.* xiv (Berlin 1905), pp. 27-67. Vollmer used the name *Romulea* after the title given to the fragments in Verona CLXVIII (155).

[310] He was also Chapter 24 in Isidore's *De viris illustribus.*

[311] Dracontius, *Romulae*, I, v. 13; P. Riché, *Education and Culture in the Barbarian West from the Sixth through the Eighth Century*, transl. J.J. Contreni (Columbia, SC 1976, repr. 1978), p. 38. Orig. *Éducation et culture dans l'Occident barbare, VIe-VIIIe siècles*, Patristica Sorbonensia 4 (Paris 1962).

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fragments of three of the ten parts that make up the *Romulea*, and attributes two of them to a "Blosus." The Naples manuscript, on the other hand, names Dracontius as the author and is the only manuscript containing the full ten-part version of the poem. Due to multiple variant readings, a common parent can be ruled out for these two manuscripts.

The Naples manuscript was copied from a Bobbio codex of the eleventh or twelfth century, which itself was copied from another Bobbio codex that was written in what a 1461 Bobbio library catalog calls "Lombardic" script.[312] This "Lombardic" manuscript was copied from another Bobbio codex that was written anywhere from the seventh to the ninth century. The "Lombardic" manuscript is furthermore responsible for our knowledge that Dracontius was an African in the Vandal era; the sixteenth-century humanist Tristano Calco,[313] whose teacher obtained the manuscript from Bobbio, used its information in his *Historia patriae*. Isidore, in Chapter 24, does not mention Dracontius' place of origin.[314] The seventh-to-ninth-century manuscript whence the "Lombardic" and, ultimately, the Naples manuscript derive, must therefore be the original source of this information (in Italy, at least). Vollmer, furthermore, considers the order of the ten poems that make up the *Carmina profana* in the Naples manuscript to represent the order of the poems as Dracontius himself had them. The original Bobbio copy of the *Carmina* from the seventh, eighth, or

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[312] Bouquet and Wolff, *Dracontius, Œuvres*, p.75.

[313] See *Dizionario biografico degli italiani* (Rome 1960-), vol. 16, pp. 537-41.

[314] Codoñer-Merino, *El "De viris illustribus,"* p. 146: *Dracontius composuit heroicis versibus Hexameron creationis mundi, et luculente quidem compositeque scripsit.*

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ninth century must have therefore not been far removed from the exemplar that left Africa in the sixth century. As Columbanus himself is thought to have read Dracontius, the exemplar of the lost "Lombardic" manuscript may very well have been at Bobbio from its earliest days. Furthermore, although the Verona *florilegium* does represent variant readings, it may have been copied from a Bobbio exemplar, though not, of course, the direct parent of the Naples manuscript.[315] If so, this is a testament to contacts between Bobbio and Verona, and possible sharing of manuscripts between these two northern Italian textual centers, a sharing made more significant when considering that many African texts were transmitted through one or both of these centers.

I. 2. Corippus in the Verona Florilegium

The Verona *florilegium* that contains pieces of Dracontius' *Carmina profana* also contains pieces of the *Iohannis* (CPL 1515), one of two extant poems by Corippus, an African schoolteacher in the mid-sixth century.[316] Corippus traveled to Carthage from the provinces soon after the Byzantine liberation of the city in c. 548 to recite this poem, written in honor of the Byzantine general Iohannes Troglita. In the following years, when faced with financial difficulty, he went to Constantinople, where he wrote his other surviving poem, *In laudem Iustini* (CPL 1516), in the 560s. Whereas the later poem, *In laudem*, depends completely on transmission through

[315] Bouquet and Wolff, *Dracontius, Œuvres*, p. 78, follow Vollmer in this hypothesis.

[316] Crit. ed.: Corippus, *Flavius Cresconius Corippus. In laudem Iustini Augusti minoris, libri iv*, ed. A. Cameron (London 1976), pp. 1-12, for biographical information.

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Spain, the *Iohannis* is found in two Italian manuscripts of the fourteenth century: Milan, Bibl. Trivulziana 686[317] and the Verona *florilegium* from 1329 discussed above, Verona, Bibl. cap. CLXVIII (155). The manuscript at Milan was copied by the scholar Giovanni de Bonis, who left out a bifolium, thereby creating a lacuna in the text. This lacuna can be largely filled in from the pieces of the *Iohannis* found in the Verona *florilegium*. If the Trivulziana 686 is from the area of Milan, perhaps the Corippus poem came from an exemplar written in northern Italy, such as Bobbio or Ravenna. The Verona *florilegium* was probably copied in part from an exemplar written at Bobbio, or written at another northern Italian library and brought to Bobbio, perhaps by Columbanus. Venantius Fortunatus, who was familiar with this poem only a few decades after its composition, may have first read it when he was a student at Ravenna. The poem could have reached Bobbio from Ravenna or Milan, if indeed both manuscripts are based on a version of the text that was at Bobbio. The manuscripts nevertheless suggest a late antique familiarity with Corippus accompanying that with Dracontius in northern Italy.

J. The Latin Anthology

The evidence of Dracontius and Corippus reveals an interest in sixth-century North African poetry in Italy. This interest is also suggested by Paris, B.N. lat. 10318 (CLA V.593), an eighth-century manuscript from central Italy containing a collection

[317] C. Santoro, *I codici medioevali della Biblioteca Trivulziana* (Milan 1965), pp. 153-154, no. 251.

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of poetry known as the *Anthologia latina*, or the Latin Anthology.[318] This Anthology, "the only extant anthology of Latin poetry made in ancient times,"[319] is the major manifestation of what some scholars have come to call the "Vandal renaissance."[320] Writers like Dracontius, Felicianus, Faustus, Luxorius, Coronatus, Cato, Chalcidius, and Pompeius Maurus represent the wide circle of poets, authors, and grammarians whose works are usually used to support the idea of a literary renaissance under the Vandal kings in the late fifth/early sixth century, particularly Thrasamund (496-523). Many of these writers and teachers left no textual witnesses, and others, such as Luxorius, left witnesses that are found only as part of the Latin Anthology.[321] The Latin Anthology shows that Africa in the sixth century was recognized as a place in which to find an active community of poets and scholars.

The earliest extant manuscript of the Latin Anthology, Paris 10318 called the Codex Salmasianus, dates from the second half of the eighth century, and was written in an unknown location in central Italy.[322] This provenance has only recently been

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[318] For manuscript history, see R.J. Tarrant, "*Anthologia latina*" in L.D. Reynolds, ed., *Texts and Transmission* (Oxford 1983), pp. 9-13; Crit. eds.: A. Riese, *Anthologia latina sive poesis latinae supplementum*, 2 vols., fasc. 1: *Libri Salmasiani aliorumque carmina* (Leipzig 1869, 2nd ed. 1894); and D.R. Shackleton Bailey, ed., *Anthologia Latina* 1.1 (Stuttgart 1982).

[319] Rosenblum, *Luxorius*, p. 27.

[320] Rosenblum, *op. cit.*, pp. 25-28. *Contra*, Riché, *Éducation et culture*, pp. 55-56.

[321] Besides Luxorius, the "others" are Avitus, Bonosus, Calbulus, Cato, Coronatus, Felix, Florentinus, Lindinus, Modestinus, Octavianus, Ponnanus, Regianus, Tuccianus, and Vincentinus (to adopt the alphabetical order used by Rosenblum, pp. 25-26). Little is known about Luxorius either inside or outside of the Anthology; see *ibid.*, chapter III for information on the poet.

[322] It is written in a late, heavily-serifed uncial, and some initials display Insular influence (such as red surrounding dots). For MS description, see E. Baehrens, *Poetae latini minores*, 5 vols. (Leipzig 1879-83, 1910-23, 1930); H. Omont, *Anthologie de poètes dite de Saumaise* (Paris 1903); M. Spallone, "Il

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put forth with confidence; many scholars remain undecided on its Italian origin.[323] It is apparently not a direct representation of the African archetype, since it combines the Anthology, which it names the *Libri Epigrammaton*, with non-African poems and texts.[324] As Baehrens believed that the Anthology left Africa soon after the fall of the Vandal kingdom to the Byzantines in 534, the text of the archetype may have circulated in southern Europe for over two hundred years before being copied into the Codex Salmasianus.[325] A manuscript containing some of the same texts as the Codex Salmasianus, including the poems of Luxorius, is Paris, B.N. lat. 8071, written in central Gaul in the ninth century. Paris 8071 was not copied from Paris 10318, though the two manuscripts may have had the same, distant exemplar. Though vague, this may imply a compilation of poems in late antique southern Gaul, that was formed by adding the collection of African poems that traveled through sixth-century Italy. None of the scholars who have examined the Codex Salmasianus seem to trace its origins back further than the hypothetical parent of both the Salmasianus and Paris 8071. We have already seen African poetry (Dracontius, Corippus) travel directly to Italy. Perhaps Venantius Fortunatus, who was familiar with the Latin Anthology, first read this poetry collection in Ravenna, and then brought it to Gaul in the second half of the sixth century. If the Anthology did leave Africa soon after the Byzantine

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Par. Lat. 10318 (Salmasiano): Dal manoscritto alto-medievale ad una raccolta enciclopedica tardo-antica" in *Italia medioevale e umanistica* 25 (1982): 1-71; and Rosenblum, *Luxorius*, pp. 97-101

[323] G. Hays, "'*Romuleis Libicisque Litteris*,'" p. 110 states "from central Italy" with confidence, citing Spallone, "Il Par. Lat. 10318 (Salmasiano)."

[324] Tarrant, "*Anthologia latina*," p. 9, warns that *Libri epigrammaton* is only a colophon from places in the MS, and not necessarily the title given to the work.

[325] Rosenblum, *op. cit.*, pp. 32, 98-99.

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reconquest of 534, then its transmission to Ravenna, the Byzantine western capital, seems a distinct possibility.

K. The Dissemination of the Donatist Compendium in Italy

Whereas the Latin Anthology is a collection of North African poetry, the Donatist Compendium is a collection of North African texts for biblical study.[326] The Compendium is a collection of eleven texts attributed to early fifth-century North Africa, which exists in two extant manuscripts: St. Gall, Stiftsbibl. 133 (CLA VII.911), written at St. Gall in the late eighth or early ninth century, and Rome, Bibl. Naz. Centrale Vitt. Eman. II, 1325, written at Nonantola in the tenth or early eleventh century. Although these are the only surviving manuscripts that contain the entire collection of texts, individual texts in the Compendium are found in other manuscripts, such as the African *Liber genealogus* (CPL 2254) in Turin, Archivio di Stato, J.b.II.27, which, dating from the seventh century, is the oldest surviving manuscript of the *Liber genealogus*. Although the oldest manuscript, it does not necessarily represent the oldest recension of this text. The oldest dated recension of the *Liber genealogus* is found in the two manuscripts that contain the whole Compendium, St. Gall 133 and Rome, Vitt. Eman. 1325. The "whole" Compendium found in these two manuscripts includes the following eleven works, all written in North Africa[327]: 1) *Liber genealogus*, 2) *Prophetiae ex omnibus libris collectae* (CPL

[326] Rouse and McNelis, "North African Literary Activity," pp. 211 ff.

[327] Rouse and McNelis, *op. cit.*, pp. 212-218.

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84), 3) *Virtutes Heliae et Helisaei* (CPL 1155e), 4) *Inventiones nominum* (CPL 1155d), 5) *Liber generationis* (CPL 2253), 6) "Interpretations of Hebrew Names," 7) a second "Interpretations of Hebrew Names," 8) *Indiculum veteris et novi testamenti; Indiculum Caecilii Cypriani*,[328] 9) a third "Interpretations of Hebrew Names," 10) *Nomina locorum et interpretatio nominum de hebreo in latinum*, and 11) a fourth "Interpretations of Hebrew Names."

The recension of the *Liber genealogus* found in St. Gall 133 and Rome, Vitt. Eman. 1325 dates to 427 and provides a *terminus post quem* for the transmission of the Compendium as a whole out of Africa.[329] Despite their similarities, these two manuscripts differ enough in the versions of their texts to preclude the one being copied from the other, or even a common parent for both. In their article, Richard Rouse and Charles McNelis believe that, while the two descend from the same archetype, they had already separated into two families of texts before leaving Africa.[330] Precisely when these two families left Africa is uncertain, but this almost surely occurred between 427 and 697, the fall of Carthage to the Muslim armies. This means that we must account for two separate paths of the Compendium out of Africa: one that terminates at St. Gall on Lake Constance, and one that ends at Nonantola in northern Italy.

Rouse and McNelis present a number of possible routes of transmission, focusing on Verona, Bobbio, and Monte Cassino as intermediate points of

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[328] This text refers to the stichometry lists mentioned in Chapter One, section B.

[329] Rouse and McNelis, "North African Literary Activity," pp. 219-224.

[330] Rouse and McNelis, *op. cit.*, p. 226.

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transmission between Africa and St. Gall or Nonantola. These are natural choices, owing to the importance of their libraries in the fifth, sixth, and (for Bobbio) seventh centuries. The contents of the late antique library of Monte Cassino is unfortunately indeterminate, due to the Lombard destruction of the abbey in 577, but the significant presence of African texts at Verona and Bobbio has already been demonstrated. The seventh-century manuscript of the *Liber genealogus* mentioned above, Turin, Archivio di Stato, J.b.II.27, furthermore, was most likely written at Bobbio.[331] It contains a different version of the *Liber genealogus* than in the St. Gall and Nonantola manuscripts, but it may have followed similar routes out of Africa as the 427 recension. Turin, Archivio de Stato, J.b.II.27 also contains these other African texts: Lactantius, *De opificio Dei* (CPL 87) and *Epitome divinarum institutionum* (CPL 86); Quintus Julius Hilarianus, *De ratione paschae et mentis* (CPL 2279); and Augustine, *Sermo ad Caesareensis ecclesiae plebem Emerito presente habitus* (CPL 284; *sermo* 339). The Compendium could have reached St. Gall or Nonantola from one of the late antique Italian *scriptoria* in several ways. When Egino, Bishop of Verona from 796 to 799, retired, for instance, he went (with books) to Reichenau on Lake Constance, which was not only geographically close to St. Gall, but also shared with St. Gall the abbots John II and Waldo in the mid-to-late eighth century, around the time that St. Gall 133 was written. The Compendium may have also reached St. Gall from Bobbio, since the two centers were connected in the eighth century through their "Irish roots" and, in the ninth century, through their participation in the same

[331] Examined by SRG, Mar. 24, 2004.

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prayer confraternity. If the Compendium were at Monte Cassino, moreover, it could have reached Nonantola with Anselm (d.804), the founder of Nonantola, who, due to troubles with the Lombard king Desiderius, fled to Monte Cassino around 760 and returned about seven years later.[332]

In addition to the routes by which the Donatist Compendium traveled to Italy, Rouse and McNelis show that the Compendium was also disseminated through Visigothic Spain, which will be discussed in greater detail below. Neither St. Gall 133 nor Rome, Vitt. Eman. 1325, however, bear Visigothic features, suggesting that their exemplars were written in Spain.[333] The Compendium may have been transmitted directly to Italy from North Africa during Late Antiquity, as explored above, but the possibility remains that the Compendium came to Italy via Spain. We will now turn to the Spanish transmission of African texts, beginning with an examination of the Compendium and its individual texts found in Spanish manuscripts.

III. TRANSMISSION THROUGH SPAIN

A. Introduction

The Donatist Compendium is also an example of the importance of early Spanish exemplars for the dissemination of late antique North African texts. Many of the texts included in the Compendium, such as the *Liber genealogus* and the *Liber*

[332] Rouse and McNelis, "North African Literary Activity," pp. 230-231.

[333] *Ibid.*

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generationis, passed directly to Spain from North Africa, as opposed to the recensions of the texts that traveled straight to Italy. These examples will be discussed after a brief introduction to the knowledge of North African texts found in late antique Spain. These texts reached Spain through administrative contact with Mauretania, and personal contact among Christian elites of the fourth and fifth centuries. For example, Orosius of Braga (d. after 414) moved to Africa in 414 and joined Augustine's circle of friends; three years later (presumably in Africa) he wrote the *Historiarum adversum paganos* (CPL 571) "at Augustine's suggestion."[334] Texts were also brought by immigrants from Africa during the Vandal persecutions of the fifth century and the incursions of Berber tribes in the mid-sixth century.[335] Donatus brought a group refugees with books to the shores of Valencia, but the most important libraries of late antique Spain were at Seville and Toledo.

Isidore, in early seventh-century Seville, was familiar with the names of seven African authors whom he deemed *illustres*: Possidius, Pomerius, Primasius, Fulgentius, Facundus, Dracontius, and Victor of Tonnenna. He may not have personally read each of the works that he attributes to these authors, but at least some of these works must have been present in his library before the composition of his *De viris illustribus*. The names of the four Africans in the "African Appendix" in the long recension of Isidore's *De viris*—Macrobius, Verecundus, Cerealis, and

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[334] R. McKitterick, "The audience for Latin historiography in the early midde ages: text transmission and manuscript dissemination" in A. Scharer and G. Scheibelreiter, eds., *Historiographie im frühen Mittelalter*, Veröffentlichungen des Instituts für Österreichische Geschichtsforschung 32 (Vienna 1994), pp. 96-113, at p. 112.

[335] Fontaine, *Isidore de Séville*, vol. II, pp. 854ff.

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Ferrandus—may not have been known to Isidore, but were certainly familiar to the compiler of the long recension, thought to be Peter of Lérida in the seventh century.

Fontaine also suggests that Isidore's knowledge of the *trivium* points to familiarity with texts of Martianus Capella and the grammarian Pompeius Maurus.[336] He also knew an African manual concerning the theory of contraries that came from the same milieu in Africa as Martianus Capella and Julianus Pomerius.[337] The fondness of poetry at the court of King Chindasuinth encouraged the circulation of the African poets Dracontius, Corippus, and Verecundus. Isidore's faithful adherence to Cassiodorus' *Institutes* may explain his familiarity with the existence of many of these authors. Even if the names of some African authors and texts were indeed recommended to Isidore by Cassiodorus, most of the African texts in Spain came directly from Africa. Fontaine emphasizes that Africa was more important as a source of texts for late antique Spain that either Gaul or Italy, neither of which was as close in contact with Spain as was Africa during that period. Fontaine refers to this constant contact between Spain and Africa "l'axe Séville-Carthage."[338]

For example, Isidore wrote a short text called the *De ortu et obitu patrum* (CPL 1191), which was based on Latin translations of two Greek works, the *Libellus*

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[336] Fontaine, *op. cit.*, p. 875.

[337] Fontaine, *op. cit.*, p. 644.

[338] Fontaine, *op. cit.*, p. 857.

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sancti Epiphanii and the *De ortu et obitu prophetarum et apostolorum.*[339] The original Latin translation of this second work, probably composed in the fifth century, may have been made in North Africa, and traveled, in one of its two branches of dissemination, to Spain[340]—specifically, to Isidore's library at Seville.

The library at Toledo was the destination for works from North Africa, such as the chronicle of Victor of Tonnenna, which was continued by Julian of Toledo in the late seventh century, as we have already seen in Chapter Four. Eugenius was another Bishop of Toledo who built upon works that came from North Africa; his reworking of a poem by Dracontius will be examined in detail below, after revisiting the example of the Donatist Compendium.

B. The Transmission of the Donatist Compendium through Spain

The collection of the eleven texts in the Donatist Compendium, including the earliest dated recension of the *Liber genealogus* (427), may have gone straight to Italy from Africa, but many of the eleven works it contains are found independently in Spanish manuscripts. The two later recensions of the first work in the Compendium, the *Liber genealogus*, dating to 438 and 455, certainly traveled to late antique Spain directly from Africa. A lost manuscript representing a 438 recension, for example, is recorded in an Oviedo library catalog of the tenth century preserved in a catalog

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[339] F. Dolbeau, "Deux opuscules latins, relatifs aux personnages do la Bible et antérieurs à Isidore de Séville" in *RHT* 16 (1986): 83-139. See also *id.*, "'De vita et obitu prophetarum': une traduction médiolatine des vies grecques des prophètes" in *RB* 100 (1990): 507-531.

[340] There are seven manuscript witnesses to the *Doopa*; the stemma split into two brances by the ninth century. *Id.*, "Nouvelles recherches sur le *De ortu et obitu prophetarum et apostolorum*" in *Augustinianum* 34 (1994): 91-107.

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compiled by Pelagius of Oviedo in the twelfth.[341] The only extant manuscript of the text of the last recension (455) was written at Lucca in Tuscany in the eighth or ninth century, and was quite probably copied directly from an ancient exemplar, as the framed picture of Christ as the good shepherd and antiquated uncial on the title page of the *Liber genealogus* suggests. Lucca, Bibl. cap. 490 contains several Spanish texts (such as Isidore's *Chronica*), suggesting that the direct parent of this manuscript came from Spain to Italy in the seventh or eighth century.[342] The city and cathedral of Lucca were generously endowed during the late eighth and early ninth centuries under the Carolingians[343]; this was probably also an active period for the *scriptorium* at the cathedral chapter library as well.

The 427 recension, which is the oldest recension and has already been shown to have traveled to Italy, may not be found in any Spanish manuscripts, but it left its trace in Spain nonetheless. This recension has been shown by Yolanta Załuska to have provided the text for certain genealogical tables of Spanish origin.[344] These tables, which depict biblical genealogies in the form of medallions, use the biblical text found in the African version of the pre-Vulgate bible. They are found in tenth-century bibles from the Iberian peninsula, and in manuscripts of the commentary on

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[341] Pelagius, [*Incipit genealogiae totius bibliothecae ex omnibus libris veteris novique testamenti descriptum*], ed. M. Risco, *España Sagrada* 38 (1793), p. 367.

[342] For a discussion of this MS, see L. Schiaparelli, *Il codice 490 della Biblioteca capitolare di Lucca e la Scuola scrittoria Lucchese (sec. VIII-IX)*, Studi e Testi 36 (Rome 1924).

[343] N. Christie, *The Lombards: The Ancient Longobards* (Oxford 1995), p. 149.

[344] Y. Załuska, "Entre texte et image: les stemmata bibliques au Sud et ae Nord des Pyrénées" in *Bulletin de la Société nationale des Antiquaires de France* (Paris 1986): 142-152, especially pp. 142, 143, and 145. See discussion in Rouse and McNelis, "North African Literary Activity," pp. 227-228.

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the Apocalypse by Beatus of Liébana.[345] Even though the recension of the *Liber genealogus* written in 427 is not found in extant manuscripts pointing to a late antique Spanish exemplar, such an exemplar can be implied from the subsequent use of the text in later Spanish manuscripts. Beatus of Liébana's Apocalypse commentary and the biblical genealogical tables both used the specific form of biblical genealogy found in the 427 *Liber genealogus*, suggesting that the text traveled to Spain by the late eighth century. Though the recensions of the *Liber genealogus* from 427, 438, and 455 cannot be shown to have reached Spain in the fifth or sixth century, such an early dissemination may be possible, considering that the sixth century was a time during which many other African texts were actively read in the library of Seville or Toledo.

Another of the works included in the Compendium is the *Liber generationis*,[346] a list of the generations descended from Noah, which appears with the *Liber genealogus* in three manuscripts: the St. Gall and Nonantola manuscripts mentioned above, and Berlin, Deutsche Staatsbibl. Phillipps 1829 (Rose 127), a manuscript that was at Trier in the tenth century, but which has recently been attributed to the ninth-century *scriptorium* of Verona.[347] The text of the *Liber generationis* in Berlin, Phillipps 1829, however, is from a separate family from the

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[345] Załuska, "Entre texte et image," p. 143. For Beatus of Liébana, she cites Neuss, *Die Apokalypse*, pp. 119-125.

[346] *Liber generationis*, ed. T. Mommsen, MGH *Auct. ant.* ix, 1 (Berlin 1892), pp. 78-140.

[347] According to R. Burgess, who is preparing the edition for the Liber generationis (Ottowa). Cf. Rouse and McNelis, "North African Literary Activity," pp. 211, 215.

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that of the St. Gall and Nonantola manuscripts. The particular recension of the text found in the Berlin manuscript also appears in Paris, B.N. lat. 10910 (CLA V.608), written most likely in Burgundy before 715.[348] The archetype of this recension, unlike the one that was written in North Africa, was supposedly written in Spain, whence it traveled to Verona by the ninth century and was copied into Berlin Phillipps 1829. The Berlin manuscript may date to the time when Pacificus was active in the *scriptorium* at Verona.

C. The Visigothic Transmission of the poet Dracontius

As is apparent from the example of the Donatist Compendium, many of the same texts traveled out of Africa via two branches of dissemination—one through Spain, and one through Italy, which is natural when considering the geographical proximity of these destinations. The poems of Dracontius, for instance, were known independently in Spain and Italy. The knowledge of Dracontius at Bobbio and Verona has been discussed above; the knowledge of Dracontius' *De laudibus dei* (CPL 1509) in Spain is another interesting case.[349] Dracontius was the subject of Chapter 24 in the original, shorter recension of Isidore's *De viris illustribus* for having written one specific work that Isidore calls the *Hexameron creationis mundi*,

[348] According to Lowe, CLA, V.608.

[349] Crit. ed.: *Dracontius, Œuvres,* vols. I-II: *Louanges de Dieu*, eds. C. Moussy and C. Camus (Paris 1985).

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which is Book One of the *De laudibus dei*.[350] Isidore presumably knew this work through a *florilegium*.[351] Dracontius wrote the *De laudibus dei*, as well as a shorter work called the *Satisfactio* (CPL 1511), while he was in prison for having offended the Vandal King Gunthamund (r. 484-496) by praising an opponent of the Vandal Asding dynasty.[352]

Dracontius also appears in the *De viris* of Ildefonsus of Toledo, not through his own merit, but because his works were edited in the mid-seventh century by Eugenius II, Bishop of Toledo (CPL 1510, 1512). This work was commissioned from the bishop by the Visigothic King Chindasuinth (r. 641-652), revealing the popularity of African poetry in Spain in the seventh century.[353] Eugenius was an author in his own right, whose work on the subject of the Trinity "would have been dispatched to Africa and the East," had not a storm deterred the journey.[354] The flow of books and people to Spain from Africa went in the opposite direction as well, suggesting that Africa (specifically Africa Proconsularis) was a conventional stop-over point for

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[350] Thought by some (e.g. Fear) to be originally from Campania, others (e.g. Moussy) maintain he was African-born. Fear, *Lives of the Visigothic Fathers*, p. 120 n. 59.

[351] Moussy and Camus, *Dracontius, Œuvres*, p. 65.

[352] This opponent was likely the Visigothic King Odoacer or the Ostrogothic king Theodoric, who was moving into Sicily, contesting Vandal territory. Cf. Courtois, *Les Vandales*, p. 288. Dracontius was later released by Gunthamund's successor Thrasamund, who fostered literary interest at his court. See also A.H. Merrills, "The Perils of Panegyric: The Lost Poem of Dracontius and Its Consequences" in *id.*, *Vandals, Romans and Berbers*, pp. 145-162.

[353] Fontaine, *Isidore de Seville*, p. 856.

[354] Fear, *op. cit.*, p. 119.

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communications and cargo between Spain and the East.[355] The only works of Dracontius known to Eugenius, however, were Book One of the *De laudibus Dei* and the *Satisfactio*, the same works known to Isidore. Ildefonsus writes that Eugenius

> took the works of Dracontius concerning the creation of the world, which antiquity had handed down to us in a corrupt fashion and finding the errors in them by removing these or correcting them or adding improvements, brought them into an acceptable form, so that their beauties seem to be due more to the skill of their correction than the hand of the original author. Since Dracontius appears to have left the work half-finished as he is altogether silent about the seventh day, Eugen[ius] added a summary of the six days in six individual lines of verse and then added an elegant discussion of what seemed appropriate to him concerning the seventh day.[356]

The work concerning the creation is the first book of the three-book *De laudibus Dei*, which was not universally known by that name. Isidore referred to it as the *Hexameron creationis mundi*, which, seen only as the first book in isolation, makes sense, because this text seems to have arrived from Africa either in fragments (hence the need for Eugenius' re-working) or in a *florilegium*.[357] That only the first book was known in Spain is evident from the fact that Ildefonsus calls the work "half-finished." Ildefonsus himself was probably familiar with Eugenius' revised edition, since he repeats Eugenius' words about correcting and adding that Eugenius wrote in his preface and accompanying letter to Chindasuinth. The Eugenian edition, in fact, was the sole source for these two works of Dracontius for scholars until Federico

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[355] Travelers from the East, for instance, stopped in Africa before moving on to Italy: cf. McCormick, *Origins of the European Economy*, p. 28, and cf. Chapter One.

[356] Fear, *Lives of the Visigothic Fathers*, p. 120.

[357] Moussy and Camus, *Dracontius, Œuvres*, p. 105; Vollmer, *Blosii Aemilii Dracontii carmina*, pp. xvii-xviii ; D. Romano, *Studi Draconziani* (Palermo 1959).

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Arevalo traced an alternate (and more complete) manuscript tradition in the late eighteenth century.

Arevalo's manuscript stemma includes branches of manuscript families that are independent of the text of the *De laudibus* known in Spain, including one that went to France. The Eugenian edition was also known in France by the eighth century, when Alcuin and Theodulf were using it at the Carolingian court. In Spain, the Eugenian edition was the main source of knowledge of the *De laudibus*, known to Julian and Ildefonsus, successors to Eugenius in the see of Toledo. Isidore and the Visigothic king Sisebut (r. 612-620),[358] on the other hand, predeceased this version, and therefore relied on non-emended texts that either came from Africa themselves or were, potentially, a century removed from those that did. Given that Isidore's knowledge of Dracontius is of the same extent as Eugenius', Isidore may have been using the same manuscripts of Dracontius in Seville that Eugenius later 'improved' in Toledo.

A partial text of the *De laudibus*, which Isidore called the *Hexameron*, and a text of the *Satisfactio*, therefore traveled to Spain from Carthage between the years 484 (the beginning of Gunthamund's reign)[359] and 620 (the death of Sisebut). However, the stemmata for the works of Dracontius are by no means secure. The transmission of the *De laudibus Dei*, for example, was, according to Vollmer, entirely through a Spanish exemplar, although Moussy agrees with Corsaro that the Spanish

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[358] Manitius, *Geschichte der Litteratur*, p. 187. For Julian, see Chapter Four, section IV. B.

[359] Romano, *Studi Draconziana*, gives the composition dates for the two works as follows: 484-490 for the *Satisfactio*, and 490-496 for the *De laudibus*.

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exemplar was only one of two branches descending from the original African text.[360] Vollmer's stemma would have the *De laudibus* and the *Satisfactio* fragmented after arriving in Spain, meaning that Isidore and Eugenius were not using the most complete texts that were available, whereas Moussy's stemma would have the two bishops using a *florilegium* that had broken up the two works before their arrival in Spain. A non-Visigothic branch of transmission is also attested from a lost Lobbes manuscript, based on a text that perhaps went directly from Africa to Gaul.[361]

Conjecturing a *florilegium* that eventually made its way to Spain means it was most likely written in Africa, possibly by someone associated with Fulgentius or Corippus who was familiar with at least the *De laudibus* and *Satisfactio*. It must have been a relatively well-known work, for the King of the Visigoths to request it specifically a century later, and then for its transmission from Spain to England, where Aldhelm read it in the later seventh century. What is surprising is not that Dracontius was known in late antique Spain—since the *De viris* of both Isidore and Ildefonsus reveal that the Visigothic court was an eager audience for African poetry—but rather that Spain only seemed to have a fragment of his œuvre.

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[360] Vollmer posits the *exemplar Hispanum* because of Visigothic traces in three manuscripts (B A C). Moussy disagrees with Corsaro that the exemplar for two different manuscripts (*Eug.* and G) was written in Gaul before traveling to Spain. F. Corsaro, *Problemi storico-letterari del cristianesimo africano nel V° secolo, Studi su Draconzio* (Catania 1951).

[361] For pictures of stemma, cf. Vollmer, *Blosii Aemilii Dracontii carmina*, pp. xxii, xxviii; for a more recent stemma, cf. Moussy and Camus, *Dracontius, Œuvres*, pp. 130-131. Neither, of course, include the independent Lobbes manuscript; cf. Dolbeau, "Sur un manuscrit perdu de Dracontius" in *Latomus* 48 (1989): 416-423, esp. pp. 418-419.

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D. Corippus' In laudem Justini *in Tenth-Century Oviedo*

The *In laudem Iustini* of Corippus, written as a panegyric to the Byzantine emperor Justin II (r. 565-578) half a century later than the poems of Dracontius, exemplifies the continuation of literary activity in Africa after the Byzantine reconquest. This poem, like his *Johannis*, mentioned above, owes its transmission to a single extant manuscript; for the *Johannis*, that manuscript is Italian, but for the *In laudem Iustini*, the manuscript was written in tenth-century Oviedo. Fragments of the poem appear in five other manuscript of Spanish origin, representing an alternate textual family, but Madrid, Bibl. nac. 10029 is the only witness to the poem in its entirety.[362] Madrid 10029 has already been discussed in the previous chapter as an important witness to the transmission of Verecundus, and above as a witness to the recension of Dracontius by Eugenius of Toledo. This manuscript thus illustrates how African poetry became part of Spanish poetry collections in the early Middle Ages. Corippus may have written and performed the latter poem in Constantinople, as Averil Cameron believes, but the poem was meant for western audiences and therefore was probably circulated in Carthage before passing to Spain.[363]

The *In laudem Iustini* appears in the library catalog compiled by Pelagius of Oviedo in twelfth century. Founded by the Visigothic king Fruela in the mid-eighth century, Oviedo welcomed many refugees from the Saracen takeover of the lower

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[362] *Inventario general de manuscritos de la Biblioteca Nacional*, vol. xiv: 9501-10200 (Madrid 2000), pp. 300-301.

[363] Cameron, *Flavius Cresconius Corippus*, pp. 4-5.

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peninsula, and enjoyed metropolitan status from 869 until it was exempted by the pope in 1105, during the episcopacy of Pelagius. The riches of its library can be ascribed to its elevated status, its possession of the Sudarium,[364] and its site on the pilgrimate route across northern Spain to St. James at Compostela. We have already seen how the Eugenian recension of Dracontius came from Africa to Spain through Toledo (before coming to Oviedo); the poems of Verecundus and Corippus could also have reached Oviedo in a similar manner, there to be incorporated into the tenth-century collection of Spanish poetry that is Madrid 10029.[365]

The *In laudem Iustini* of Corippus and the *De laudibus dei* and *Satisfatio* of Dracontius are thus three African poems that arrived in Spain in Late Antiquity and were largely disseminated from Spain during the Middle Ages. These poets were not known entirely through Spain, however, as attested by the *Romulea* of Dracontius and *Iohannis* of Corippus in the Verona *florilegium* of 1329 that was based on late antique texts at Bobbio. These two poets were known to writers in Gaul before the eighth century, though that knowledge passed to Gaul from Spain or Italy, in most cases. The next part of the chapter will look at texts that seem to have traveled directly to Gaul from Africa, and, in cases where a direct route is inapplicable, at texts that traveled to Gaul after having been copied in Italy or Spain from North African manuscripts.

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[364] This relic has been mentioned in Chapter Three, section III. B.

[365] Cameron, *Flavius Cresconius Corippus*, pp. 20-24.

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IV. TRANSMISSION THROUGH LATE ANTIQUE GAUL

A. Introduction

The most heavily Romanized portions of what is today France consisted mainly of the southern Gallic provinces in the late empire and during Late Antiquity. After the adoption of Christianity among the aristocratic elite of Gaul in the fourth century, the most important monastic and ecclesiastical centers were located along the Loire and Rhône Valleys in central and southern Gaul. Looking more towards the Mediterranean in Late Antiquity, southern Gaul was an active part of the same ecclesiastical, economic, and cultural world that also comprised late antique North Africa. We have already seen in Chapter Three how Gregory of Tours included in his *Historia Francorum* a letter from Eugenius of Carthage, who was an exile at Albi in southern Gaul in the late fifth and early sixth century.

Contact between Carthage and Arles followed a well-worn route across the late antique Mediterranean, as seen in the passage of the conciliar *acta* of the Council of Carthage 411 to Arles in the early fifth century. Located at the mouth of the Rhône, Arles was an early metropolitan see, and was on the route for all transportation up the Rhône Valley to the episcopal city of Lyons. The importance of Arles and the Rhône Valley in the transmission of conciliar material is furthermore illustrated by the history of the earliest extant manuscript of Ferrandus' *Breviatio canonum*, a compendium of canonistic texts: Paris, B.N. lat. 12097 (CLA V.619) was most likely written, according to Lowe, in one of the Rhône Valley centers in the

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sixth century. Africans who traveled to Arles include Julianus Pomerius, who became a priest and Caesarius' teacher at Arles in the late fifth century, where he wrote his *De vita contemplativa*. In Chapter 12 of Isidore's *De viris*, Pomerius is not even described as being of African origin, thus showing the total integration that was still possible for the Christian elite in Mediterranean Europe of Isidore's day.

Caesarius of Arles was acquainted with an African text that may have been introduced to him by his teacher Julianus Pomerius, who may have brought it with him from Africa. The *Contra Varimadum* (CPL 364), sometimes attributed to Vigilius of Thapse, was, according to Schwank's introduction to the critical edition, written in the mid-fifth century by an anonymous African probably in exile in Campania.[366] The text, however, was disseminated along two routes: one through Caesarius, and one through an anonymous Spanish corrector in the sixth or seventh century, and both of these branches cast doubt on the idea that the text was composed in Campania. Even if Pomerius were not responsible for bringing the text to Arles, Caesarius can have obtained it through other contact with Africa; correspondence or contact with African exiles in the cities of coastal Gaul or the Rhône Valley are both possibilities, though, unfortunately, completely unattested.

Venantius Fortunatus (d. c. 606) is another example of this Christian elite class. Born in Treviso in Italy, he studied law at Ravenna, until he was inspired to make a pilgrimage to Tours c. 565. He stayed in Gaul, became advisor to Queen Radegund, and Bishop of Poitiers near the end of his life. He may have brought

[366] Schwank, *Florilegia biblica africana*, pp. vii-viii.

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many books with him from Italy to Gaul; for example, he was one of the first in Gaul to be familiar with several African texts, such as the *Romulea* of Dracontius and the Latin Anthology.[367]

The manuscripts that will be examined are those that contain North African texts and can be traced to late antique centers in Gaul. We can draw the same observations from these Gallic manuscripts as from the examples from the Italian and Spanish sections—namely, the places where African texts first reached the European continent during the fifth and sixth centuries. The examples for Gaul, however, are considerably less numerous than those for Italy and Spain. The ecclesiastical and monastic libraries of Gaul become more significant for the transmission of African texts after the establishment of monasteries such as Fleury and Corbie in the north, founded by a combination of Insular missionary activity and Frankish royal patronage. Because Gaul experiences this second stage in the movement of late antique manuscripts that brings an influx of manuscripts primarily from Italy, the monastic library of Fleury will be examined as an example of the second stage of transmission of African texts. Although such an examination cannot show where African texts arrived in Europe, it can show how African texts were taken out of the late antique southern sphere, so to speak, of Africa and Italy, and brought into the northern sphere (i.e., north of the Alps) that dominated the manuscript production of the Carolingian renewal.

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[367] Manitius, *Geschichte der Litteratur*, p. 178.

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The Carolingian revival of education in the second half of the eighth and the ninth centuries was a primary factor in this increased manuscript production. African texts, especially educational texts such as grammars, were probably copied in far greater numbers than in Late Antiquity, assuring the preservation of these texts. The Carolingian revival, however, is far removed from the search for African contacts with Europe in Late Antiquity. Fleury and Corbie were two of the most heavily patronized monastic establishments of Carolingian Gaul; I will not, however, attempt to analyze the Carolingian dissemination of African literature through these monasteries. What these "second stage" examples can show is where certain African texts were located in Italy, and how they reached their secondary destinations in Gaul. Following the examples of Fleury and Corbie, I will treat the individual manuscripts, from the Carolingian period or later, for which a direct late antique African exemplar can be postulated. Though these later manuscripts can also be considered "second stage" for their use of African texts already found on the continent, they can also suggest where and how such works reached Gaul from Africa in Late Antiquity.

B. The Earliest Fulgentius Manuscript in Southern Gaul

One early manuscript whose provenance can be attributed to southern Gaul with more certainty is Vatican, Vat. Reg. lat. 267 (I.104a-b), written in the late sixth/early seventh century in both uncial and half-uncial script.[368] This manuscript is

[368] A. Wilmart, *Bibliothecae Apostolicae Vaticanae codices manu scripti recensiti... Codices Reginenses Latini*, vol. II: *codd. 251-500* (Vatican 1945), pp. 54-57. Examined by SRG, Mar. 9, 2004.

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the earliest extant manuscript containing works by Fulgentius of Ruspe, and has a history just as fascinating as that of Vat. Bas. D.182. The works contained in Vat. Reg. lat. 267 date from about the time of his second exile in Sardinia.[369] Perhaps these works went straight to Italy from the bishop's place of sojourn in Cagliari in Sardinia, there to be copied half a century later into the Reginensis manuscript. This makes sense when considering the group of seven letters included at the end of the manuscript, the *Epistulae asceticae et morales septem* described in Chapter Two. Three of the recipients are Galla, Proba, and Eugippius, all of whom were in the area of Rome or Naples, and in contact with each other as well as Fulgentius. Furthermore, one must consider that the manuscript is divided into two parts: an uncial part (CLA I.104a), containing the *Ad Monimum* (ff. 1-98v: CPL 814), and a half-uncial part, containing the *Contra Arianos* (CPL 815), *Ad Trasimundum* (CPL 816), and the group of seven *epistulae* (ff. 99-228v). These two parts need not have traveled together during their early history, though, from palaeographical observations, it seems as if they were copied in the same milieu, if not in the same place at the same time. For example, both hands use the same uncial form of the "g," which is uncommon in half-uncial manuscripts. The forms of the "e," moreover, are identical, and in general appearance, the two scripts have the same well-executed quality. Lowe also points out that the prickings, while "peculiar," are identical in position, implying simultaneous composition. The likeliest provenance is considered

[369] Fraipont, *Fulgentii episcopi Ruspensis opera*, introduction.

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to be France, probably southern France Both Lowe and Wilmart posit southern France for origin, though Wilmart also suggests upper Spain for the uncial portion.[370]

Wherever it was written, Vat. Reg. lat. 267 left its place of origin at some point before the ninth century, and in its travelings picked up marginalia in several hands: Tironian shorthand, Merovingian, Visigothic, twelfth-century Latin in France, and modern cursive. It had certainly reached Fleury by the ninth century, and the monastery of St. Martial at Limoges by the twelfth (as seen from the ex-libris on f. 1v).[371] Perhaps the manuscript picked up its Visigothic minuscule in Spain, whence it traveled to France with the Visigoth Theodulf and his companions at the end of the late eighth century. Theodulf was, after all, Bishop of Orléans until his deposition in 818, and Orléans is but a short distance from Fleury. On the other hand, assuming at least one Visigothic scribe to be present at Orléans in the early ninth century, there is no need for the manuscript to have been in Spain at all in order to acquire its Visigothic marginalia. The manuscript may simply have traveled from the Rhône Valley to the Loire Valley, thence to modern Paris. If this is the case, then Vat. Reg. lat. 267 is one of the very few extant examples of French half-uncial; its similarities to half-uncial from Italy or Africa support the idea of an active sharing of manuscripts in the western Mediterranean into the sixth century.

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[370] Lowe, I.104a-b; Wilmart, *Bibliothecae Apostolicae Vaticanae*, pp. 55-57.

[371] No. 279 in the 12th/13th-cent. library catalog of St. Martial: L. Delisle, *Le Cabinet des manuscrits de la Bibliothèque nationale*, vol. II (Paris 1874, repr. Amsterdam 1969), p. 502.

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C. North African Manuscripts at the Library of Fleury

Fleury became the destination for other ancient texts and manuscripts besides the Reginensis of Fulgentius. Also known as Saint Benoît-sur-Loire, this monastery, founded in 651 by the Merovingian royal house and peopled with monks from Luxeuil in the early seventh century, became the final resting place for the relics of Benedict of Nursia, the founder of Benedictine monasticism. This translation alone, supervised by Mummolus, second abbot of Fleury, in July of 703, was recorded by Adrevald in his ninth-century *Historia translationis*,[372] and is a witness to travel and communication between southern Italy and what was to become a major abbey in France. The monks of Fleury, in bringing the bones of Benedict from Monte Cassino in southern Italy, apparently also brought books with them for their new library.[373] This suggestion implies that the leaves from late antique African manuscripts found at Fleury were from manuscripts originally taken to Monte Cassino from Africa, probably via Campania. Though the trip to Fleury represents the second stage of African textual transmission to Europe, it is significant for showing how most African texts and manuscripts found in Gaul arrived there after traveling up the Italian peninsula.

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[372] Adrevald, *Historia translationis S. Benedicti*, ed. E. De Certain, *Les Miracles de Saint Benoît* (Paris 1858), p. 4: *Mummolus gregis commissi custodias optime servans et lectioni assidue studium dans, inter caetera reperit in libris beati ac praecellentissimi viri Gregorii, Romani antistitis, quomodo sanctus ac Deo dilectus Benedictus agonis sui cursum in Beneventana provincia consummavit.* See M. Mostert, *The Library of Fleury: A Provisional List of Manuscripts*, Middeleeuwse Studies en Bronnen [Medieval Studies and Sources] III (Hilversum 1989), pp. 20-21, section 2.1 and n. 8.

[373] *Id.*, "The Tradition of Classical Texts in the Manuscripts of Fleury" in C. Chavannes-Mazel and M. Smith, eds., *Medieval Manuscripts of the Latin Classics: Production and Use*, Proceedings of The Seminar in the History of the Book to 1500, Leiden 1993 (Los Altos Hills, CA 1996), pp. 19-40, at p. 20.

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The translation of the relics of Benedict in 703 probably accounts for the presence at Fleury of a group of manuscript leaves, written in uncial and half-uncial, that may have been written in North Africa in the fifth and sixth centuries, pieces of which are brought together in Orléans, Bibl. mun. 192 (169).[374] The contents represent a basic patristic collection, with sixteen parts that were probably once part of sixteen separate codices. Of these sixteen parts, three were written in a script that most resembles other manuscripts of possible African origin. These three also contain texts by African authors: f. 1, Cyprian, *Epistula ad Donatum* (CLA VI.804); ff. 4-6, Optatus, *Contra Donatistas* (CLA VI.806); and ff. 40-41, Lactantius, *De opificio dei* (CLA VI.818). Orléans 192 (169) thus represents three individual African manuscripts that were each brought to Fleury (via Italy) by the early eighth century, then taken apart once copied and reused for binding purposes.

D. A Unique Sermon Collection As a Witness to an African Exemplar at Fleury

One Fleury manuscript from the seventh or eighth century contains a collection of nine sermons, almost certainly copied from an African exemplar of the sixth century, and unattested in any other manuscript.[375] It is now separated into two

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[374] A. Septier, *Manuscrits de la Bibliothèque d'Orléans* (Orléans 1820), p. 108; and C.Cuissard, *Catalogue général des manuscrits des bibliothèques publiques de France. Départements*, vol. XII: Orléans (Paris 1889).

[375] For a description, see *id.*, *Catalogue général*, pp. 66-71. (Cuissard inaccurately attributes the sermons to Cyprian.) For a discussion, see J. Leclercq, "Les inédits africains de l'homiliaire de Fleury" in *Rev. Bén.* 58 (1948): 53-72. Cuissard offers a date of 7th/8th cent.; Leclercq reports that Delisle also dated the manuscript to 7th/8th cent., while Wilmart offers a date of 8th cent. Leclercq bases his date of mid-8th cent. on palaeolographical considerations.

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parts: Orléans, Bibl. mun. 154 (131) and Paris, B.N. n.a. lat. 1598. The sermons in this manuscript are attributed to an African author because they use the version of the biblical text used by Cyprian, and because they were clearly influenced by Augustine. The nine sermons are on the following topics: Epiphany, Ascension, two on Pentecost, two on John the Baptist, two on martyrs, and the last on Macchabees. Not only does Jean Leclercq date these sermons to the patristic age after the death of Augustine, but he also suggests that one author wrote all nine sermons. They were copied at Fleury at a time when the monastery was experiencing a period of growth, due to the translation of the relics of Benedict from Monte Cassino. The exemplar containing these sermons may have therefore traveled from Monte Cassino with the relics and the various manuscripts now in Orléans, Bibl. mun. 192 (169). Whether the Fleury manuscript was copied directly from an African manuscript, or from a manuscript written in southern Italy, is impossible to ascertain.

The scribe at Fleury, however, obviously thought the sermons were of Gallic provenance when he ascribed them to Eusebius "Gallicanus" in the margin, referring to a group of sermons that were circulated in Gaul under the name of Eusebius in the fifth-century.[376] This may indicate that the exemplar for this Fleury manuscript was produced at a Gallic *scriptorium* in the fifth, sixth, or even seventh century, and not in Africa or southern Italy. Nevertheless, since Orléans 154 (131) + Paris n.a. 1598 is the only manuscript in which these sermons are attested, and the names of no African authors are provided, the sermons probably arrived in southern Gaul or southern Italy

[376] On f. 136, according to *ibid.*

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from Africa with an anonymous attribution. It is a little surprising that, while being copied in Italy or Gaul, the sermons were not attributed to Augustine, since many unattested sermons from Africa, especially those with Augustinian influence, were often attributed to the Bishop of Hippo. This sermon collection was most likely not the only example of African texts circulating anonymously in Europe; modern scholarship and textual analysis will have to determine a text's African origin where the manuscript evidence does not.

E. The Psalter of Charlemagne

The so-called "Psalter of Charlemagne," Paris, B.N. lat. 13159 (CLA V.652), is another unique African text preserved in a Carolingian manuscript, possibly hinting at an antique African manuscript that made its way to northern France by the ninth century. This psalter was written in an area of Carolingian court influence, possibly for the abbey of St. Riquier, near the turn of the ninth century, and has been the subject of scholarly interest since Wilmart first examined it in the 1920s.[377] This manuscript contains a series of psalm collects, or short prayers sung after psalms as part of a worship service. The practice of using such collects was almost certainly

[377] For more recent attention, see M. Masai, "Observations sur le Psautier dit de Charlemagne (Paris Lat. 13159)" in *Scriptorium* 6 (1952): 299-303; M. Huglo, "Un Tonaire du Graduel de la fin du VIIIe siècle (Paris, B.N. lat. 13.159)" in *Revue Grégorienne* 31 (1952): 176-186, 224-233; L. Brou, "Études sur les Collectes du Psautier: I. La série africaine et l'Évêque Verecundus of Junca" in *Sacris Erudiri* 6 (1954): 73-95; J.M. Canals Casas, *Las colectas de Salmos de la serie "Visita nos"*, Biblioteca Salmanticensis. Estudios 26 (Salamanca 1978); J. Gribomont, "Bulletin de la Bible Latine VII no. 487" in *RB* 95 (1985): 181-184 (review of Canals Casas); R. Pfaff, "Psalter Collects as an Aid to the Classification of Psalters" in *Studia Patristica* 18 (1989): 397-402; and T.S. Ferguson, "Africana Psalm Collects and the 'Psalter of Charlemagne': African or Carolingian?" in *RB* 108 (1998): 44-57. The date 795-800 comes from Ferguson.

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extinct by the ninth century, rendering their purpose to the Carolingians of a more scholarly nature than a practical one. Even though the psalm text used in Paris 13159 is the Gallican version and not the African one, which can be found in a similar collection of psalms in a sixth- or seventh-century manuscript from Verona (Bibl. cap. I, mentioned above),[378] the text of the accompanying collects nevertheless points to an African exemplar. References within the text of the collects recall the Vandal persecutions, Augustinian theology, and eastern-influenced practice.

Louis Brou suggests the possibility that Verecundus, bishop of Junca in Byzacena in the first half of the sixth century, was responsible for the compilation of the psalm collects, basing his suggestion mainly on similarities between the collects and Verecundus' *Commentarii super Cantica* (CPL 870). Brou's conclusion, however, was that Verecundus is unlikely to have compiled the collects. Fulgentius is similarly unlikely, in part because Brou places the collects in the period c. 475-484, thus making their composition too early for either Fulgentius or Verecundus. Thomas Ferguson offers no certain authorship for the collects, but agrees with Brou that Byzacena is a likely provenance, since it is the easternmost orthodox province of (Latin) North Africa. Specific authorship may remain indeterminate, and even African provenance is not entirely supportable, but that the manuscript Paris 13159 was written probably at Corbie for the abbey of St. Riquier near the turn of the ninth

[378] P. Capelle, *Le texte du psautier latin en Afrique*, Collectanea Biblica Latina IV (Rome 1913), pp. 117-118, sees in the Verona psalm text the daily practice of the community at Hippo.

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century (between 795 and 800) is fairly certain.[379] Ferguson explained the Carolingian interest in the psalm collects as "[n]ot wanting to waste any of the liturgical material that had been sent up from the Mediterranean," though he admits this is only a suggestion.[380] Also unsure is whether Paris 13159 was copied from an exemplar that came from late antique Africa, or whether its exemplar was European. Even if the exemplar for this Carolingian manuscript was not written in Africa, the text's rarity suggests that the exemplar was found in a library that contained other antique texts that were unusual by the turn of the ninth century: perhaps one of the late antique libraries of Gaul or perhaps Italy.

F. Laon 113 and a Rare Collection of African Texts

In continuing this survey of unique African texts found in Carolingian manuscripts, an important example is Laon, Bibl. mun. 113, a collection of patristic material copied at the cathedral chapter of Notre-Dame at Laon in the second quarter of the ninth century. Laon 113 contains a group of texts that may very well have been copied directly from a sixth-century manuscript written in North Africa,[381] considering its unique collection of fourteen texts, seven of which are not found in

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[379] Masai thinks Paris 13159 was written at Corbie for the abbey of St. Riquier, and Huglo also, independently, placed the manuscript at St. Riquier.

[380] Ferguson, "Africana Psalm Collects," p. 57.

[381] *Catalogue général des manuscrits des bibliothèques publiques des départements*, vol. I (Paris 1849), pp. 97-99. See also F. Dolbeau, "Une compilation morale africaine, formée d'extraits de Saint Augustin" in *RA* 35 (2005), *forthcoming; used by permission.*

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any other manuscript. The contents are as follows[382]: 1) *De trinitate fidei catholicae* (CPL 788); 2) *Libellus episcoporum catholicorum ad Unericum regem Wandalorum datum* (CPL 799); 3) *Nomina episcoporum catholicorum diversarum provintarum qui Carthagine ex praecepto regali venerunt pro reddenda ratione fidei* (CPL 801); 4) *Praefatio orationis soliloquiorum sancti Augustini* (CPL 252); 5) *Sermo de fluxu sanguinis eiusdem* (CPL 845); 6) *Sermo de natale S. Cypriani*; 7) *Sermo resurrectionis domini*; 8) *Sermo de nativitate domini* (CPL 1163c, no. 4); 9) *De nativitate sancti Iohannis*;[383] 10) *Dogma fidei catholicae* (Gennadius, CPL 958-958a); 11) *Epistola fidei catholicae in defensione trium capitulorum* (Facundus, CPL 868); 12) *Carmen natalis domini nostri Ihesu Christi* (Sedulius, CPL 1449); 13) *Epistola S. Hieronymi ad Oceanum et Sofronium de vita clericorum* (Pseudo-Jerome, CPL 633); and 14) *De quatuor virtutibus hoc est caritatis continentiae patientiae et paenitentiae*.[384] Texts numbered 1, 3, 5, 6, 7, 9, and 14 are found in no other manuscript, and texts numbered 2, 3, 4, 6, 9, and 11 (at least) are of African origin. Dolbeau suggests the collection was started under the Vandals, but not completed and circulated until after the Byzantine reconquest (or rather, after the addition of Facundus' text c. 550), making this collection thus another work that left Africa once

[382] Following Dolbeau's list of titles.

[383] F. Dolbeau and R. Étaix, "Le 'jour des torches' (24 juin), d'après un sermon inédit d'origine africaine" in *Archiv für Religionsgeschichte* 5 (2003): 243-259. A possible additional piece of evidence for the antiquity of the exemplar is that Dolbeau and Étaix conclude that the inconsistencies in copying mean that the scribe was using a hard-to-read exemplar, which might make sense if it were very old and written in a script that was not as familiar.

[384] This text is not to be confused with the *De quattuor virtutibus* of Quodvultdeus; Dolbeau edits it for the first time in the forthcoming article, "Une compilation morale africaine."

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administrative communication was reestablished in the mid-sixth century, like the Latin Anthology. What route this exemplar traveled on its way to Laon is unknown; the non-African texts of the collection—Gennadius, Sedulius, and Pseudo-Jerome—do not point to any specific provenance. The manuscript may not even have been written at Laon, though it was certainly there by the tenth century. Nor is it the only Laon manuscript with a postulated antique African exemplar: Paris, B.N. lat. 5643, from Laon in the ninth or tenth centuries, contains four martyr stories, two of which are about Donatist martyrs. From manuscripts such as these two, one can see that "[d]es livres africaines sont, apparement, passés en Europe du Ve au IXe siècle, de façon quasi ininterrompue."[385]

The African texts in Laon 113 include two works associated with the *Historia persecutionum* of Victor of Vita: namely, the *Libellus episcoporum catholicorum ad Unericum regem Vandalorum datum*, and the *Notitia provinciarum et civitatum Africae*, for which it is the only manuscript witness.[386] This last work (ff. 24-33v) serves as an index of bishops who were exiled by Huniric in 484, and because it follows upon the *Libellus episcoporum* (ff. 13v-24), it has become an appendix to Victor's larger work. Both Petschenig and Halm include this work after their editions of the *Historia persecutionum*, even though it does not accompany the history in any extant manuscript. In this manuscript, the *Notitia* accompanies the *Libellus*

[385] Dolbeau, "Une compilation morale africaine."

[386] Halm, *Victoris Vitensis historia persecutionis*, pp. v ff. Halm includes an edition of the *Notitia* after an edition of the *Passio beatissimorum martyrum*, which follows his edition of the *Historia persecutionis*.

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episcoporum catholicorum ad Unericum regem Vandalorum datum, also known as the *Libellus fidei catholicae*, the declaration of faith usually attributed to Eugenius of Carthage and later included in Victor's history. Gregory of Tours, for instance, mentions it in his *Historia Francorum* when he describes the exile of Eugenius to Albi in southern Gaul.[387] Since at least half of Laon 113 is composed of texts for which a late antique African exemplar can be postulated, the text of the *Libellus* which it contains may also have been copied directly from an antique exemplar, which would account for the superior status of its text. This furthermore suggests that the *Libellus* and the *Notitia* circulated together since, or shortly after, the time of their composition in the late fifth century, and that Victor may himself have used this collection as a source for his history. Whether this ancient exemplar came to Laon through an early Italian or Gallic center remains uncertain, but if it had traveled through Gaul, this may account for Gregory of Tours' familiarity with Eugenius of Carthage, as seen in Chapter Three. Though he does not mention the *Notitia* directly, his zealous sympathy for the plight of the exiled African bishops may indicate his familiarity with such a list. Even if the antique exemplar for Laon 113 did not reach northern France via the sixth-century bishop of Tours, however, a dissemination up through the Rhône Valley would be more than reasonable, considering the importance of the early ecclesiastical centers located there, and their connections to the ecclesiastical centers of late antique North Africa.

[387] Gregory of Tours, *The History of the Franks*, II. 3, p. 110: "[Eugenius] was successful in refuting Cyrola completely on the mystery of the Holy Trinity."

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G. An Anti-Arian Collection in Northern France in the Early Middle Ages

Two other ninth-century manuscripts from the cathedral library at Laon (Laon, Bibl. mun. 135 and 136) contain an African text not quite as rare as the *Notitia*, but represented in only ten extant manuscripts, all copied in medieval France. This text, an anonymous work on the Trinity, sometimes called *Testimonia de fide catholica* (CPL 843), and other times referred to only as the *De Trinitate*, was probably written in North Africa in the fifth century, in the midst of anti-Arian sentiment against the Vandal ecclesiastical establishment.[388] Attributed to Augustine in Laon 135 and 136, this text is also confused with the works of Vigilius of Thapse; both Augustine and Vigilius certainly wrote their own works against Arianism in fifth-century Africa, though this particular *De Trinitate* remains of uncertain attribution.[389] The only manuscript, in fact, which does not identify Augustine as the author is a tenth-century manuscript from St. Benigne in Dijon, now Dijon, Bibl. mun. 150 (117).[390] The monks at St. Benigne did not attribute the work to any author, though it does follow directly after the *Contra Felicianum Arrianum* (CPL 808), the authorship of which they attribute to Vigilius. Carolingian scribes had as much

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[388] *Florilegia biblica africana*, J. Fraipont in B. Schwank, eds., pp. 235ff. Fraipont is the one who refers to it as the *De Trinitate*, which obliges the reader to be extra careful when distinguishing between this work and the *Contra Felicianum Arrianum de Trinitate*, especially as the *De Trinitate* usually followed the *Contra Felicianum* in manuscripts.

[389] CPL 364 lists the work as Ps. Augustine, though written c.445-480 and thus well after Augustine's death.

[390] Molinier, Omont, Bougenot, and Guignard, *Catalogue général des manuscrits des bibliothèques publiques de France. Départements—tome V: Dijon* (Paris 1889), pp. 41-42. The *De Trinitate* is found on ff. 123-135, and is attributed by the editors of the modern catalog to Fulgentius of Ruspe (his *Pro fide catholica*).

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reason as modern editors to be confused by the various late antique anti-Arian works of uncertain authorship, for the entire theological and political controversy which gave rise to the debate in the fifth century was obsolete by the ninth. The debate, however, would still have had resonance in the fifth and even sixth centuries (when the last Gothic kings were converting to Orthodox Christianity), which may be when the exemplar for Dijon 150, Laon 135, and Laon 136 arrived in northern France. According to Fraipont's stemma,[391] the ten extant manuscripts of the text are grouped into two families, each of which derive from a late antique/early medieval exemplar in Gaul. exemplars arrived in both northern and southern France around the same time in Late Antiquity/the early Middle Ages.

The examples of Laon 135, 136, and Dijon 150, in their dissemination of a text of uncertain authorship, show that Vigilius of Thapse was an unfamiliar author to most readers during Late Antiquity and the early Middle Ages. He is not a *vir illustris* in any of the late antique or medieval lists, but he does appear in Cassiodorus' *Institutiones* (as mentioned in Chapter Four), as well as the list of bishops in the *Notitia Provinciae Byzacenae*,[392] though not in connection to the *De trinitate* or *Contra Felicianum Arrianum*. He was known to Theodulf of Orléans in the late eighth/early ninth century,[393] though it is unclear which works of his Theodulf

[391] Fraipont in Schwank, *Florilegia biblica africana*, p. 237.

[392] Mandouze, *Prosopographie chrétienne*, pp. 1204-1205, "Vigilius 3."

[393] M. Schanz and C. Hosius, *Geschichte der römischen Literatur bis zum Gesetzgebungswerk des Kaisers Justinian*, Handbuch der Altertumswissenschaft, vol. 8 (Munich 1907, repr. 1959), IV, 2, p. 1231.

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knew and read. The Dijon manuscript is apparently the only extant manuscript that correctly attributes one of Vigilius' works to him, and is supposedly descended from the same exemplar as the two Laon manuscripts, though the Laon manuscripts do not provide Vigilius' name. The exemplar for the Laon manuscripts and Dijon 150, of course, must have named Vigilius, meaning that some scribe in late antique Gaul was familiar with him, though this familiarity probably did not extend any further than his name. His writings for the most part circulated either anonymously or under the name of Augustine during the entire late antique period.

H. Vendôme 42 and a Rare African Sermon Collection

As with Laon 113, 135, and 136, a sermon collection found in the twelfth-century manuscript Vendôme, Bibl. mun. 42, also hints at an ancient, possibly African exemplar. This manuscript contains three rare sermons, two by Augustine, and one by an anonymous writer, that point to a North African provenance because of the hints of contemporary African events that they contain.[394] The rarity of the sermons by Augustine is an indication that the ancestor—or perhaps even direct exemplar—of the twelfth-century manuscript was a late antique African homilary. Further evidence for such an exemplar is the anonymous sermon, on the subject of the ascension and clearly anti-donatist in tone, which is only found in Vendôme 42 (ff.

[394] In general, reference to African events is one of the best indications of African provenance, naturally. Other signals of possible North African provenance, such as style, reference to other African writers, inclusion of biblical text attested mainly in Africa, are less trustworthy in and of themselves, but can help support other arguments for African provenance. See F. Dolbeau, "Un sermon anonyme pour l'ascension, reflétant la pastorale anti-donatiste d'Augustin" in F. Chausson and É. Wolff, eds., *Consuetudinis amor. Fragments d'histoire romaine (IIe-IVe siècles) offerts à Jean-Pierre Callu*, Saggi di Storia antica 19 (Rome 2003), pp. 231-250.

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110-111). The polemical tone of the anti-donatist writer, supported by specific word usage and version of biblical text, suggests that this sermon on the ascension was written during the height of the Donatist controversy in the fourth century. It was likely attached to the two Augustinian sermons at some point either in the fourth century or shortly thereafter, almost certainly in Africa. Its early provenance after Africa is however, unclear: even whether it traveled directly from Africa to Gaul is impossible to state with certainty.

I. A Lost Lobbes Manuscript Containing Dracontius

Carolingian monasteries were not only interested in sermons, schoolbooks, and patristic texts; they were instrumental in the production and dissemination of poetry as well. The poem *De laudibus dei* of Dracontius, for example, existed in its most complete form in a single manuscript witness: a tenth-century codex from Lobbes on the River Sambre, now lost.[395] This manuscript is known to have contained the complete *De laudibus dei*, as well as Dracontius' *Satisfactio*, because the monk Heriger of Liège (d. 1007) was using it between the years 965 and 980 to write a new version of the *Vita Ursmari*.[396] It also appears in a library catalog compiled at Lobbes sometime between the year 1049, in which a separate catalog list was compiled, and the mid-twelfth century, when the abbey was at its height.[397]

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[395] Dolbeau, "Sur un manuscit perdu de Dracontius."

[396] Dolbeau, *op. cit.*, p. 417, fns. 9-10.

[397] F. Dolbeau, "Un nouveau catalogue des manuscrits de Lobbes aux X^ie^ et XIIe siècles" in *RA* 13 (1978): 3-36, and 14 (1979): 191-248.

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The lost Lobbes manuscript of the *Laudes Dei* represents a separate branch of the Dracontian family tree, as it is unrelated to either of the two major families of manuscripts of the poem: i.e., the Eugenian tradition in Spain or the version in the twelfth-century Brussels manuscript, both discussed in the section above on Spanish transmission. Dracontius, whose poems were read by Venantius Fortunatus, Alcuin, and others, was thus well-represented in early medieval manuscripts in Gaul, at the least.[398] It is possible that an early exemplar of Dracontius could have reached Lobbes by means of Rather, alternatively monk at Lobbes and bishop of Verona, who thus had access to the previously mentioned wealth of texts at the Veronese cathedral chapter library. There is no evidence, however, that such an exemplar was ever at Verona. Furthermore, the school at Lobbes was renowned even before the time of Rather and Heriger, and could have therefore already acquired an early text of Dracontius from one of the Gallic/early French centers. The Lobbes school, founded at the end of the eighth century, and its accompanying *scriptorium* were best known for hagiographical works, although the study of the seven liberal arts was also a priority, to which genre the poems of Dracontius can be ascribed. Because the Lobbes Dracontius represented both the most complete recension of the *Laudes Dei* as well as a separate recension from the branches that went through Spain and Brussels, it reflects another Carolingian manuscript that may have been copied directly, or at short remove from, a late antique North African exemplar.

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[398] Though Alcuin may have gained a familiarity of Dracontius through an English recension; perhaps those used by Bede and Aldhelm.

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J. Late Antique Manuscripts at Corbie

Corbie was a center into which, through which, and out of which many African texts, both of a patristic and a secular nature, passed. As with Fleury, we can trace specific manuscripts to Corbie that were either written in North Africa or copied from Italian or Gallic manuscripts that were themselves copied from North African exemplars. One African book that was at Corbie by the eighth century is the late fourth-century manuscript of Augustine's *De doctrina christiana*, written at Hippo and now St. Petersburg, Publ. Libr. Q.v.I.3, mentioned above in section II. C. This manuscript, along with other antique manuscripts at Corbie, may have been brought from Italy by Abbot Grimo (d. 748), who went on an expedition to Rome in 739/741 to meet with Pope Gregory III.[399] The connections of its abbots to the royal court also resulted in the acquisition of many rare and ancient books from the royal library.[400] A group of manuscripts containing African texts that were written at Vivarium, furthermore, seem to have traveled to Corbie as a group sometime before the end of the eighth century; these will now be examined in greater detail.

David Ganz has identified a series of annotations found in a group of sixth- and seventh-century manuscripts that were at Corbie before the ninth century. This group includes 1) Paris, B.N. lat. 12214 + St. Petersburg, Libr. Publ. Q.v.I.4, a sixth-

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[399] D. Ganz, *Corbie in the Carolingian Renaissance*, Beihefte der Francia 20 (Sigmaringen 1990), p. 19.

[400] For the royal library, see also B. Bischoff, "Die Hofbibliothek Karls des Grosse" in *Karl der Grosse: Lebenswerk und Nachleben* (Düsseldorf 1965-98): pp. 42-62.

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century manuscript of Augustine's *De civitate dei* (CLA V.635); 2) Paris B.N. lat. 12097, a sixth- and seventh-century collection of canonical material from Gaul including Ferrandus' *Breviatio canonum* from c. 523 (CLA V.619); and 3) St. Petersburg, Q.v.I.6-10 (CLA XI.1614), a sixth-century collection of patristic texts including a copy of Fulgentius' *De fide ad Petrum* (Q.v.I.7).[401] Except for Paris 12097 (no. 2), which, as mentioned in section IV. A., was written in either Arles or Lyons in the Rhône Valley, the other two manuscripts may be attributed to Cassiodorus' *scriptorium* at Vivarium—that is, Paris 12214 + St. Petersburg Q.v.I.4 (no. 1) and St. Petersburg Q.v.I.6-10 (no. 3).[402] In addition to these two manuscripts, Paris B.N. lat. 12190[403] was also written at Vivarium and taken to the Merovingian *scriptorium* at Corbie, where a text of Augustine's *De consensu evangelistarum* was added to the end. All these manuscripts may have traveled as a unit from Vivarium to Rome (probably) in the late sixth or early seventh century after the dispersal of Cassiodorus' library, and from Rome were taken, as a group, to Corbie, possibly by Grimo in the mid-eighth century. Grimo is recorded by Fredegar, in his *Chronicle*, as traveling "to Rome in 739/741 to negotiate with Pope Gregory III over papal recognition for Charles Martel, in return for that ruler's assistance against the

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[401] Ganz, *Corbie in the Carolingian Renaissance*, pp. 40, 126-127. The Fulgentius manuscript is often referred to as Leningrad Q.v.I.7. O. Dobiaš-Rožděstvensky, *Les anciens manuscrits latins de la Bibliothèque Publique de Leningrad, I: V-VII siècles. Analecta Medii Aevi*, fasc. III (Leningrad [St. Petersburg] 1929), pp. 30-34. Also, *id.*, "Le codex Q.v.I.6-10 de la Bibliothèque publique de Leningrad" in *Speculum* 5 (1930): 21-48. Courcelle, Lowe, O'Donnell, and Troncarelli all basically agree with Dobiaš-Rožděstvensky on this Vivarian theory: Courcelle, *Les Lettres grecques*, p. 366; Lowe, CLA XI.1614; O'Donnell, *Cassiodorus*, p. 240; and Troncarelli, *Vivarium*, pp. 41, 61.

[402] Paris 12214 + St. Petersburg Q.v.I.4 is much more tentatively attributed to Vivarium.

[403] Containing Ephaemus Syrus' *Paranesis* and the *Vita Abrahae*. Ganz, *op. cit.*, p. 129, 126.

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Lombards."[404] If Cassiodorus' manuscripts were at the Lateran at that time, then perhaps Grimo acquired a stack of late antique codices from Pope Gregory III.

Two manuscripts written in North Africa may have also traveled from Vivarium to Corbie in this way: the Hippo manuscript of Augustine's *De doctrina christiana* from the year 396, mentioned above, and Vat. Bas. lat. D.182 of Hilary's *De trinitate*, which was taken to Sardinia by Fulgentius during his first exile. A significant number of extant manuscripts that were either written in North Africa or were copied in Italy from North African manuscripts were therefore preserved during Late Antiquity and the Middle Ages through this early passage of manuscripts from Vivarium to Corbie via Rome. Therefore, even if late antique manuscripts at Corbie do not suggest a direct route by which North African manuscripts reached Gaul (as with Ferrandus' *Breviatio*), they can suggest that these manuscripts came from Vivarium in southern Italy.

V. A NOTE ON AFRICAN TEXTS IN INSULAR LIBRARIES

Traces of African texts are difficult to locate in England and Ireland before the eighth century. Late antique works that can be demonstrated to have been read in Insular monasteries and cathedral schools almost certainly reached these centers after traveling across the European continent. African texts found in Insular libraries, therefore, do not demonstrate direct contact between Africa and England or Ireland,

[404] Fredegar as paraphrased by Ganz, *Corbie in the Carolingian Renaissance*, p. 19. (Fredegar, *The Fourth Book of the Chronicle of Fredegar*, ed. J.M. Wallace-Hadrill, London 1960, pp. 95-96.)

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but rather, contact with intermediary continental libraries, such as those of Rome, Liège, or Fleury. The connections between England and Rome would have certainly carried antique books to the islands and back, beginning with Gregory the Great's mission for Augustine (d. 604/5) to Canterbury. When Theodore of Tarsus succeeded to Augustine's former siege as bishop of Canterbury, he and Hadrian, and their Northumbrian guide Benedict Biscop,[405] brought books based on the Roman liturgy, which had only recently become uniform in England as well as Ireland at the Council of Whitby 664. This will explain the presence of computational texts, for the calculation of Easter dates, such as the computational tables from Carthage (CPL 145), used by Bede in the early eighth century. Benedict in fact traveled to Rome three times, bringing books back to England.[406] The Anglo-Saxon monks also had a particular interest in poetic and grammatical works, which will explain the presence of the African authors Pompeius Maurus, Martianus Capella, Marius Victorinus, and the poets of the Latin Anthology, though knowledge of these works predating Bede is uncertain.

Because African texts in Insular libraries points rather to connections between Africa and a location in Mediterranean Europe, the following example of a manuscript of Primasius of Hadrumetum fits appropriately at the end of the section of the chapter dealing with Gaul. Much like the subsection on African texts at Fleury, this example will highlight the second stage of transmission of this work, the

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[405] Bischoff and Lapidge, *Biblical Commentaries*, p. 5.

[406] Bischoff and Lapidge, *op. cit.*, p. 116.

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Commentarius in Apocalypsin,[407] which probably traveled to southern Gaul during its first stage of transmission from Africa. It may have traveled to Gaul from Italy, since it was known to Cassiodorus, as mentioned in Chapter Four. Oxford, Bodl. Douce 140 (CLA II.237) is, in fact, the only manuscript of a North African text that can possibly be attributed to England or Ireland before the ninth century.[408] Bede relied heavily on this work when he was composing his own commentary on the Apocalypse between 703 and 709.[409] Douce 140 is the earliest and most faithful surviving manuscript of the commentary, which is Primasius' only known work. It may possibly even be the very manuscript examined by Bede, thus providing a glimpse into the library contents of the monastery of Wearmouth-Jarrow in Northumbria.[410]

Lowe prefers an English origin of Douce 140, but the manuscript may have been written at a continental center under Insular influence. E.W.B. Nicholson, in his notes on the catalog description, sets forth an interesting case that this manuscript was written at St. Bertin or St. Riquier, both of them Columbanian centers just across the

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[407] Adams, *Primasius Episcopus Hadrumetinus.*

[408] A.C. de la Mare and B.C. Barker-Benfield, eds., *Manuscripts at Oxford: an exhibition in memory of Richard William Hunt (1908-1979), Keeper of Western Manuscripts at the Bodleian Library Oxford, 1945-1975, on themes selected and described by some of his friends* (Oxford 1980), p. 12, MS II.2.

[409] M.L.W. Laistner, *A Hand-List of Bede Manuscripts* (Ithaca, NY 1943), p. 25.

[410] *Id.*, "The Library of the Venerable Bede" in C.G. Starr, ed., *The Intellectual Heritage of the Early Middle Ages* (Ithaca, NY 1957), pp. 117-149; orig. in A.H. Thompson, ed., *Bede: His Life, Times, and Writings* (Oxford 1935), pp. 237-266. Bede's Apocalypse is important not only for its use of Primasius, but also for its use of the lost commentary by Tyconius, known now only through fragments in other authors (such as Bede) (p. 134).

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Channel in Picardy.[411] The script, he reasoned, most resembles that of a Hiberno-Saxon scribe writing in a French center. Perhaps this manuscript was copied by Hiberno-Saxon pilgrims following the pilgrimage route from England to Rome—perhaps it was even copied by members of one of Ceolfrith's traveling parties. This is certainly a fascinating, albeit conjectural, history, and Adams even suggests evidence in support of Nicholson's guesses,[412] though nothing less conjectural can be presented. The work does in fact appear in a St. Riquier catalog of 831 and a St. Bertin one of the twelfth century, for which the present manuscripts are yet unaccounted, as well as in library catalogs of St. Gall (9th cent.), Reichenau (822), Bobbio (10th cent.), and Murbach (?). Douce 140 is the best witness to the text, however, and is only distantly related, textually, to the other manuscripts in which it is found. The second-oldest manuscript of the work after Douce 140 is Carlsruhe, Landesbibl. Aug. CCXXII (CLA VIII.1097), from eighth-century Reichenau. As the eighth-century Carlsruhe manuscript from Reichenau is "one of the earliest books assignable" to that center,[413] it may have been brought there from elsewhere, perhaps in Gaul. Though Douce 140 and Carlsruhe CCXXII do not share the same direct parent manuscript, a distant antique exemplar from Gaul is a reasonable assumption for both manuscripts, though an exemplar from Italy is just as possible. England

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[411] F. Madan, *A Summary Catalogue of Western Manuscripts in the Bodleian Library at Oxford,* Vol. IV: Nos. 16670-24330 (Oxford 1897), p. 535 (general catalog entry, no. 21714, by Madan) plus pp. 717-719 (from the appendix, by E.W.B. Nicholson).

[412] Adams, *Primasius episcopus Hadrumetinus*, pp. xiii-xiv.

[413] According to Lowe.

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therefore acquired its books second-hand, so to speak, from Africa via either Italy or Gaul.

VI. CONCLUSION TO TEXTUAL TRANSMISSION

Already by the end of the Carolingian era the lines of transmission connecting a text in a tenth-century manuscript to its late antique ancestor are becoming obscure. For many African works, the centers through which they first passed to Europe cannot be determined. When they can be identified, however, then we have convincing evidence for contacts and cultural exchange between Africa and specific places in Europe. Cassiodorus certainly brought African books to southern Italy; Fulgentius of Ruspe exchanged African manuscripts for Italian ones from the area of Naples; and the first knowledge of the poetry of Dracontius north of the Mediterranean arrived in the southern Gaul of Venantius Fortunatus and the southern Spain of Eugenius of Toledo. Once these and other African works reached Europe, however, they were disseminated largely according to a different set of factors, which are intimately t0 with the development of European monasticism, ecclesiastical authority, and political consolidation in the early to high Middle Ages.

These new contexts no longer necessarily involved Africa, since medieval centers of learning preserved late antique African texts as they would any other. There is no exoticism about Africa—its history and theological controversies are well-absorbed into the history of larger Church history and the fight against heresy all

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over the western world. Fulgentius is a patristic writer of wide dissemination; Dracontius is an admired and imitated poet; and Augustine, of course, is one of the most influential theologians in western history. Those African texts that reached Europe before the end of the seventh century may be less familiar in modern times, but they constituted a respectable, if smaller, proportion of medieval libraries. The fall of Christian Africa at the end of the seventh century did not affect the dissemination of African texts already circulating in Europe, nor, apparently, the idea of Africa as a part of Christian Europe.

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CONCLUSION

Clearly a much larger number of manuscripts of the works of African writers came to Europe in the period between 430 and 697 than has hitherto been expected. The work of François Dolbeau and his colleagues has systematically uncovered these works to the benefit of modern scholarship. The existence of these texts in Late Antiquity and the existence of their descendents witness more fully than any other evidence the persistence of cultural contact between North Africa and Europe before the end of the seventh century. The evidence of letter collections, saints' cults, and African authors in *De viris illustribus* lists serves as a fitting prelude to the evidence of manuscripts: not only does the evidence of letter collections, saints' cults, and the *De viris illustribus* support the broad patterns of manuscript transmission, but, fundamentally, these preliminary chapters all deal with the transmission of texts, if only indirectly. Archaeological evidence may be important for an examination of North African culture in North Africa, but for North African culture overseas, the book, as a more portable form of evidence, is the most important witness to late antique North African culture.

An explanation of the context for the contacts shared between Africa and Europe during Late Antiquity was formed by surveying the existing economic, administrative, and personal contacts, and by examining how these changed over the course of the fifth, sixth, and seventh centuries. Tracing administrative and personal contacts by examining epistolary evidence revealed the communities of bishops and

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writers in Italy that exchanged letters and books with communities in Africa. Following many of these same routes of communication, but only in the direction out of Africa, were communities of exiles that were responsible for bringing saints' cults (and implied book collections) to Europe. The late antique *De viris illustribus* identified many of the African writers and writings known in Spain, Gaul, and Italy; the knowledge of these specific writings implied the presence of manuscripts that must have traveled from Africa to Europe by the time that these *De viris* were written. The search for African manuscripts yielded a respectable number of surviving codices (and leaves) of African origin, and also postulated African manuscripts that served as exemplars for Spanish, Gallic, or Italian manuscripts in cases where North African books were no longer extant. The different categories of evidence seem to be consistent in that Italy emerges as the primary destination for Africans and their books in Late Antiquity, with a significant amount of travel to Spain and Gaul as well.

The search for points of contact between North Africa and Europe in the period after the death of Augustine and before the Arab takeover of Carthage reveals a clearer picture of Africa as part of the Mediterranean world. During the political and religious upheavals of the Vandal regnum and Byzantine reconquest, North Africans maintained contact with the rest of the Latin-speaking world through their continued literary and episcopal activity. Writers and bishops (often the same group of people) are not, of course, the only people traveling between Africa and Europe at this time; trade routes and routes of administrative communication imply the

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movement of merchants, pilgrims, government officials, soldiers, and others. The texts (and in some cases, even the books) that African writers left behind, however, have survived in many cases where the more ephemeral evidence of trade and administration has not. This is not to suggest that trade evidence is negligent: the many finds of North African red slip ware, for example, have allowed Pirenne and Whitehouse and Hodges[414] to trace North African contact with the rest of the Mediterranean in the same way that I have traced texts and manuscripts. Peregrine Horden and Nicholas Purcell have even examined ecological, biological, and anthropological features of the Mediterranean in order to formulate a more inclusive picture of Mediterranean history during Late Antiquity.[415] They term this "the *ecologizing* approach"; the second "principal [way] in which Mediterranean unity has been characterized" is "the *interactionist* approach," dealing with communications.[416] My examination of the dissemination of North African texts to Europe along the routes of communication between groups of people, therefore, follows this *interactionist* approach to illustrate how North Africa fit into the Mediterranean as a whole before the end of the seventh century. North African texts, writers, saints, and books are more appropriately visualized as *Mediterranean* texts, writers, saints, and books.

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[414] Pirenne, *Mahomet et Charlemagne* and Hodges and Whitehouse, *Mohammed, Charlemagne and the Origins of Europe*; see Introduction, section C.

[415] P. Horden and N. Purcell, *The Corrupting Sea: a study of Mediterranean history* (Oxford 2000).

[416] Horden and Purcell, *The Corrupting Sea*, p. 10.

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The forms of evidence examined in my dissertation do not, therefore, focus on the idea of Africans as distinct from Visigoths, Gallo-Romans, Ostrogoths, Italians, Franks, or any other group of people mentioned in the preceding chapters. The only distinction is set up along religious lines: namely, that between Orthodox Catholics (African bishops) and Arian Christians (Vandals in Africa). Such a distinction allies African Catholics with the orthodox faithful anywhere in the Mediterranean world, and thus forges a stronger sense of identity among the African writers and saints mentioned and the contemporary writers and saints of Europe. The term "African" is mainly used as a toponym, and apparently has no other connotation in the texts. Most of the writers, furthermore, are simply designated, for example, "Fulgentius episcopus Ruspensis," which is an identification that does not imply that the person is from a distant land. The literate classes of the former western Roman provinces are always connected through the Latin language, as well as through the Catholic Church.

This is not to say that Africans did not contribute anything new to Mediterranean Christian and intellectual culture. Augustinian theology, apparent in anonymous sermons and in the works of Fulgentius, was just as influential in the religious realm as Martianus Capella's liberal arts textbook *De nuptiis Philologiae et Mercurii* was in the secular realm. Even the origin of half-uncial script was attributed to Africa by an Irish commentator on Jerome's Prologue on Job: "There are also African letters, which we call "clipped," and which we use frequently" (*Sunt et*

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Africane, quae tunse appellantur, quas in usu frequenti habemus).[417] This attribution is supported by the earliest dated appearance of half-uncial in a manuscript from Africa, the Vat. lat. Bas. D.182 of the *De trinitate* of Hilary of Poitiers.

North Africa was thus an active part of the religious and literary landscape of the late antique Mediterranean. This conclusion has been hinted at by the substantial base of modern scholarship that has dealt with North African topics, though the topic of cultural contact and dissemination is usually dealt with piece by piece. By focusing on where African books arrived in Europe, brought by groups of people carrying letters, saints' relics, and other objects, I hope to have offered a broader examination of the textual evidence connecting Africa and Europe. This evidence shows that North African writers were an integral part of the Christian and intellectual culture of the late antique western Mediterranean world, and continued their literary activity until about the mid-seventh century, at which point the textual evidence had already traveled permanently to Europe. Not only is Africa an essential part of late antique history, but it has become an essential part of modern late antique scholarship as well.

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[417] Quoted in B. Bischoff, "Die alten Namen der lateinischen Schriftarten" in *id.*, *Mittelalterliche Studien* 1 (Stuttgart 1966), pp. 2-5.

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Appendix One: Latin Manuscripts of Possible North African Origin

Bologna, Bibl. univ. 701 [CLA III.280]*
Second half of 5th cent., uncial.
Contains works of Lactantius.

El Escorial, Camarín de las Reliquias S.N. [CLA XI.1628a]*
4th or 5th cent.
Contains Eutropius, *De vera circumcisione* (Ps.-Hieronymus, Ep.XIX 1-3).
Possibly Spanish.

El Escorial, Camarín de las Reliquias S.N. [CLA XI.1629]
Early 7th cent.
Contains Augustine, *De baptismo parvulorum.*
Joined to the El Escorial Eutropius in the 6th or 7th cent.

London, Brit. Mus. Add. MS. 34473 (6) [CLA II.175]
Late 5th cent., uncial.
Contains Lucan, *De bello civili* (fragm.).

London, Brit. Mus. Add. MS. 40165 A.1 [CLA II.178]*
Late 6th cent., uncial.
Contains letters of Cyprian.

Marburg, Staatsarchiv Hr. I. 1 [CLA S.1728]*
Early 5th cent., uncial.
Contains Cyprian, *De opere et eleemosynis* (fragm.).
Portion of bifolium, used as fly-leaf.

Monte Cassino, Archivio della Badia 271 [CLA III.375]
7th cent., uncial, primary script.
Contains Augustine, *In psalmos*, cxl-cl.
Shares same manuscript history as Rome, Vallicell. B. 38[11] (ff. 1-34) and Vat. Ott. lat. 319. If not of African origin, then direct witness to North African exemplar.

Munich, Bayer. Staatsbibl. CLM 6436, ff. 2-18, 22-23, 25-30 + **Munich, Universitätsbibl. 4° 928 + Göttweig, Stiftsbibl. S.N.** [CLA IX.1286a; X, p. 2, **1286a]*
Second half of 6th cent.
Contains the antehieronymian Pauline epistles.

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Naples, Bibl. naz. lat. 1 (Vindobon. 17) [CLA III.389]*
5th cent., uncial.
Contains the version of the antehieronymian Book of Kings found in the Turin Cyprian MSS and the Codex *k* of the gospels.

Orléans, Bibl. mun. 192 (169) f. 1 [CLA VI.804]*[418]
5th cent., uncial.
Contains Cyprian, *Epistula ad Donatum.*
Single folio preserved as fly-leaf, gathered together with other antique leaves into single codex at Fleury.

Orléans, Bibl. mun. 192 (169) ff. 4-6 [CLA VI.806]*
Late 6th cent., half-uncial.
Contains Optatus, *Contra Donatistas* (Bk. vii, fragm.).
Three loose leaves, gathered together with other antique leaves into single codex at Fleury.

Orléans, Bibl. mun. 192 (169) ff. 40-41 [CLA VI.818]
Second half of the 5th cent., uncial.
Contains Lactantius, *De opificio Dei.*
Loose leaves, gathered together with other antique leaves into single codex at Fleury.

Paris, BN lat. 6400 G, ff. 113-130 [CLA V.565]*
5th cent., uncial, primary script.
Contains the antehieronymian Acts of the Apostles and the Apocalypse.

Paris, B.N. lat. 9533 [CLA V.587]
6th cent., half-uncial.
Contains Augustine, *In psalmos.*

Paris, BN lat. 17225 [CLA V.666]
5th cent., uncial.
Contains the antehieronymian version of the gospels (*Codex Corbeiensis*).

Paris, B.N. n.a. lat. 1114 [CLA V.680]*
5th or 6th cent., a-type half-uncial.
Contains *Tractatus de Manichaeis* (fragm.).
Found in a cave in Tebessa.

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[418] An asterisk (*) indicates MSS on Lowe's list of MSS in CLA of African origin, CLA Suppl., introduction.

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Reims, Bibl. mun. 1424 + Berlin, Phillipps 1741 ff. 209, 210 [CLA VI.825]
First half of the 7th cent., half-uncial, almost miniscule.
Contains the passions of St Pionius and companions and of St Theodosia (fragm.).
Loose leaves used in binding. Was at the monastery of St. Catherine at Mt. Sinai; Bischoff suggests it was originally from western North Africa.[419]

Rome, Vallicelliana B. 38[11] ff. 1-34 [CLA IV.431]
7th cent., uncial.
Contains Augustinus, *In psalmos*.
Shares same manuscript history as Vatic. Ottobon. Lat. 319 and Monte Cassino 271. If not of African origin, then direct witness to North African exemplar.

Rome, Vallicelliana B. 38[11] f. 113 (formerly 107) [CLA IV.432]
6th or 7th cent., half-uncial (similar to that of Vat. Bas. lat. D. 182 and Paris 9533)
Contains Augustine, *In psalmos*.
Possibly served as exemplar for Rome, Vallicell. B. 38[11] (ff. 1-34), Vat. Ott. lat. 319, and Monte Cassino 271.

St. Gall, Stiftsbibl. 213 [CLA VII.923]*
First half of 5th cent., uncial, primary script.
Contains Lactantius, *Divinae institutiones*.

St. Petersburg, Publ. Libr. Q.v.I.3 [CLA XI.1613]*
Late 4th or early 5th cent. (396-426), uncial.
Contains Augustine, *Libri II ad interrogata Simpliciani*.
Product of Augustine's *scriptorium* at Hippo.

Trent, Mus. Naz. S.N. + Dublin, Trinity College 1709 (N.IV.18) + London, Brit. Mus. Add. MS. 40107 [CLA II, p. 17; IV.**437]*
5th cent.
Codex Palatinus (*e*)

Turin, Bibl. naz. F.IV.27 + Milan, Ambros. D.519 inf. + Vat. lat. 10959
[CLA IV.**458, I.**, p.18]*
4th or 5th cent., uncial.
Contains letters of Cyprian.
Thirty-three folios survive: twenty-four at Turin, one at the Vatican (originally between ff. 8 and 9 of the Turin portion), plus eight used as fly-leaves at Milan.

Turin, Bibl. naz. G.V.37 [CLA IV.464]*
5th cent., uncial.

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[419] Bischoff, *Latin Palaeography*, p. 97.

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Contains Cyprian, *De opere et eleemosynis, De sacramento calicis.*
Was at Bobbio.

Turin, Bibl. naz. G.VII.15 [CLA IV.465]*
4th or 5th cent., uncial.
Codex Bobiensis (*k*): contains version of the antehieronymian gospels of Matthew and Mark used by Cyprian.
Was at Bobbio; may have belonged to Columbanus.

Vatican, Archivio della Basilica di S. Pietro D. 182 [CLA I.1a-b]*
1a: 6th cent. (after 509/510), uncial; 1b: late 5th, early 6th cent. (before 509/510), half-uncial.
Contains Hilary of Poitiers, *De trinitate.*
Marginal notes to half-uncial portion, and perhaps uncial part of text written in Cagliari, Sardinia by Fulgentius of Ruspe.

Vatican, Ott. lat. 319 + Rome, Vallicell. B. 38^{11} ff. 1-2, 37-106, 108-116 [CLA I.67]
7th cent., uncial.
Contains Augustine, *In psalmos*, lxxxi-xc.
Shares same manuscript history as Rome, Vallicell. B. 38^{11} (ff. 1-34) and Monte Cassino 271. If not of African origin, then direct witness to North African exemplar.

Verona, Bibl. cap. XXVIII (26), [CLA IV.491]*
First half of 5th cent. (after 420), uncial.
Contains Augustine, *De civitate Dei.*

Vienna, Nationalbibl. Papyrussammlung L.87 [CLA X.1530]
4th or 5th cent.
Contains fragments of unknown texts.
Found in Egypt.

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Appendix Two: North African Writers and Their Works, 430-697

The following names of authors and texts, with their categories, are taken from E. Dekkers, *Clavis patrum latinorum*, 3rd ed., Steenbrugge, 1995.

A concilio Nicaeno ad concilium Chalcedonense, Scriptores Africae

Possidius, Bishop of Calama, mid-5th cent.
Vita Augustini, CPL 358
Operum S. Augustini elenchus, CPL 359
Eraclius, presbyter, mid-5th cent.
Sermones dubii, ii, CPL 387-388
Capreolus, Bishop of Carthage (d. 437)
Epistula ad Ephesinam synodum, CPL 397
Epistula Vitalis et Constantii ad Capreolum, CPL 398
Epistula ad Vitalem et Constantium, CPL 399
Epistula ad Theodosium Augustum, CPL 400
Quodvultdeus, Bishop of Carthage (d. c. 454),
Sermo 1, de symbolo i, CPL 401
Sermo 2, de symbolo ii, CPL 402
Sermo 3, de symbolo iii, CPL 403
Sermo 4, contra Iudaeos, paganos et Arianos, CPL 404
Sermo 5, de cantico novo, CPL 405
Sermo 6, de [ultima] quarta feria, CPL 406
Sermo 7, de cataclysmo, CPL 407
Sermo 8, de accedentibus ad gratiam, i, CPL 408
Sermo 9, de accedentibus ad gratiam, ii, CPL 409
Sermo 10, adversus quinque haereses, CPL 410
Sermo 11, de tempore barbarico, i, CPL 411
Sermo 12, de tempore barbarico, ii, CPL 412
Sermo 13, de quattuor virtutibus caritatis, CPL 412a
De promissionibus et praedictionibus dei, CPL 413
Epistulae ii Quodvultdei ad Augustinum, CPL 413a
Dubia:
Sermo de dominica oratione, CPL 414
Sermo de SS. Perpetua et Felicitate, CPL 415
Sermo sancti Augustini de Evangelio ubi Dominus de aqua vinum fecit, CPL 416
Sermo in natali domini, CPL 417
Sermo de cantico Isaiae, CPL 417a
Sermo (fragm.), CPL 417b
Anonymous African sermons (4th-5th cent.)

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i. *De eunucho regni caelorum*, CPL 418
ii. *De dilectione Dei ac proximi*, CPL 419
iii. *Sermo S. Augustini*, CPL 420
iv. *De ove perdita*, CPL 421
v. *De centuplo*, CPL 422
vi. *De muliere Samaritana*, CPL 423
vii. *De regulo*, CPL 424
viii. *Item de eodem*, CPL 425

Honoratus Antoninus, Bishop of *Constantine* (d. after 437)
Epistula cohortatoria ad Arcadium, CPL 426

Marius Mercator (5th cent.), CPL 780-781
Commonitorium adversum haeresim Pelagii, CPL 780
Commonitorium super nomine Caelestii, CPL 781

A concilio Chalcedonensi ad Gregorium Magnum, Scriptores Africae

Victor, Bishop of Vita (d. after 484)
Historia persecutionis Africanae provinciae, CPL 198
[Eugenius of Carthage], *Expositionis fidei*, CPL 799

Passio vii monachorum (*Liberati et soc.*), CPL 800

Notitia provinciarum et civitatum Africae, CPL 801

Homilia de S. Cypriano, CPL 802

Sigisteus, *Comes* (5th or 6th cent.)
Epistula ad Parthemium, CPL 803
Parthemii presbyteri rescriptum ad Sigisteum, CPL 804
Eiusdem epistulae conclusio metrica, CPL 805

Vigilius, Bishop of Thapse (d. late 5th/early 6th cent.)
Adversus Eutychetem, CPL 806
Contra Arianos, Sabellianos, Photinianos dialogus, CPL 807
Dubia:
Contra Felicianum Arianum de unitate trinitatis, CPL 808
Spuria:
Sermo in natali domini, CPL 809
Sermo de duplici in Christo natura, CPL 810
Fragmenta xvi, CPL 811
Solutiones obiectionum Arianorum, CPL 812

Cerealis, Bishop of Castellus Ripa (d. late 5th/early 6th cent.)
Libellus contra Maximinum Arianum, CPL 813

Fulgentius, Bishop of Ruspe (d. c. 527/532)
Ad Monimum l. iii, CPL 814
Dicta regis Trasamundi et contra ea responsiones, CPL 815
Ad Trasamundum regem l. iii, CPL 816
Epistulae xviii, CPL 817
Epist. ad Faustinum, CPL 817a

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Autographae notae marginales in codice Basilicano S. Hilarii de trinitate, CPL 818
De trinitate ad Felicem notarium, CPL 819
Epistula Victoris de sermone Fastidiosi Ariani, CPL 820
De remissione peccatorum ad Euthymium l. ii, CPL 821
Epistula Scarilae and *De incarnatione filii dei et vilium animalium auctore*, CPL 822
De veritate praedestionationis ad Ioannem presbyterum et Venerium diaconum, l. iii, CPL 823
Contra Fabianum, CPL 824
De Spiritu sancto ad Abragilam presbyterum commonitorium, CPL 825
Fragmenta iv ex opusculis ad Eugippium presbyterum contra sermonem cuiusdam Pelagiani directis, CPL 825a
De fide ad Petrum, CPL 826
Psalmus abecedarius, CPL 827
Sermones viii:
1. *De confessoribus* or *De dispensatoribus domini*, CPL 828
2. *In natali domini* or *De duplici nativitate christi*, CPL 829
3. *De S. Stephano* [*et de conversione S. Pauli*], CPL 830
4. *De Epiphania* [*deque Innocentium nece, et muneribus Magorum*], CPL 831
5. *De caritate* [*dei ac proximi*], CPL 832
6. *De Epiphania*, CPL 833
7. *Sermo*, CPL 834
8. *Sermo*, CPL 835

Dubia et Spuria:
Sermones vi:
1. *De Cypriano*, CPL 836
2. *De latrone*, CPL 837
3. *De sancto die Pentecostes*, CPL 838
4. *De eo quod ait Michaeas propheta "Indicabo tibi homo quid sit bonum,"* CPL 839
5. *In natali domini*, CPL 840
6. *In circumcisione domini*, CPL 841

In purificatione beatae virginis Mariae, CPL 842
Testimonia de fide catholica or *Adversus Pintam*, CPL 843
Sermones lxxx, CPL 844
Sermo de fluxu sanguinis, CPL 845
Sermo S. Fulgenti episcopi de simbolo, CPL 846
Sermo in Matthaeum, CPL 846a
Fragmenta vi sermonum, CPL 846b

Ferrandus, deacon at Carthage (d. 546/547)
Vita S. Fulgentii, CPL 847
Epistulae, CPL 848

Fulgentius the Mythographer (6th cent.)

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Mitologiarum l. iii, CPL 849
Expositio Virgilianae continentiae, CPL 850
Expositio sermonum antiquorum, CPL 851
De aetatibus mundi et hominis, CPL 852
Super Thebaiden, CPL 853

Victor, Bishop of Cartenna (mid. 5th cent.)
De paenitentia, CPL 854

Anonymous texts (5th/6th cent.) from Fleury homilary:
De Epiphania, CPL 855
De Ascensione, CPL 856
In Pentecosten, CPL 857
Item sermo unde supra, CPL 858
De sancto Iohanne Baptista, CPL 859
Item in natale sancti Iohannis, CPL 860
In natale martyrum diversorum, CPL 861
Item unde supra, CPL 862
In natale Machabaeorum, CPL 863

Pontianus, Bishop of Thenitanus (mid. 6th cent.)
Epistula de tribus capitulis ad Iustinianum Imperatorem, CPL 864

Liberatus, deacon at Carthage (second half of 6th cent.)
Breviarium causae Nestorianorum et Eutychianorum, CPL 865

Facundus, Bishop of Hermiane (d. after 571)
Pro defensione trium capitulorum l. xii, CPL 866
Contra Mocianum scholasticum, CPL 867
Epistula fidei catholicae in defensione trium capitulorum, CPL 868

Verecundus, Bishop of Iunca (d. c. 552)
Carmen de satisfactione paenitentiae, CPL 869
"Commentarii super Cantica ecclesiastica," CPL 870
Spuria:
Excerptiones de gestis Chalcedonensis Concilii, CPL 871

Junillus Africanus (mid. 6th cent.)
Instituta regularia divinae legis, CPL 872

Primasius, Bishop of Hadrumetum (mid. 6th cent.)
Commentarius in Apocalypsin, CPL 873
Quid haereticum facit, CPL 873a

Victor, Bishop of Carthage (mid. 7th cent.)
Epistula ad Theodorum papam, CPL 874

Columbus, Stephanus, Reparatus, (and other African bishops)
Epistula ad Theodorum papam, CPL 875

Stephanus, (and other bishops from Byzacena)
Epistula ad Constantinum Augustum, CPL 876

Gulosus, Probus (and other bishops from Africa Proconsularis)
Epistula ad Paulum episc. Constantinopolitanum, CPL 877

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Poetae latini

Dracontius (late 5th cent.)
Laudes dei, CPL 1509
Hexaemeron or *Eugeniana recensio Laudum dei*, CPL 1510
Satisfactio, CPL 1511
Eugeniana recensio Satisfactionis, CPL 1512
Romulea, CPL 1513
Orestis tragoedia, CPL 1514
Flavius Cresconius Corippus (mid. 6th cent.)
Iohannes or *De bellis Libycis*, CPL 1515
In laudem Iustini, CPL 1516
Anthologia latina (mid. 6th cent.), CPL 1517
Symphosius Scholasticus (4th or 5th cent.)
Centum epigrammata tristicha aenigmatica, CPL 1518
Appendix quatuor aenigmatum, CPL 1518a

Collectiones iuris canonici

Concilium Carthaginense (525), CPL 1767
Concilium Carthaginense (536), CPL 1767a
Breviatio canonum (c. 546), CPL 1768
Concordia canonum (c. 690), CPL 1769
Sylloge canonum Africanorum collectionis Laureshamensis (?), CPL 1769a
Sylloge Africanorum conciliorum in epitome Hispanica (?), CPL 1769b

Orationes et libelli precum

Collectarum orationum ex antiquis psalteriis, series africana, CPL 2015

Martyrologia et kalendaria

Kalendarium Carthaginense (early 6th cent.), CPL 2030

Acta martyrum antenicaena[420]

Acta *Scillitanorum*, CPL 2049
Pseudo-Tertullian, *Passio SS. Perpetuae et Felicitatis*, CPL 32
Passio S. Crispinae, CPL 2049a
Pontius, deacon, *Passio S. Cypriani*, CPL 52

[420] Note: Many of these texts were written before 430. Because many of them did not experience transmission to Europe until after 430, and because I mention many of them in Chapter Three, I will include them here.

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Passio Mariani et Iacobi, CPL 2050
Passio SS. Montani et Lucii, CPL 2051
Acta *S. Maximiliani*, CPL 2052
Passio S. Marcelli Tingitani, CPL 2053
Passio S. Felicis episcopi Thibiacensis, CL 2054
Anonymous (Donatist), *Passio SS. Saturnini, Dativi, Felicis, Ampelii et sociorum*, CPL 2055
Passio S. Arcadii Caesareae Mauritaniae, CPL 2059
Passio S. Cassiani ludimagistri, CPL 2060
Passio S. Fabii vexilliferi, CPL 2061
Passio SS. Mammarii presbyteri et soc., CPL 2062
Passio SS. Maximae, Secundae et Donatillae, CPL 2063
Passio S. Salsae virginis Tipasitanae, CPL 2064
Titulus in basilica Tipasitana (inscription), CPL 2065
Passio SS. Siriaci [*Cyriaci*] *et Paulae*, CPL 2066
Passio S. Typasii Ticavensis in Mauritania, CPL 2067

Chronographi et chronistae

Liber generationis (3 recensions), CPL 2253
Liber genealogus anni ccccxxvii-cccclii, CPL 2254
Anonymous addition to Prosper, *Epitoma chronicorum* (446-455), CPL 2258
Epitome Carthaginensis (of Prosper, *Epitoma chronicorum*), CPL 2258
Victor of Tonnenna, *Continuatio Prosperi* (444-567), CPL 2260

Computistae et computationes

Augustalis, (bishop? before 296)
Laterculus ab a. 213 usque ad a. 312, CPL 2274
Pseudo-Cyprian (?)
De pascha computus, CPL 2276
Quintus Iulius Hilarianus, bishop (?)
De ratione Paschae et mensis, CPL 2279
De cursu temporum, CPL 2280
Pseudo-Cyril of Alexandria (writing in 482)
Praefatio de ratione Paschae, CPL 2290
Prologus de ratione Paschae, CPL 2291
De ratione Paschae or *Computus Carthaginensis* (455), CPL 2296

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